Beyond Recipient Utility:
Non-Welfarist Preferences and the Targeting of In-Kind Transfers*

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Abstract

Political debates often invoke moral concerns to justify in-kind transfers, such as a right to health care. These concerns seem to go beyond how the goods affect recipients' welfare, and appear to differ across goods. Economists, by contrast, typically evaluate transfers using "welfarist" frameworks that depend only on how goods affect recipients' utility and do not permit good-specific redistributive concerns beyond such impacts. We perform real-stakes experiments that isolate non-welfarist from welfarist motives. We find sizable non-welfarist preferences to provide health care and legal aid to low-income recipients, and weaker non-welfarist preferences for comparison goods such as bus passes and YMCA memberships. In targeting experiments, participants favor more universal provision of lawyers and health care, even holding welfarist value fixed. We estimate a model that maps participants' targeting choices into good-specific welfare weights. Goods associated with stronger moral concerns receive less progressive welfare weights and, consequently, are optimal to provide more universally than comparison goods with equal impacts on recipients' utility.

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Debates over the free provision of goods to needy people often invoke "rights": consider the so-called rights to health care, legal counsel, or housing. Advocates often make such moral appeals to argue for more universal, less-targeted redistribution of these particular goods.[1] Moreover, this rights rhetoric also varies sharply across goods; health care seems more associated with rights than, say, public transit subsidies. The implication is that redistributive concerns may also differ good-by-good, due to domain-specific moral considerations. Yet, economists usually evaluate policies with "welfarist" frameworks that value allocations only through their impacts on recipients' utility. Welfarist policy frameworks often neglect non-welfarist rationales like rights or other moral concerns, and do not allow redistributive preferences to vary across goods that have the same impacts on utility.

Understanding the nature of non-welfarist concerns over particular goods is important for at least three reasons. First, it bears on the agenda in "positive welfare economics" of characterizing redistributive and moral preferences (Cappelen et al., 2007, 2013, 2020, 2023; Lockwood and Weinzierl, 2016; Hvidberg et al., 2023; Andre, 2024; Bénabou et al., 2024; Almås et al., 2026; Ambuehl and Bernheim, 2026; Ambuehl et al., 2026). Second, it could inform debates about whether governments should provide in-kind benefits instead of equivalent cash transfers, which let recipients buy whatever maximizes their utility. The presence of non-welfarist preferences for provision of certain goods could provide a distinct rationale for in-kind assistance (Ambuehl et al., 2025), alongside classical second-best arguments (e.g., market failures, political-economy constraints on redistribution, or behavioral biases, as surveyed in Currie and Gahvari, 2008). Third, non-welfarist concerns may shape the optimal targeting of different forms of assistance; goods that evoke non-welfarism may warrant more universal targeting than other goods. More generally, variation in non-welfarist concerns could challenge the standard practice of applying a single schedule of social welfare weights to capture distributional concerns across policy domains (Saez and Stantcheva, 2016; Capozza and Srinivasan, 2026; Rodemeier and Sun, 2026).[2]

Do people care directly about the provision of goods to third-party recipients, beyond the utility those goods confer? To what extent do these moral concerns differ across goods? How do such preferences affect the optimal allocation of in-kind assistance, and the use of the same set of welfare weights across domains? Answering these questions is difficult, as nonwelfarist preferences are challenging to distinguish from classical rationales for in-kind provision. Laboratory experiments can isolate preferences more cleanly, but their connection to real policy choices is sometimes tenuous,

[1] As an example, President Barack Obama said, "Health care is not a privilege for the fortunate few — it is a right" (Obama, 2013). Since 2017, more than 20 U.S. cities and five states have passed "right to counsel" policies, which give free lawyers to defendants in eviction cases. The American Civil Liberties Union argues, "Tenants' right to legal representation in eviction cases is a civil liberties issue, a gender justice, racial justice, and economic justice issue" (ACLU, 2022).

[2] This idea is consistent with Walzer (1983)'s influential *Spheres of Justice*, which holds that non-welfarist principles are domain-specific and different goods require distinct welfare criteria.

as existing paradigms often measure deliberately abstract choices over cash allocations. We address these challenges with a suite of experiments that move from identifying non-welfarist preferences in real-world policy settings, to explaining why they differ across goods, to quantifying how they shape the targeting of in-kind assistance.

We begin with a simple theoretical framework that formalizes the distinction between welfarist and non-welfarist preferences (Section 1). In the model, people in society can care directly about what goods others receive, even fixing others' utilities. Then, even a conventionally welfarist social welfare function that simply aggregates people's utilities places intrinsic value on the provision of particular goods, and thus behaves *as if* it were non-welfarist. People's non-welfarist preferences can be operationalized for policy analysis through good-specific social welfare weights: relative to a benchmark redistribution parameter, each good receives an additive adjustment that captures the strength of its respective non-welfarist concerns.

Before turning to the experiments, we present motivating evidence that suggests the practical relevance of nonwelfarist preferences (Section 2). We use text analysis of the Congressional Record and Reddit forum posts to show that public debates over some in-kind goods frequently invoke rights. These appeals are strongly domain-specific: they are much more common in discussions of health care, legal representation, or water than in discussions of recreation or transit. Appeals to rights are also common in debates over expanding access to the good, consistent with nonwelfarist concerns shaping policy targeting. This descriptive evidence suggests that social preferences over the goods given out have the potential to influence how broadly assistance is provided.

Of course, none of this evidence is dispositive, which leads to our central empirical exercise: a series of experiments designed to isolate non-welfarist preferences and measure how they shape the targeting of in-kind assistance. Spectators on Prolific face incentivized choices about allocating goods to low-income Recipients in Memphis, Tennessee (Section 3). We experimentally manipulate whether the choice involves a pre-registered "rights good" (lawyers, health care) where non-welfarist concerns may be especially prevalent, or a neutral benchmark good (YMCA memberships, bus tickets) where we expect them to be less important. Beyond capturing economically important domain-specificity, the differences across goods offer a lower bound on non-welfarist preferences for in-kind provision: they purge elicitation errors, experimenter demand effects, and other issues that may affect levels of behaviors in an online sample. We partner with a Memphis nonprofit to enact some Spectator choices about lawyers and benchmarks, adding realism to the laboratory context through field implementation. Health care choices are always hypothetical, so we embed several tests for the impacts of incentives and reject even small differences in behavior from lack of incentives.

Our first three experiments ($N = 1{,}800$) test for the magnitude and variation across goods of

non-welfarist concerns. At a high level, we construct real scenarios that hold Recipients' utilities fixed but vary features of the allocation that are irrelevant under welfarism. We examine core philosophical principles associated with rights: that certain rights are "inalienable," that they may involve exercising autonomy or freedom to choose, and that they relate to fairness or equal treatment under the law. This experimental paradigm reveals substantial non-welfarist preferences and, when conducted across different goods, meaningful domain specificity.

The *Inalienability Experiment* is motivated by the philosophical principles of inalienability — i.e., that there is a particular harm from taking away a good or freedom — and procedural justice (Section 4). Specifically, the Inalienability Experiment tests whether Spectators are willing to pay to preserve an allocation even when doing so has no effect on Recipients' utility. We tell Spectators that a lottery assigns a good to one of two *ex ante* identical Recipients. We elicit Spectators' WTP to prevent the experimenter from rerunning the lottery and potentially reallocating the good. Because neither Recipient learns the initial lottery result, reference dependence or endowment effects on Recipient utility cannot justify paying to preserve the lottery, and welfarist Spectators' WTP to preserve the lottery should be zero. Yet, 46% of Spectators have positive WTP to preserve the initial lottery for benchmark goods. And 53% preserve the lottery for rights goods, a 7.8 pp difference (s.e. 2.5 pp, $p = 0.002$), which is consistent with domain-specificity.

The *Choice Experiment* performs another test for non-welfarist concerns, this time studying whether Spectators intrinsically value giving Recipients choice (related to, e.g., the capabilities approach in Sen, 1985). Consider a Spectator who is certain that a Recipient would choose $\$y$ in cash over a lawyer. The Spectator should never pay to let the Recipient choose between the two rather than giving them $\$y$ directly, unless the Spectator values providing choice. The Choice Experiment creates situations where Spectators are sure that the Recipient would choose cash over a good, and then elicits WTP to let the Recipient choose anyway. Among Spectators who are at least 90% sure the Recipient will choose cash, 38% are willing to pay to provide choice with benchmark goods, compared with 55% for rights goods (s.e. of difference 3.0 pp, $p < 0.001$). The gap remains large even among Spectators who report 100% certainty that the good will not be chosen, again indicating substantial and domain-specific non-welfarist preferences.

Yet, the *Egalitarianism Experiment* shows that the extent of domain-specificity depends on the particular non-welfarist principle at play. We vary how many of 10 Recipients already receive the good and elicit the Spectators' WTP to provide another Recipient with the good. Spectators are willing to pay more to provide the good when 9 of 10 already receive it than when only 1 or 5 do, but this behavior is not more prevalent for rights goods than for benchmarks. The result highlights the value of performing several experiments to test for distinct non-welfarist principles: null results

for one principle do not rule out non-welfarism in other principles. Indeed, participants could have still other non-welfarist principles that we did not elicit in these three experiments, rendering the exercise conservative.

Summarizing the first experiments, 73% of Spectators who do experiments with rights goods have positive WTP (i.e., non-welfarist preferences) in either the Inalienability or Choice Experiments. 31% have positive WTP in *both* experiments, a sizable 12 pp (65%) increase off the 19% who have positive WTP in both experiments with benchmarks ($p < 0.001$). Inference survives adjustments for multiple comparisons across the experiments.

Having found evidence of non-welfarist preferences, we next show that they are consequential (Section 5). In our original sample, they predict support for policies like rental assistance. We then conduct two hypothetical experiments with new samples. In the *Stakes Experiment*, non-welfarism becomes more prevalent when we manipulate choices to have higher welfarist stakes. And in a separate *Goods Atlas*, we show that non-welfarist preferences manifest more broadly, yet vary in systematic ways. The Atlas surveys attitudes about 13 different in-kind goods — our original four, plus goods like housing, child-care, and contraception — and finds sharp differences in whether participants view the provision of each good as a "right." These judgments relate predictably to non-welfarist judgments about the good.

The last part of the paper connects the laboratory evidence to concrete policy implications for targeting. We start by performing a novel redistribution experiment where Spectators allocate goods among 10 Recipients with different incomes (Section 6). Spectators choose between giving the good to everyone, or the good plus cash to people with lower incomes. The experiment thus reveals Spectators' progressivity over each good by how much they favor the lowest-income Recipients relative to providing the good more universally. We implement the *Targeting Experiment* with incentives among the Spectators and goods from the first three experiments, allowing us to test whether non-welfarist preferences in the Inalienability or Choice Experiments predict less progressive targeting at an individual level. We also implement the Targeting Experiment with the 13 goods from the Goods Atlas, allowing us to test whether goods that evoke stronger non-welfarist concerns are also targeted more broadly.

The Targeting Experiments yield several reduced-form lessons. First, Spectators choose less progressive provision of rights goods relative to benchmarks. In the incentivized experiment, Spectators are 64% (s.e.: 8.9%) more likely to provide rights goods to all 10 Recipients than when doing the task with cash or benchmarks. Second, non-welfarist preferences explain less progressive targeting of in-kind transfers. Within subjects, Spectators' non-welfarist behaviors in the Inalienability and Choice Experiments explain more than half of the gap in progressivity between rights

and benchmark goods in the Targeting Experiment. Across goods, stated preferences for rights also predict more universal targeting. These first two targeting results thus resonate with popular appeals to "universal rights," and suggest that optimal policy targeting could differ good-by-good depending on the strength of non-welfarist concerns.

In our final analysis of targeting, to interpret the results quantitatively and show how they can be practically incorporated into optimal policy design, we estimate good-specific welfare weights and perform policy counterfactuals (Section 7). We adapt an empirical version of the theoretical framework from Section 1 and identify key parameters using experimental variation from the Targeting Experiment.[3] We find substantial heterogeneity in Spectators' welfare weights when they make choices across goods. For example, mapping the estimates into standard social welfare functions used in public economics, participants place 50% less weight on someone at the 25th percentile of income when allocating rights goods than when allocating the comparison goods. To illustrate the policy relevance of these differences in welfare weights, we perform a counterfactual where we calculate the implied optimal eligibility thresholds for different goods. Because the flatter welfare-weight schedule favors broader provision, the optimal eligibility threshold for rights goods is much higher than for comparison goods. A noteworthy tension, however, is that it is higher-income Spectators who favor weaker targeting; that is, the flatter welfare weights for lawyers and health care owe to the normative judgments of the rich making choices for the poor.

In sum, the targeting results suggest that non-welfarist concerns push toward broader, less progressive provision of in-kind transfers. This provides a distinct economic rationale for universal provision of certain in-kind goods, complementing standard arguments such as market failures or paternalism. These findings also caution against applying generic welfare weight schedules across settings: policy analysis may instead need to incorporate domain-specific welfare judgments.

Contribution. We build on empirical research studying redistributive preferences and how people form normative judgments more generally. A first strand studies abstract redistributive choices (e.g., Dictator or Ultimatum Games, as in Ochs and Roth, 1989; Rabin, 1993; Levitt and List, 2007; List, 2007). A second strand studies preferences for fairness or morals (e.g., Fehr and Schmidt, 2006; Dana et al., 2007; Cappelen et al., 2010, 2013, 2020; Andreoni et al., 2020; Saccardo and Serra-Garcia, 2023; Andre, 2024; Almås et al., 2026), including non-instrumental moral concerns over particular actions such as lying (e.g., Alger and Weibull, 2013; Abeler et al., 2019; Chen and Schonger, 2022; Sullivan, 2023; Bénabou et al., 2024).[4] A third strand uses Spectator or choosing-for-others designs to study judgments about Recipient welfare: for example, whether Spectators paternalistically override Recipients'

[3] Normative analysis adopts the view that Spectators serve as the social planner (e.g., Ambuehl and Bernheim, 2024).

[4] Relative to some of these studies on non-welfarist concerns for oneself (e.g., one's own value of choosing), we study Spectators' non-welfarist concerns about others.

choices (Ambuehl et al., 2021; Bartling et al., 2023; Bartling and Srinivasan, 2025),[5] whether welfare depends on Recipients' beliefs as well as external states (Arrieta and Bolte, 2023), and how the act of choosing and its associated mental states enter welfare (Bartling et al., 2014a; Bobadilla-Suarez et al., 2017; Freundt et al., 2023; Bernheim et al., 2024). A fourth strand studies non-welfarist principles in taxation, often (though not exclusively) via non-incentivized surveys (Konow, 2001; Sheffrin, 2013; Weinzierl, 2014, 2017; Saez and Stantcheva, 2016; Fleurbaey and Maniquet, 2018; Stantcheva, 2021), as well as predictors of redistributive preferences (e.g., Roth and Wohlfart, 2018; Maréchal et al., 2025).

We make three contributions relative to this work. First, we identify non-welfarist concerns over in-kind transfers rather than abstract allocations or monetary redistribution. Second, we show that these concerns are meaningfully domain-specific. Third, we show how non-welfarist preferences shape targeting choices and can be incorporated into policy analysis through good-specific social welfare weights. These weights contrast with the domain-agnostic welfare weights usually adopted in public economics (Saez and Stantcheva, 2016; Capozza and Srinivasan, 2026; Rodemeier and Sun, 2026). Methodologically, we bridge research detecting policy preferences using abstract experiments with the literature using survey experiments to explore how people think about concrete policies.

We also add to the literature on in-kind transfers, examining non-welfarist rationales for provision that may shape targeting. Chorniy et al. (2025) and Ambuehl et al. (2025) study non-classical motives for providing food stamps rather than cash, either for paternalistic reasons (because recipients have behavioral biases) or interventionist reasons (because Spectators derive intrinsic utility from controlling recipients' consumption bundles). Liscow and Pershing (2022) use surveys to show that the public prefers a restricted "necessities" in-kind transfer to cash and elicit self-reported rationales, including paternalism and rights. Relative to this work, we devise experimental tests that isolate non-welfarist utility from the provision and targeting of in-kind goods while holding recipients' utility fixed. We show that this non-welfarist component varies systematically across goods and relates to how broadly participants target assistance. We then formalize and estimate a framework for incorporating these preferences into good-specific welfare weights.

1 Conceptual Framework

1.1 Set-Up

Recipients are indexed by $j = 1,...,J$. Spectators are indexed by $i = 1,...,I$. For simplicity, assume that the sets of Recipients and Spectators are disjoint. Goods are indexed by $g = 1,...,G$. An allocation $a = (x,y,z)$ specifies Recipients' other resources x, the provision of goods g to Recipients $y = (y_{jg})$, and features z of access and the allocation procedure. These features are intended to capture

[5] Our non-welfarism experiments study Spectators' preferences over allocations while holding Recipient utility fixed. Paternalism is about Spectators' judgments of what would improve Recipient welfare according to their own utility.

potential non-welfarist or moral concerns which could relate to rights; for instance, a feature of provision may be whether the good was allocated in a just manner or whether a Recipient was able to choose the good for themselves. Recipient j derives utility $u_j(a)$, which includes any benefit they derive from access or procedure, and $u(a)$ denotes the vector of Recipients' utilities. We assume that u_j has strictly positive marginal utilities with respect to x_j and y_{jg}, and that x_j and y_{jg} do not affect other Recipients' utilities. Let $\succeq_i$ denote Spectator i's preference relation over allocations.

Definition 1. Spectator i is *welfarist* if, for any allocations a and a', $u(a) = u(a')$ implies that $a \sim_i a'$. Conversely, Spectator i is *non-welfarist* if there exists an allocation a and a' such that $u(a) = u(a')$ but $a \nsim_i a'$.

Intuitively, a Spectator is welfarist if their preferences over different allocations in society depend only on how much Recipients themselves value the allocation. If Spectators care about an allocation beyond how much Recipients benefit from the allocation, then the Spectator is non-welfarist. For instance, Spectators may care about giving the good itself (rather than cash), even fixing the utility of the Recipient. Alternatively, Spectators may care about features of the allocation, in ways that Recipients do not know or care about.

Social Welfare. We represent social welfare from allocation a by a function $W(a)$, which may depend both on Recipients' utilities and on Spectators' preferences over features of the allocation. We specifically assume that social welfare is additively separable in Recipient utility and Spectators' valuations of the allocation:

$$W(a) = \sum_{j=1}^{J} \lambda_j u_j(a) + \sum_{i=1}^{I} \omega_i v_i(a), \tag{1}$$

where $\lambda_j \geq 0$ and $\omega_i \geq 0$ are social welfare weights on Recipients and Spectators respectively, and $v_i(a)$ represents Spectator i's valuation of allocation a.

Observe that, even though $W(a)$ is fully welfarist (it depends only on the valuations of people in society), it behaves *as-if* it were non-welfarist. As is well-known, welfarist social welfare functions can still accommodate principles like fairness or moral considerations simply if people in society care about these (Kaplow and Shavell, 2001; Saez and Stantcheva, 2016).

1.2 Good-specific welfare weights

Consider a marginal increase in provision of good g to Recipient j, fixing resources and procedural features. For simplicity, assume goods are continuous and preferences are differentiable. Then

$$\frac{\partial W}{\partial y_{jg}} = \lambda_j \frac{\partial u_j}{\partial y_{jg}} + \sum_{i=1}^{I} \omega_i \left[\frac{\partial v_i}{\partial u_j} \frac{\partial u_j}{\partial y_{jg}} + \left. \frac{\partial v_i}{\partial y_{jg}} \right|_u \right] \tag{2}$$

$$= \underbrace{\left[\lambda_j + \sum_{i=1}^{I} \omega_i \frac{\partial v_i}{\partial u_j} + \frac{\sum_{i=1}^{I} \omega_i \left. \frac{\partial v_i}{\partial y_{jg}} \right|_u}{\frac{\partial u_j}{\partial y_{jg}}} \right]}_{\equiv \Lambda_{jg}} \frac{\partial u_j}{\partial y_{jg}}, \tag{3}$$

where $\left. \frac{\partial v_i}{\partial y_{jg}} \right|_u$ denotes Spectator i's direct marginal valuation of providing good g to Recipient j, holding Recipients' utilities fixed.

The effective welfare weight Λ_{jg} therefore has three components:

$$\Lambda_{jg} = \overbrace{\lambda_j}^{\text{(i) Recipients}} + \overbrace{\underbrace{\sum_{i=1}^{I} \omega_i \frac{\partial v_i}{\partial u_j}}_{\equiv \overline{\omega}_j}}^{\text{(ii) Spectators}} + \overbrace{\underbrace{\frac{\sum_{i=1}^{I} \omega_i \left. \frac{\partial v_i}{\partial y_{jg}} \right|_u}{\frac{\partial u_j}{\partial y_{jg}}}}_{\equiv \eta_{jg}}}^{\text{(iii) good-specific adjustment}} . \tag{4}$$

Term (i) captures the direct social weight placed on Recipient j's utility. Term (ii) captures the value that Spectators place on Recipient j's utility, weighted by the social welfare weight placed on each Spectator (ω_i). This term therefore encodes "pure" (welfarist) altruism. Term (iii) captures Spectators' direct valuation of providing good g, beyond the utility that provision generates for the Recipient. Because this final term may vary across goods, different goods may necessitate different welfare weights.

This framework nests the standard set-up, in which analysts ignore good-specific adjustments ($\eta_{jg} \equiv 0$) and postulate some value for $\Lambda_{jg} = \Lambda_j = \lambda_j + \overline{\omega}_j$. Utilitarian social welfare places equal weight on all Recipients ($\lambda_j + \overline{\omega}_j = 1$), in which case concerns for redistribution enter allocations through differences in marginal utility $\frac{\partial u_j}{\partial y_{jg}}$ only. Often, calibrations also ignore either λ_j or altruistic utility ($\overline{\omega}_j$), because having both can introduce difficult issues of interpersonal comparisons and "reflections," and we will do the same; thus our welfare weights constitute a one-parameter departure from the standard set-up.

1.3 Policy Implications

To illustrate how good-specific welfare weights may affect redistribution, we consider a canonical allocation problem: setting the optimal income eligibility threshold by good. We deliberately strip this problem down to its essentials. The social planner chooses an income eligibility threshold. All households below this threshold receive the good. The good is paid for by a nondistortionary tax

on the person with the average income in society.

To avoid double counting, we follow common practice and treat Spectators *as if* they are the social planner (e.g., Ambuehl et al., 2021; Capozza and Srinivasan, 2026), and set $\lambda = 0$. We express both the standard welfare weight $\widetilde{\omega}(w)$ (normalized to one for someone with the average income) and the good-specific adjustment $\eta_g(w)$ per dollar of Recipient benefit. These are obtained from $\overline{\omega}_j$ and η_{jg}, respectively, by multiplying by the Recipient's marginal utility of income. Then, the planner's problem is:

$$\overline{w}_g^* \in \underset{\overline{w}_g > 0}{\operatorname{argmax}} \int_{w_0}^{\overline{w}_g} \left[\left(\widetilde{\omega}(w) + \eta_g(w) \right) \frac{\partial u(w)/\partial y_g}{\partial u(w)/\partial w} - K_g \right] dF(w). \tag{5}$$

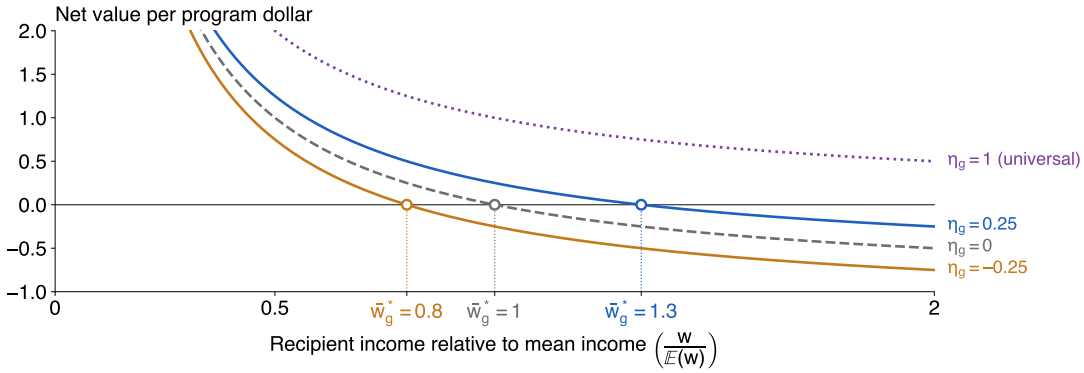
where w denotes Recipient income, w_0 is the minimum income, and F is the income distribution. The cost K_g is the fiscal cost of provision. The ratio $(\partial u(w)/\partial y_g)/(\partial u(w)/\partial w)$ is the Recipient's money-metric willingness to pay for provision. The optimal eligibility threshold is $\overline{w}_g^*$.

Interpreting Equation (5), the core policy trade-off is between the social benefit of providing to recipients with income at the threshold $\overline{w}_g^*$ or below, and the cost of provision. The planner gives to every income such that "net value" is weakly positive: $\left(\widetilde{\omega}(w) + \eta_g(w) \right) \frac{\partial u(w)/\partial y_g}{\partial u(w)/\partial w} - K_g \geq 0$.

Figure 1 shows comparative statics: how the presence of good-specific welfare weights may increase the optimal income eligibility threshold. Here, we calibrate standard welfare weights $\widetilde{\omega}(w) = w^{\text{avg}}/w$ (interpreted here as a dollar-equivalent marginal welfare weight, corresponding to utilitarian welfare and log utility over income, normalized to 1 at mean income w^{avg}). For illustrative purposes, we assume that the dollar cost of provision equals the Recipient's willingness to pay $\frac{\partial u(w)/\partial y_g}{\partial u(w)/\partial w} = K_g$, where private value is measured in dollars and we assume no additional cost of raising public funds. We assume that the good-specific adjustment $\eta_g(w) = \eta_g$ is constant across Recipient incomes. The value η_g is then in the same money-metric units as $\widetilde{\omega}(w)$: social value per dollar transferred. The different series show the optimal eligibility threshold under different values of η_g. The optimal eligibility threshold is the point on the x-axis where the net value curves cross 0.

The benchmark without non-welfarist preferences ($\eta_g = 0$) recovers the standard result that the optimal eligibility threshold is to give the good to all people at least as poor as the average person in society (gray series). With no efficiency cost from converting dollars of government expenditure into the in-kind good, then progressive welfare-weight schedules would imply that there is redistributive value from transferring the resources from above-average to below-average households. However, if $\eta_g > 0$, policymakers may favor transferring the dollars to less-needy households (blue series). Intuitively, a more positive η_g raises the effective welfare-weight schedule, such that it can be valuable to convert dollars into the in-kind good g and give from the average household to richer

Figure 1: Comparative Statics:
Good-Specific Welfare Weights Can Flatten Optimal Allocation



Note: The different series show the net value per program dollar, by the income of the recipient (normalized by the average income in society). We assume that the cost of provision is simply the mechanical cost of the transfer. To form the welfare weights, we assume log utility and a utilitarian social planner. The point on the x-axis at which each series crosses 0 is the optimal eligibility threshold $\overline{w}_g^*$ (Equation 5).

households with lower welfare weights. In this calibration, even for relatively small $\eta_g = 0.25$ — such that society values giving g at an extra 25 cents of social value per dollar of resource cost — the optimal eligibility threshold rises from the average household to the household with about 30% higher income than average. Conversely, for "anti-rights" goods, η_g could be negative and lower the welfare weight schedule (orange series). For sufficiently extreme non-welfarist preferences, it could be optimal to give goods universally (purple series).

1.4 From Theory to Empirics

The model sets the stage for the paper's main contribution, the empirical analysis of non-welfarism and targeting. The magnitude of the η_g's, and how they vary across goods, is an empirical question. First, our experiments measure whether Spectators have non-welfarist preferences for allocation, by exploring whether Spectators will destroy resources to ensure the allocation of some good. We use experimental paradigms in which non-welfarism may be activated; in the notation of the framework, we can think of these as settings in which we vary z while fixing x and y. We also identify domain-specificity, that is, good-specific non-welfarism, by showing variation in whether Spectators express non-welfarism by good. Second, our targeting experiments show that Spectators have good-specific redistributive preferences. We further show that good-specific weights are driven by non-welfarist concerns, as the framework suggests. We return to the framework in Section 7, where we estimate good-specific welfare weights and show their relevance for policy counterfactuals.

2 Motivating Evidence

This section presents evidence that motivates the experiments. First, individuals and policymakers use language appealing to rights differentially across goods. Second, they do so especially while advocating for more universal provision of those goods. Third, the design of programs related to those goods varies in ways predicted by our model.

Rights Rhetoric. We study rights rhetoric in two sources of public debate: passages from the *Congressional Record* (1995–2024) and comments on Reddit's r/politics forum (2007–2022). We sample mentions of six in-kind goods and use a large language model to classify arguments as appealing to rights, welfarist, or paternalist concerns. We separately code whether passages concern expanding coverage or improving provision for existing recipients. The classified samples contain 7,436 congressional passages and 7,329 Reddit comments (Appendix S3 describes the data and coding).

Rights rhetoric varies sharply across goods (Figure A1, Panel A). Among passages discussing provision, the rights share averages 72% for legal counsel and 31% for water across the two sources, compared with 19% for health care, 15% for housing, 10% for recreation, and 5% for transit. Within each good, rights-framed passages are also more likely to appear in text about expanding coverage than passages framed in welfarist or paternalist terms (Panel B). The difference is positive for all six goods in both sources, averaging 37 percentage points for health care, 33 for housing, and 16 for counsel.

The shares of rights language themselves, and the correlations between the appeals and their respective purpose, are of course merely suggestive. Whether there is a real connection between the targeting preferences of individuals for providing different goods and the non-welfarist valence is unclear, which motivates our controlled experiments. We take two lessons from the text evidence: first, that variation in language — which may represent variation in preferences — exists across goods, and, second, that the targeting of goods is an important, policy-relevant margin to connect to these preferences.

Real-World Heterogeneity in Targeting. Now, we document variation in the real-world targeting of different in-kind transfers. Appendix Table A2 illustrates this variation across selected programs in the United States and other developed countries. For example, the standard gross-income limit for SNAP is 130% of the federal poverty level, compared with 200% for full representation under New York City's eviction right-to-counsel program. Germany's long-term care insurance, by contrast, has no income test and conditions benefits on assessed care need. Again, this variation is suggestive, but it motivates our exploration of the extent to which the non-welfarist preferences we measure imply different optimal eligibility thresholds across goods.

3 Overview of Experiments

The study involves several surveys and experiments, whose features we summarize in Table A1. The Inalienability, Choice, Egalitarianism, and Targeting Experiments took place with one sample of tenants and four main goods. We call these four experiments the Original Goods Experiments. Because we perform the same experiments within-subject, we can correlate choices across experiments. Some choices in the Original Goods Experiments were incentivized. To see how results extend beyond these goods, we also collected non-incentivized data on 13 different in-kind goods (Goods Atlas), information on how results change with stakes (Stakes Experiment) and a version of the Targeting Experiment with the 13 Goods Atlas goods (Goods Atlas Targeting Experiment). Section 3 describes the recruitment, design, and incentives for the Original Goods Experiments; we discuss details for the other experiments as we introduce them section-by-section.

3.1 Sample and Design Overview: Original Goods Experiments

We recruit $N = 1{,}800$ participants from Prolific (Appendix C.1). As is common in Prolific studies, participants are higher-income, younger, and more educated than in the U.S. in general (Table A3).

Figure 2 presents the experiment flow. We randomize participants ("Spectators") into one of four goods at the start. They then complete four experiments, each with the same good, before answering several questions about political preferences.[6]

To be included in the study, participants needed to pass at least two out of three attention checks throughout the survey (Appendix C.5). 7% fail one of three and are included in the sample. We routinely include comprehension checks after task instructions but before the elicitation. Participants passed these checks at rates exceeding 85%. We correct participants who fail.

We pre-registered the experiment before launch (AEA Registry #0012065) and ran the study on September 11–12, 2023. Appendix S4 gives a key between the pre-registered analysis and exhibits in the paper. Experiment instructions and screenshots are posted on the authors' websites.

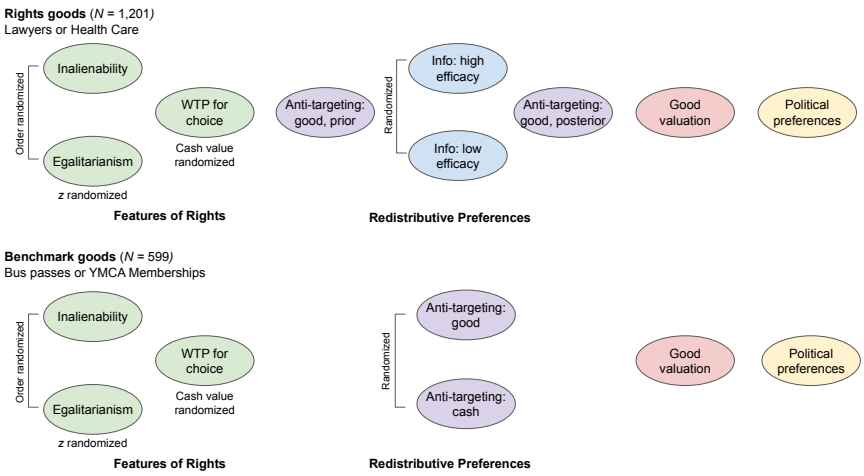
The survey took 19 minutes on average. We paid $6 for participating, 56% above Prolific's suggested wage for a 19-minute survey.

Setup and Goods. We inform participants early in the survey that they will make allocation choices on behalf of a nonprofit in Memphis, Tennessee, which assists tenants facing eviction. All participants are informed that the clients are those facing eviction. We make this choice so that all between-good comparisons hold fixed the need and financial situation of the Recipients.

The four goods are: attorneys, who can provide legal assistance to tenants facing eviction; one year of fully subsidized health care at urgent care; a bus pass containing $350 of prepaid fare; and

[6] Half the benchmark good participants were randomized into doing the Targeting Experiment with cash instead.

Figure 2: Survey Flow (Original Goods Experiment)



Notes: This figure presents the flow of the Original Goods Experiment, differentiating between those who saw rights goods (two-thirds of the sample) and those who saw benchmark goods (the remaining one-third). Within each arm, participants were randomly shown one of the two potential goods. After introductory information, participants first completed experiments related to features of rights. The order of *Inalienability* and *Egalitarianism* was randomized, followed by the *Choice Experiment*. Next, participants did the *Targeting Experiment*; those assigned to rights goods also saw an information treatment. Finally, we elicited participants' WTP for the good they were assigned, demographic information, and political preferences. Participants were required to pass two out of three attention checks.

an annual membership at the local YMCA, which can provide child care and wellness services. All goods except health care can be purchased for about $350. Our main tests compare "rights goods" (attorneys and health care) to "benchmark goods" (bus and YMCA).

The choice of goods is important but challenging. There are many potential rights goods and comparison goods. Once a right legally exists, the experimenter cannot easily manipulate endowing the right in the lab. Even if the experiment involves hypothetical choices, if the right has no analog in the market, participants may have difficulty forming views about willingness to pay for the right. For instance, even a hypothetical choice about willingness to pay for a lawyer may be more ecologically valid than a hypothetical choice about willingness to pay for free speech.

We pick rights goods relevant to live policy debates about government transfers and where appeals to rights are common in the public discourse. Health care is the subject of some of the most contentious debates about the U.S. safety net. Legal services for eviction are at the frontier of rights expansion. Evictions are civil cases and hence not covered by the 6th Amendment right to counsel. Many states and cities recently implemented policies to give tenants access to lawyers in these cases, and the policy discussion heavily relies on moral appeals (see footnote 1). We pick benchmark goods that are clearly valuable to low-income Recipients, but to which Spectators are unlikely to attach special rights.

We focus on both the levels of non-welfarist behaviors with rights and benchmark goods, as well as differences between rights versus benchmarks. The levels are informative about the prevalence of non-welfarism. The differences speak to the heterogeneity implicit in policymakers' appeals to rights in some domains but not others.

Focusing on differences between goods also nets out potential elicitation issues. Otherwise, levels of behaviors may conflate inattention, confusion, or trembles (e.g., mistaken clicking that generates positive willingness to pay) with non-welfarism. Examining differences between goods also addresses possible experimenter demand effects, unless they interact with good (Bénabou et al., 2023). Any story about why the large WTPs we find are not evidence of non-welfarism must explain why they are systematically larger among rights goods versus benchmarks.

However, if non-welfarist preferences exist but are weaker for benchmark goods than for rights goods, comparing rights to benchmark goods leads us to understate the extent of non-welfarist preferences. We further test and find empirical evidence against issues of measurement error with respect to the levels of outcomes in Section 4.5.

Main and Secondary Elicitations. Our main sample participated in four primary experiments, testing for features of rights (Inalienability, Choice, and Egalitarianism; Section 4) and redistributive preferences (Targeting; Section 6). We also present two secondary elicitations (pre-registered as such). The first directly elicits (bounds on) the Spectator's indifference point between providing the good and giving cash to an anonymous Recipient, using a multiple price list and the strategy method. We interpret this elicitation as a Spectator's willingness to pay WTP_i for the good and use this value in extra tests throughout. The second is an information-provision sub-experiment that tests for the reasons behind targeting (discussed in Section 6, see details in Appendix C).

We do several experiments within-subject to study correlations between non-welfarism and redistributive preferences. Spectators do the Inalienability and Egalitarianism Experiments in a random order, then the Choice experiment, and the Targeting Experiment last.[7]

The Inalienability, Choice, and Egalitarianism Experiments measure willingness to pay (WTP) to take some action. We measure WTP using a separate donation budget. That is, WTP is how much money the Spectator would pay to take some action, where the money comes from a budget that is otherwise spent on other programming for needy households. In Inalienability and Choice, the donation budget is for future programming at the nonprofit. In Egalitarianism, the donation budget

[7]The most important priming concern we had was that the Choice Experiment tells participants that most tenants choose cash over a good (see Section 4.2). For this reason, participants always do the Choice Experiment after Inalienability or Egalitarianism. Participants always do the Targeting Experiment last, since we then include an information treatment, and we do not want this treatment to influence the main experiments. While priming is a possible concern for the Original Goods Targeting Experiment, the Goods Atlas Targeting Experiment performs only the Targeting Experiment (with no other elicitations beforehand), and finds similar results.

is for donations to a food bank. Where exactly the budget would be donated is not conceptually important, except that we require wasting the donation budget to be costly to Spectators, e.g., due to altruism. If not, their choices reduce to noise. We reject this concern using our conservative comparison of rights goods and benchmarks, text analysis of Spectators' stated explanations for their choices, and other tests.

3.2 Incentives

The Original Goods Experiments incentivize choices for all goods except health care. We use the strategy method, informing Spectators that there is a chance their choices will be implemented. We implement choices over giving legal assistance, YMCA memberships, bus passes, or cash via a nonprofit partner in Memphis (The Works, Inc.). Participants are informed and must confirm that they face real choices which could affect allocations for needy Recipients. We introduce another incentive by telling all participants (including in the health-care treatment) that the study results could influence the nonprofit's future programming. We incentivize belief elicitations by paying participants if they are accurate. See Section 4.5 and Appendix C for details on incentives.

We embedded several tests to probe whether lack of incentives affects results for health care. We find no evidence that incentives affect Spectators' choices (Section 4.5). That said, we still view incentivization as an important part of this paper. It was unclear that incentives would have small effects *ex ante*, and some readers may (reasonably) have been skeptical of results if all elicitations were hypothetical (see discussion in Sullivan, 2023).

3.3 Specification, Balance, and Attrition

We estimate the models:

$$y_i = \beta_0 + \beta \text{Right}_i \ (+X_i\delta) + \varepsilon_i \tag{6}$$

$$y_i = \beta_0 + \beta_l \text{Lawyer}_i + \beta_h \text{HealthCare}_i \ (+X_i\delta) + \varepsilon_i \tag{7}$$

where β is the effect of being a rights good on an outcome y_i in Equation (6), and β_l and β_h are the effects for lawyers and health care respectively in Equation (7). We pool both benchmarks for power, and we show they are generally similar in the raw data. Our main specifications omit controls X_i and compare raw means between rights goods and benchmarks, but robustness checks include them. Inference uses robust standard errors.

Demographics are balanced across rights treatments versus benchmarks (Table A3, joint $p = 0.441$; Table A4 disaggregates by good). Attrition rates were 4% (Table A5).

4 Existence and Magnitude of Non-Welfarist Preferences

We present the design and results for the Inalienability, Choice, and Egalitarianism Experiments. We include some robustness checks and general discussion of threats to the design in Section 4.5.

4.1 Inalienability Experiment

4.1.1 Design

Motivation. Suppose a good first is assigned to one person, then is transferred to an *ex ante* identical person. Suppose also that neither person is aware of the initial assignment. Welfarists care only about the final allocation, and do not care about the initial assignment. Non-welfarists may dislike transferring goods from one person to another because it requires removing the good from someone who has, unbeknownst to them, received it. Preferences not to reallocate the good may be especially prevalent if Spectators believe Recipients have inalienable rights to the good.

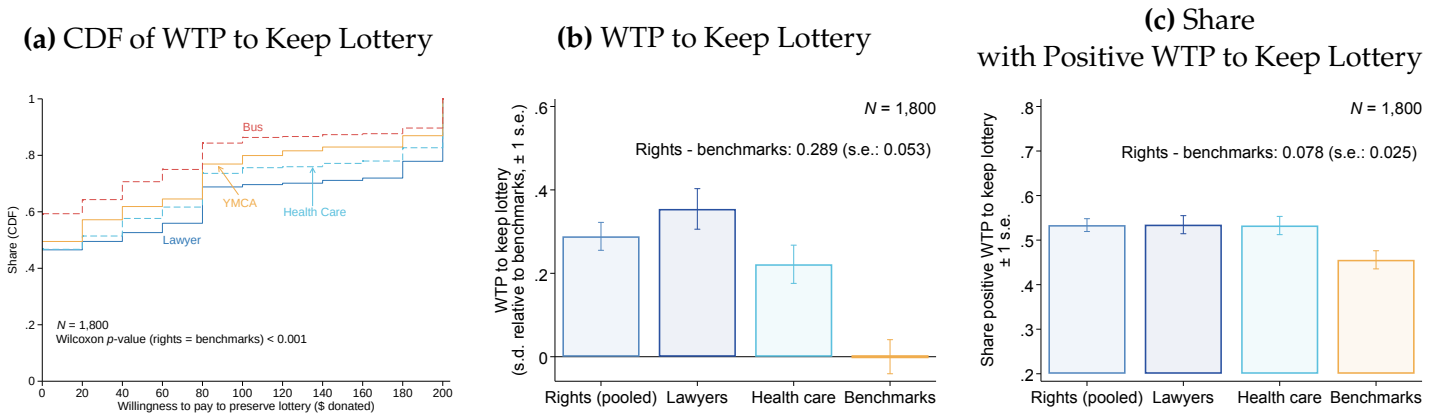
Design. The Inalienability Experiment hews closely to the motivation. We tell Spectators that Recipient B was assigned a good in a lottery. Spectators have the choice of rerunning the lottery, which has the chance of taking the good from Recipient B and giving it to Recipient A. If they rerun the lottery, the Spectator saves $\$x$, which the non-profit will use for future programming. We tell the Spectator that the money saved will assist other tenants. We tell the Spectator that $\$x$ can be saved because prices for the good may sometimes change after running the initial lottery.

We use a multiple price list to find (bounds on) the point at which Spectators are indifferent between saving $\$x$ and preserving the lottery result, enforcing monotonicity (see screenshots on authors' websites). We refer to I_i, the midpoint of the elicited bounds, as willingness to pay (WTP) to preserve the lottery. If $I_i > 0$, the Spectator burns I_i to satisfy non-welfarist preferences. As I_i's units are unintuitive, we often normalize I_i so that pooled benchmarks have mean 0 and standard deviation 1. We also study the propensity to have positive WTP, forming $\mathbb{1}(I_i > 0)$ with unnormalized I_i, and the propensity to have the maximum WTP that we elicit.

Design Choices Rule Out Welfarist Reasons to Pay To Preserve The Lottery. We ensure Spectators do not believe Recipient A is needier or would derive greater benefit from the lottery. Otherwise, even welfarists might rerun the lottery. The experiment informs Spectators that the Recipients are *ex ante* identical: "Both tenants had evictions filed against them, applied around the same time, and are similarly needy." We specifically choose the lottery conceit (rather than just saying Recipient B got the lawyer) because lottery assignment suggests that Recipient B received the good due to random chance, not greater need.

Another welfarist reason Spectators may hesitate to rerun the lottery is if they internalize Recipients' reference points from the initial allocation. Indeed, Charité et al. (2022) find in related redistribution experiments that redistributors sometimes incorporate receivers' reference points when told that receivers are aware of initial allocations, depressing demand for redistribution. We take significant steps to rule out this channel: we inform and remind the Spectator that both

Figure 3: Inalienability Experiment



Notes: This figure shows participants' decisions about keeping or rerunning a lottery in order to save money for future programs in the Inalienability Experiment (Section 4.1). Panel A shows the CDF of WTP to keep the initial lottery result for each good. Panel B shows WTP in standard deviations relative to the benchmark goods. The far-left blue bar pools both rights goods; the next two bars show results separately for lawyers and health care. Panel C shows the share of respondents with positive WTP to keep the lottery, by good. Panels B and C include ±1 standard errors. See Table A6 for detailed regression results.

potential Recipients are unaware of the initial allocation. The experiment text says: "Remember that the **tenants will not know that the lottery was rerun**. They will just learn the final result, and the ultimate allocation will be anonymous" (emphasis in experiment text). We also include a confirmation check that asks participants whether the Recipients will know who was originally supposed to receive the good. 98% of participants get the question right. For these participants, we reiterate: "**That is correct**. Tenants will only learn the final result of the lottery." We correct the 2% of participants who get the question wrong: "**That is incorrect**. Tenants will only learn the final result of the lottery." Thus, Spectators do not internalize Recipients' reference-dependent utility in a way that would exaggerate estimated non-welfarism. This conclusion holds even if Spectators have uncertainty about exactly how Recipients form reference points.

The Inalienability Experiment borrows from thought experiments like the trolley problem (Foot, 1967; Thomson, 1976; Bénabou et al., 2024), which are used to examine non-consequentialist intuitions. It also links to the philosophical notions of procedural justice, and to ideas like the sunk-cost fallacy.

4.1.2 Results

We begin by showing cumulative distribution functions of the raw WTP data for each good (Figure 3A). A first observation is that WTP is positive for between 40–60% of participants, for all goods. In fact, a remarkable 46% of Spectators exposed to our neutral benchmark goods still have a positive WTP to preserve the lottery. If Spectators were welfarists, their WTP should be 0.

One may be concerned that high levels of non-welfarist behaviors with benchmark goods reflect inattention, confusion, or elicitation issues. But the magnitudes cast doubt on these as a complete explanation. It is unlikely that a full 40% of participants are confused.

Second, the rights goods' WTP distributions first-order stochastically dominate the benchmark goods. This result strongly suggests some domain-specificity in non-welfarist preferences (pooled Wilcoxon p-value of rights goods versus benchmarks < 0.001).

Turning to formal tests of differences in WTP, Spectators have 0.29 s.d. higher average WTP to preserve the lottery for rights goods than for benchmarks (Figure 3B, s.e. of difference: 0.05). Converted back to units of money saved for future programming, participants' WTP is $20 higher for rights goods than benchmarks. Inspecting the propensity to pay anything (Panel C), we find that 53% of participants have positive WTP to preserve the lottery for rights goods, 7.8 pp higher than benchmarks (s.e. of difference: 2.5). These differences reject the null of no domain-specificity. As discussed, the differences also reject the null of no non-welfarism under the adversarial hypothesis that all non-welfarism in benchmarks owes to elicitation issues.

Domain-specificity within rights goods is modest. WTPs are slightly larger for lawyers than health care, but nearly identical on the extensive margin.

Table A6 collects results for the outcomes of WTP, having positive WTP, and having maximum WTP. On order effects, differences by good are similar if we look at Spectators who do the Inalienability Experiment first, although levels fall somewhat for both rights and benchmark goods (Table A7).

Open-Ended Responses Support Our Interpretation of the Results. We asked participants why they made their WTP choice. One wrote: "It's the principle of the matter. Even if the tenants wouldn't know, you'd know." Another wrote, "If I re-ran the lottery it would feel like I was removing the lawyer from the first winner, and it would feel wrong." These explanations also manifest among benchmark goods: "I decided to keep the lottery results for each trial because rerunning the lottery and taking away the original winners' YMCA seems very unfair."

Text-analysis methods (Ferrario and Stantcheva, 2022; Haaland et al., 2024) reveal that these anecdotal patterns are systematic (Figure A4A). Responses from those with positive WTP to preserve the lottery disproportionately mention fairness and the original winner. Remaining participants largely focus on saving money.

4.2 Choice Experiment

4.2.1 Design

Motivation. The logic behind the Choice Experiment is that welfarists only value providing Recipients with the ability to choose insofar as the choice might be exercised. If welfarists are completely

sure a Recipient would choose (a) over (b), then their WTP to give the Recipient choice between (a) and (b), versus giving (a) directly, is zero. The experiment relates to ideas about the freedom to make choices in Hayek (1960)'s classical liberalism or Sen (1985)'s capabilities approach, among others.

Design. Suppose a Recipient facing the choice of $\$y$ in cash and a good chooses $\$y$ with probability p. The Choice Experiment begins by eliciting Spectators' beliefs about the probability p. Then, Spectators face the choice of: (i) providing $\$y$ to the tenant directly and saving $\$x$ for future programming for the nonprofit, versus (ii) giving the Recipient the choice between $\$y$ and the good. We elicit (bounds on) the value of $\$x$ that makes Spectators indifferent between (i) and (ii).

We estimate willingness to pay C_i, the midpoint of these bounds, for rights and benchmark goods. We focus on C_i as p approaches 1. When the Spectator has high beliefs p, the Spectator burns surplus to provide choice, which welfarists would not do.

Our test requires conditioning on people with high beliefs p, which could lack power. To increase Spectators' beliefs, we provide all Spectators with truthful information from a randomly selected pilot sample. The information says that all tenants in the pilot sample chose cash over the good (see Appendix C.7 for details on the information). This information raises power by increasing the number of Spectators with high beliefs.[8] We therefore sometimes call the beliefs "posteriors," as we elicit them after giving information.

Alternative Measure. Appendix D defines and presents confirmatory results using a second measure of the value of choice. The idea is that we can infer a normative WTP for choice from the probability the choice will be exercised and the directly elicited value of giving the good directly.

4.2.2 Results

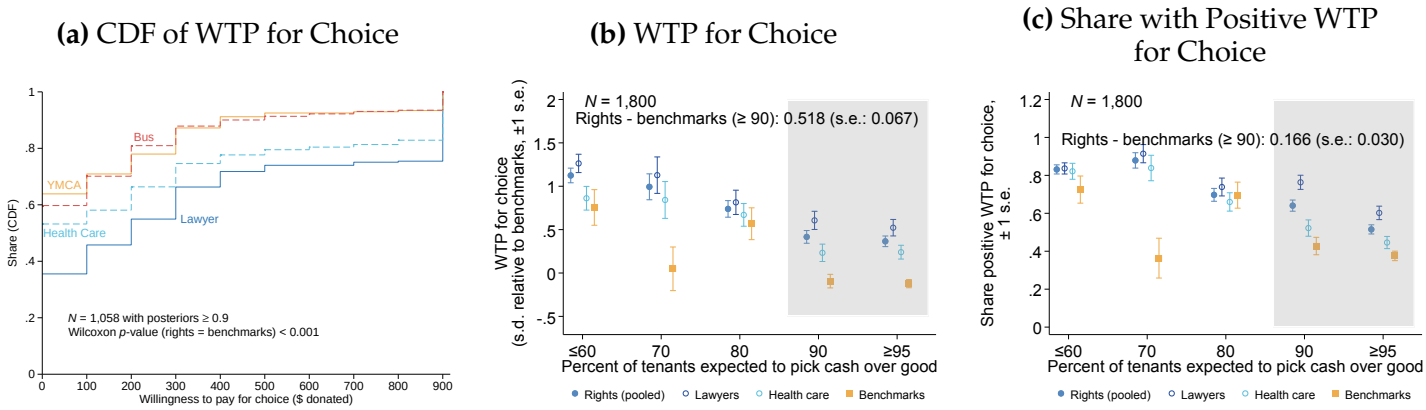
Spectators exhibit preferences for providing choice with both rights and benchmark goods (Figure 4). We start with cumulative distribution functions of the raw WTP data among Spectators with posterior beliefs at least 0.9. We find that between 30%–60% of Spectators have a positive WTP for providing choice, strongly suggesting the presence of non-welfarist preferences. Even more so than in the Inalienability Experiment, WTP for rights goods stochastically dominates WTP for benchmark goods (Wilcoxon p-value < 0.001, Panel A).[9]

Zeroing in on comparisons of rights versus benchmark goods, we present differences in mean WTP across beliefs bins (Panel B). Focusing on rights goods (blue series), we reassuringly find that WTP C_i is decreasing in beliefs that Recipients will choose cash over the good. This negative

[8] Conditioning on beliefs could, in theory, affect experimental balance. In practice, Table A8 shows that balance persists conditioning on beliefs. Moreover, randomization is not required for this test. Any positive WTP as $p \to 1$ still indicates non-welfarist preferences. The secondary measure of the value of choice also does not depend on beliefs.

[9] Raw dollar values are not comparable between experiments. We used a larger range for the Choice Experiment's elicitation, as a small chance of needing a lawyer could imply a large willingness to pay.

Figure 4: Choice Experiment



Notes: This figure shows participants' decisions about giving tenants a choice between cash and a good, rather than saving money for future programs, in the Choice Experiment (Section 4.2). Panel A shows the CDF of WTP to give tenants a choice for each good among participants whose posterior belief that tenants would choose cash over the good was at least 90%. Panel B plots participants' WTP in standard deviations relative to the benchmark goods, with ±1 standard errors, across posterior-belief bins. The bins are <65, 65–74, 75–84, 85–94, and 95–100. The shaded area emphasizes participants with posteriors of at least 90%. Panel C presents the corresponding estimates for the share with positive WTP. See Table A9 for detailed regression results.

relationship reflects that choice is less valuable if it is unlikely to be exercised.

For every bin of beliefs, willingness to pay for rights goods is higher than for benchmark goods. Among Spectators with beliefs at least 0.9, WTP is 0.52 sd (s.e.: 0.067) higher for pooled rights goods than benchmarks. Converted back to units of money for future programming, Spectators in this sample are willing to pay $333 on average to give choices for pooled rights goods ($189 for benchmarks). Spectators have higher WTP for choices over lawyers than health care, but both differ from benchmarks. Differences persist even if we condition on having beliefs at least 0.95 (farthest right whiskers, Figure 4B). Rights versus benchmark differences also persist on the extensive margin, having a positive WTP for choice at all (Figure 4C).

Tables A9 and A10 collect these results. In another test, instead of restricting to people with high posteriors, we perform our test within the whole sample and control for Spectators' posterior beliefs about whether the Recipient would choose the good. Doing so generates similar results (Table A9, Columns 1–3). Related to this test, results are similar if we use the sample with posteriors at least 0.9 and control for their beliefs (Table A11, Columns 6–8).

Pushing our experiment to its logical conclusion, we examine the 459 Spectators who say there is a 100% chance the Recipient will choose cash. Rights CDFs first-order stochastically dominate benchmarks in this restricted sample (Figure A2A, Wilcoxon p-value < 0.001). We focus on posteriors at least 0.9 for power, and because our incentive scheme rewards people equally if they had posteriors of 0.96–1, but results are similar with this restricted sample (Table A9, Columns 7–9). One

difference is that among Spectators with posteriors $=1$, results are stronger on the intensive versus extensive margin.[10]

Open-Ended and Qualitative Questions Support Our Interpretation. An open-ended response question asks Spectators why they made their choice. A Spectator seeing lawyers who had the maximum WTP wrote, "I think the tenant has a right to choose what assistance to accept." Another wrote, "The tenant has a right to choose, no matter what the monetary consequences."

We again confirm these patterns with systematic text analysis (Figure A4B). Both groups mention saving money, but those with positive WTP discuss giving choice (e.g. "tenant choice"). Those with zero WTP mention tenant preferences (e.g., "prefer cash," "tenants want").

We also ask Spectators a qualitative question to explain their behavior. Specifically, we ask: "Which of the following reasons motivated your choice(s)? Select all that apply." Options were: "I thought anyone who would choose the [good] would really want it"; "I did not think anyone would choose the [good] in reality"; "Saving is my priority"; "All tenants should be entitled to the choice of a [good]" (the right to choice option); and "None of the above." The share of Spectators who say that Recipients have the right to choose when facing a rights good is about 42%, which is 16.1 pp (61%) more likely than with benchmarks (Table A11, Column 8).

4.2.3 Addressing Concerns

Testing Selection on Gains. One concern is that Spectators may believe that Recipients who choose the good over cash (even if this occurs with low probability) derive large utility gains from the good. Such "selection on gains" is relevant only if beliefs p are mismeasured. That is because selection on gains still vanishes from welfarist Spectator utility as $p \to 1$. And coefficient stability as we restrict to samples with higher posteriors, or control for posteriors, argues against this as a key concern. Still, one may worry that Spectators' beliefs are mismeasured due to noise, lack of numeracy, or elicitation issues. In Appendix D we discuss a sub-experiment manipulating the cash value in the choice bundle, which provides evidence against a meaningful selection on gains channel. The secondary outcome measure in the appendix also argues against this concern and does not involve measuring beliefs.

Intrinsic Value of Choice. Conditioning on $p \to 1$ intends to restrict to Recipients who do not value choice. But, Recipients could have intrinsic utility from choosing (Bartling et al., 2014b; Freundt et al., 2023). Then, even if $p = 1$, welfarist Spectators may internalize Recipients' intrinsic choice utility and pay to give Recipients choice.

However, our main results difference Spectators' WTP for choice with rights goods versus

[10] Our results accord with Liscow and Pershing (2022), who finds that making the value of choice salient does not affect demand for provision of in-kind transfers. One reason this persuasion treatment may not change allocation choices is that the value of choice is already salient to the control group.

benchmarks. Could welfarists' internalizing Recipients' value of choice generate different choice premiums across goods? Neither a fixed utility value of choice nor scaling with the instrumental value of the choice can generate the variation by good we observe. Only if Spectators perceive Recipients themselves as having large good-specific values of choice could we explain the observed patterns. Those beliefs would provide an observationally equivalent, non-classical motivation for providing certain goods in-kind. Overall, we see the magnitude and consistency of the good-specific wedge, together with the free-response answers, as more consistent with non-welfarist concerns by the Spectators than widely-held beliefs about non-standard preferences among anonymous Recipients. Appendix D.2 discusses two other robustness checks.[11]

4.3 Egalitarianism Experiment

4.3.1 Design

Under the tenet of equal rights, Spectators may get a discrete payoff from providing goods to *everyone* who is eligible, relative to providing goods to "almost everyone."

To operationalize this idea, absent spillovers, welfarists' utility should not depend on the share of people in society who already get a good. To be concrete, suppose z out of 10 people get a lawyer regardless. Welfarists' WTP to provide the $(z+1)$th Recipient a lawyer should not vary with z differentially for rights goods. But if Spectators derive non-welfarist value from sustaining "equal rights," they have a higher WTP to provide the good when $z=9$ than when $z=1$.

Our experiment tests this idea by informing participants that z out of 10 *ex ante* identical and anonymous Recipients were selected to receive lawyers. We then elicit participants' willingness to pay to provide the $(z+1)$th person with a lawyer. In this case, the donation budget is money donated from the nonprofit to a food bank.[12] We randomize $z \in \{1,5,9\}$.

We estimate the following difference-in-differences specification:

$$y_i = \delta_0 + \delta_1 \text{Right}_i + \delta_2 \mathbb{1}(z_i=9) + \beta_0(\text{Right}_i \times \mathbb{1}(z_i=9)) + \varepsilon_i \tag{8}$$

$$y_i = \delta_0 + \delta_1 \text{Lawyer}_i + \delta_2 \text{HC}_i + \delta_3 \mathbb{1}(z_i=9) + \beta_l(\text{Law}_i \times \mathbb{1}(z_i=9)) + \beta_h(\text{HC}_i \times \mathbb{1}(z_i=9)) + \varepsilon_i. \tag{9}$$

The coefficients of interest are β_0,β_h, and β_l.

The difference-in-differences specification addresses an important concern that inequity aversion (Fehr and Schmidt, 1999, still a welfarist concern) generates higher WTP for *any* good if $z_i=9$. To further account for inequity-averse preferences to reduce absolute differences in utility across Recipients, we control for Spectators' direct WTP to provide the good. Then, between-good

[11] The heterogeneity in targeting by good and good-specific welfare weights do not hinge on this issue, since those experiments vary provision of the goods themselves and do not offer choices.

[12] Had the outside option been "saving for future programs" as in the Inalienability and Choice Experiments, then choices in the Egalitarianism Experiment could never be universal. Tenants in future programs would not be assisted. Put another way, "future programs" would have raised the denominator from 10 to a larger number.

difference-in-differences in WTP reflect only a differential "preference for equal rights."

4.3.2 Results

We find no evidence of differential preferences for equal rights with rights goods compared to benchmarks (Figure A3, Table A12). Across all goods, WTP to allocate another good rises with z. That is, WTP to allocate $z+1$ goods at $z=9$ is larger than $z=1$ or $z=5$. But the difference-in-differences, comparing benchmarks to rights goods, is actually negative.

This null result can be interpreted in several ways. First, non-welfarist preferences may extend to all four goods, including benchmarks. Alternatively, as there is no differential preference for equal rights with rights goods, these tests cannot reject the presence of welfarist but inequity-averse preferences (see Table A12 for quantification). In fact, when we include a control for direct WTP for the good, which further accounts for inequity aversion, we find a significant *negative* coefficient, indicating preferences *against* equal rights for rights goods. Elicitation errors or inattention are a less persuasive explanation for the spike at $z=9$ as they are unlikely to differ at $z=9$ versus $z=5$ and $z=1$.

As a core tenet of liberalism, preferences for equal rights were reasonable to examine *ex ante*. However, equal rights are also hard to manipulate in the lab. We cannot control the share of people in society who have the good. One explanation for the null result is that Spectators internalize that, no matter their choice, many people will lack lawyers or health care.[13]

The null result also highlights the value of our efforts to collect data on several different non-welfarist decisions, in one sample. Null results in one exercise need not imply the absence of non-welfarism across choices. This elicitation shows that meaningful non-welfarism is not a given.

4.4 Taking Stock

Non-Welfarism Is Prevalent Across Experiments. Considering the data from both the Inalienability and Choice Experiments together, which we focus on moving forward, affirms our findings: non-welfarism is prevalent and especially concentrated among rights goods. A full 73% have positive WTP for rights goods in either of the Inalienability or Choice Experiment (Table 1). 31% have positive WTP in both experiments, which is 12 pp (65%) more than the 19% who express positive WTP in both experiments with benchmarks ($p<0.001$). Pervasive non-welfarism especially manifests for rights goods.

Multiple Hypothesis Corrections. As we find results consistent with our hypotheses in two of three experiments, we perform multiple hypothesis corrections for the Inalienability, Choice, and Egalitarianism Experiments (Table A13). Romano-Wolf adjusted p-values for the Inalienability and

[13]This experiment studies a different mechanism than the targeting experiments. The targeting experiments examine preferences to provide goods to more people relative to providing more assistance to needier ones. This study always allows the Spectator to only assist one ex ante identical, marginal Recipient.

Table 1: Overall Prevalence of Non-Welfarism

	(1) Non-Zero WTP: Inalienability	(2) Non-Zero WTP: Choice	(3) Non-Zero WTP in $\geq$1 Experiment	(4) Non-Zero WTP in Both Experiments
Rights good (=1)	0.078	0.166	0.125	0.121
	(0.025)	(0.030)	(0.029)	(0.026)
	[0.002]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]
Mean (benchmarks)	0.456	0.382	0.605	0.186
Posterior $\geq$ 0.9		✓	✓	✓
Observations	1,800	1,058	1,058	1,058

Notes: This table compares the prevalence of non-welfarist choices among participants assigned to rights goods with the prevalence among participants assigned to benchmark goods. The coefficient on *Rights good* is the difference between the two groups; the benchmark-group mean provides the corresponding baseline level. The outcomes in Columns (1) and (2) are indicators for positive WTP in the Inalienability Experiment and Choice Experiment, respectively. Columns (3) and (4) indicate positive WTP in either experiment and in both experiments, respectively. Columns (2)–(4) restrict the sample to participants whose posterior belief in the Choice Experiment exceeded 0.9. Robust standard errors appear in parentheses; *p*-values appear in brackets.

Choice Experiments remain significant at $p < 0.01$.

4.5 Robustness Checks

Having established the prevalence of non-welfarism, we perform several robustness checks to study the role of incentives, inattention, and other threats to our design and interpretation.[14]

Incentives. As health care was not incentivized, we embedded two tests to measure the importance of incentives (see details in Appendix C.4). First, we randomize benchmark goods into being incentivized throughout all experiments (as in lawyers) or not incentivized (as in health care). In particular, we randomize benchmark goods into receiving identical language as those who see health care. Comparing benchmark participants who see the health care language to those who see the lawyer language therefore jointly tests for the importance of incentives and other minor language differences that differ between health care and the other studies. If incentives matter for health care, we would expect them also to matter for benchmark goods. Yet we find no effect of incentives among benchmark participants (Table A20). As a consequence, rights goods versus benchmark goods differences in the Inalienability, Choice, and Egalitarianism Experiments also persist using only incentivized or only unincentivized benchmark participants (also Table A20).[15]

Second, we elicit Spectators' WTP to give Recipients the good directly. This is the secondary WTP elicitation, distinct from the Inalienability, Choice, and Egalitarianism Experiments. We randomly

[14] These checks also apply to the Original Goods Targeting Experiment (Section 6), which was part of the same survey.

[15] We did not randomize incentives among lawyers in the main experiments because we did not know *ex ante* that incentives would have small effects, and we did not want to reduce power if they proved important.

assign half of the participants assigned to the three incentivized goods to have this WTP elicitation be unincentivized and clearly labeled as hypothetical, whereas the other half sees that the elicitation is incentivized. If incentives mattered in the Inalienability, Choice, and Egalitarianism Experiments, we would expect experimental manipulation of incentives to affect the WTP elicitation as well. Yet, we reject even small effects of incentives here (Table A19).

We thus find no evidence that lack of incentives for health care influences results. The advantage of the first test is that it examines incentives in the Inalienability, Choice, Egalitarianism, and Original Goods Targeting Experiments, whereas the advantage of the second test is that it examines how incentives affect provision of a rights good (lawyers). These findings add to a conflicted literature on the importance of incentives in laboratory experiments (Andersen et al., 2011; Gneezy et al., 2011; Charness et al., 2021; Danz et al., 2022; Sullivan, 2023).

High Levels in the Experiments. A potentially surprising result is that there are high levels of non-welfarist behaviors even for benchmark goods. One may reasonably worry that misclicks or inattention drive these findings. First, our design suggests against this concern: our elicitation procedure is conservative for finding non-welfarism. We begin WTP elicitations with the smallest value of the multiple price list (MPL); therefore, rejecting the non-welfarist allocation once leads us to classify a Spectator as welfarist. That is, misclicks are likely to produce excessive welfarism.

Second, a large share of participants across experiments expresses the maximum possible WTP to ensure the non-welfarist allocation, meaning that they repeatedly select the non-welfarist option in our MPL. Such patterns are difficult to explain by trembles or misclicks.

Third, we paid careful attention to the free-text responses in part to rule out confusion; these provide helpful supportive evidence.

Fourth, inattention cannot explain the large share who express non-welfarist preferences. We regress outcomes on an indicator for failing one attention check (Table A22). Inattention is insignificantly correlated with small increases in non-zero WTP (5 and 2 pp in the Inalienability and Choice Experiment) and universal allocations (3 pp in the Original Goods Targeting Experiment; all p-values > 0.2). Importantly, the correlation with inattention is small relative to levels of non-welfarism and universality among the attentive (50%, 48%, and 37% in the Inalienability, Choice, and Original Goods Targeting Experiments). Thus, to generate our results, unobserved inattention would need to be much more important than observed inattention.[16]

Finally, even if one worries about the high levels for the benchmark goods, we have stressed differences across rights and benchmark goods for this reason (see detailed discussion in Section

[16]We additionally examine if inattention affects differences in non-welfarism by good, rather than levels. If anything, we find slightly higher inattention with benchmark goods (7.4%, versus 7.1% with rights goods). That pushes against observing differences by good due to inattention.

3). The main policy point (domain-specific welfare weights) results from *differences* across goods.

Reweighting. Reweighting the online sample to match demographics in the U.S. population has no impact on results (Table A21).

5 When Does Non-Welfarism Arise?

The Inalienability and Choice Experiments document evidence of non-welfarism in controlled environments. We now provide descriptive evidence on when, and among whom, such non-welfarist preferences arise. We begin by showing how such preferences manifest across the income distribution and other demographics, and relate to policy support. We then perform a mechanisms experiment that tests whether non-welfarist preferences are merely low-stakes phenomena. We finally show that non-welfarist preferences extend beyond our original goods, and appear to relate to both welfarist and non-welfarist views about the good.

5.1 Demographic Heterogeneity and Incidence by Income

Incidence by Income. To examine the incidence of non-welfarist preferences, we consider someone a non-welfarist if they express non-welfarist preferences in both the Inalienability and Choice Experiments, focusing only on those who see lawyers or health care.

We start by investigating how such preferences relate to income. This form of heterogeneity is particularly important to explore, and was pre-registered, since a natural hypothesis is that non-welfarism may primarily be a concern of the rich.

Among rights goods, we find a stark inverted U-shaped pattern, where Spectators with annual household incomes of $40–60,000 exhibit significantly higher rates of non-welfarism (Figure 5A). These middle-income Spectators are 42–65% more likely to be non-welfarist than those with incomes of $100,000+ or $0–20,000.

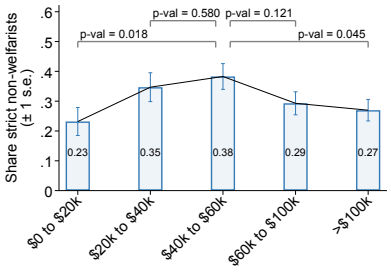
Table A18 quantifies and shows incidence of non-welfarism in the Inalienability and Choice Experiments separately. The inverted-U holds in each experiment, but statistical significance benefits from pooling them. We return to this pattern by income when we consider targeting in Section 7.

In contrast to income, non-welfarism exhibits mostly small correlations with other demographic characteristics (Figure 5B). For instance, it does not appear that non-welfarism loads on education, age, gender, or — perhaps most surprisingly — generalized political attitudes (liberal versus conservative).

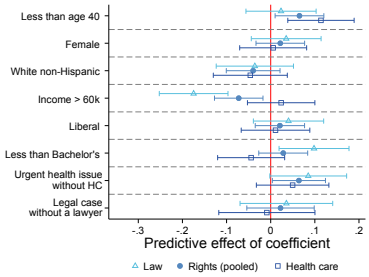
Policy Support. Do non-welfarist preferences predict support for particular policies? We conclude the Original Goods Experiments by asking Spectators if they support (i) "right to counsel" policies that provide lawyers to tenants facing eviction, (ii) rent control, and (iii) universal health care. We then regress support for these policies on an indicator for exhibiting non-welfarist preferences in

Figure 5: Incidence of Non-Welfarism

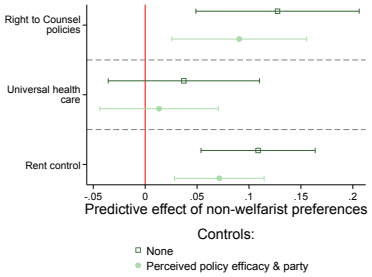
(a) Incidence of Non-Welfarism by Income: Inverted U



(b) Little Relationship with Other Demographics



(c) Non-Welfarism and Policy Preferences



Notes: Panel A shows the prevalence of non-welfarist preferences by income group, where non-welfarism is defined as having positive WTP in both the Inalienability and Choice Experiments. See Table A18 for formal tests. Panel B reports coefficients from regressions of the non-welfarism indicator on participant characteristics. Panel C shows the predictive effect of non-welfarist preferences on support for specific policies. We show support for right-to-counsel policies among participants assigned to lawyers, support for universal health care among those assigned to health care, and support for rent control among all participants assigned to rights goods. Specifications control for perceived policy efficacy as indicated in the legend. Panel A shows ±1 standard error; Panels B and C show 95% confidence intervals (±1.96 standard errors).

both the Inalienability and Choice Experiments. For right to counsel, we conduct this exercise among Spectators assigned to lawyers; for rent control, we pool Spectators assigned to lawyers and health care. For universal health care, we conduct the exercise among Spectators who did the experiments with health care.

Non-welfarist preferences predict support for right to counsel and rent control, but not universal health care (Figure 5B). For right to counsel and rent control, the relationship survives adding a control for whether the Spectator believes the policy would be effective, as well as for whether the person is a liberal. Thus, non-welfarist preferences, at least in the context of providing lawyers, predict policy support on top of welfarist/instrumental views about whether policy will help people. One explanation for why non-welfarist preferences could be less predictive of support for universal health care is that this issue is more politicized.

5.2 Stakes Experiment: Non-Welfarist Decisions and Welfarist Consequences

In light of the domain-specificity we find, a natural question is why some domains induce more non-welfarism than others. We study one force: a decision's *welfarist* consequences.

5.2.1 Motivation and Design

The pre-registered Stakes Experiment (AEA Registry #0014218) distinguishes two hypotheses. In the first, welfarist consequences attenuate non-welfarist reasoning, which acts as a tie-breaker when stakes are small. In the second, welfarist consequences draw attention to the decision and make it less automatic, which heightens non-welfarist concerns.

We modify the Inalienability Experiment and elicit WTP not to rerun a lottery that allocates lawyers, experimentally manipulating three aspects that influence the welfarist consequences. One way to think about these treatments is with the following first-order approximation:

$$\begin{aligned}&\text{Welfarist Consequences of Providing Lawyer} \\ &\quad = \text{Lawyer Effectiveness} \times \text{Case Magnitude} \times \text{Social Marginal Welfare Weight of Recipient.}\end{aligned} \tag{10}$$

The experiment has six arms in three groups, each of which varies one term on the right-hand side. The effectiveness group assigns the tenant a lawyer who almost always wins or almost always loses. The magnitude group switches to a speeding ticket case, where the stakes are easier to vary, and sets the fine at \$50 or \$2,000. We tell participants that the Recipients can versus cannot afford the fine. The identity group makes the Recipient low- or middle-income. Middle-income Recipients have lower social marginal welfare weights.

Experiment Logistics. We recruit 6,000 new participants on Prolific (1,000 per arm). Table A23 reports the sample, attrition, and balance, and Appendix C.9 describes recruitment. A limitation is that this experiment is always hypothetical. Given incentives' small impacts in prior experiments (Section 4.5), their absence here likely does not affect results. As in the Original Goods Experiment, we tell Spectators that the non-profit will be informed about the results, and we ask participants to take the elicitation seriously.

5.2.2 Results and Discussion

In all three groups, larger welfarist consequences increase non-welfarist behavior (Figure 6). Average WTP is \$79 with an effective lawyer and \$45 with an ineffective one ($p < 0.001$). The gap is larger still across speeding ticket fine magnitudes ($p < 0.001$). It is smaller across Recipient income (\$12, $p = 0.001$), and significantly smaller than in each of the other two groups.[17] Table A24 reports the regressions and similar results for the other Inalienability Experiment outcomes.

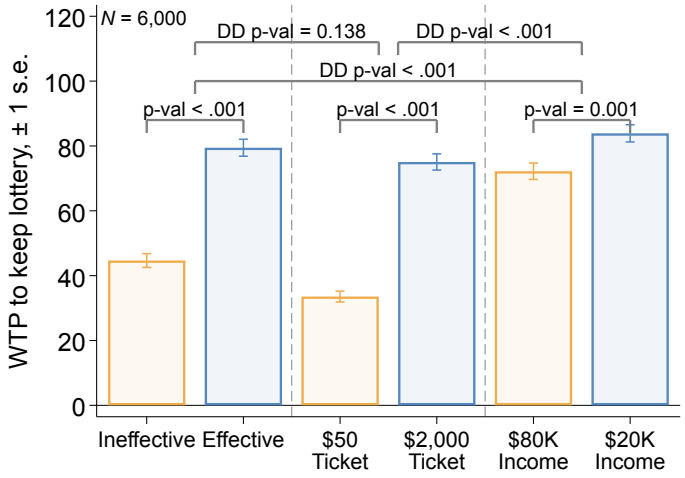
We draw two conclusions. First, welfarist consequences dramatically raise the propensity to make non-welfarist decisions. Our findings may therefore extend to high-stakes rights such as shelter or food, as the qualitative evidence in Figure A7 suggested. The pattern fits models of attention or salience, in which large stakes prompt a bottom-up emotional response and a turn to moral reasoning (Ottati, 1990; Druckman and Lupia, 2000; Goodenough and Prehn, 2004; Bordalo et al., 2022). Small choices instead rely on welfarist heuristics (Simon, 1955).[18]

Second, stakes have heterogeneous effects, as the identity treatment has distinguishable but

[17] $p < 0.001$ on each difference-in-differences with the identity group; $p = 0.138$ for the difference-in-differences of the effectiveness and fine magnitude groups.

[18] The data fit a pure rumination channel less well. Spectators do not spend more time on the task under high-stakes treatments (Table A25).

Figure 6: Mechanisms: Stakes



Notes: This figure shows participants' WTP to preserve lottery results in an extension of the Inalienability Experiment (Section 5.2). Orange bars represent low-stakes conditions, while blue bars represent high-stakes conditions. The left pair compares lotteries allocating an ineffective or effective eviction lawyer. The center pair compares lotteries allocating a lawyer for a speeding-ticket case involving either a $50 or $2,000 fine. The right pair compares lotteries allocating an eviction lawyer to a tenant with either $80,000 or $20,000 in annual household income. Error bars show ±1 standard error. See Table A24 for detailed regression results and hypothesis tests.

smaller impacts. Our pre-registered interpretation, foreshadowing the targeting results in Section 6, is that manipulating identity yields countervailing forces. On the one hand, non-welfarist concerns are more important as stakes rise, which should cause higher rates of non-welfarist behaviors with poorer Recipients. On the other hand, non-welfarist concerns may also push toward universal provision, downweighting the importance of identity and attenuating the treatment effect. That is, the gap in effective social marginal welfare weights between rich and poor is smaller with rights goods like lawyers, per the mechanism in Section 1. That reduces the difference in WTP to preserve the lottery across Recipients. Thus, the smaller treatment effect in this manipulation is consistent with an important role for stakes as well as the weaker targeting motive in non-welfarist environments, as we hypothesize.

5.3 Goods Atlas

We now broaden our scope beyond the original 4 goods. We ran a pre-registered Goods Atlas survey on Prolific with 5,104 participants with 13 goods, including the original four (AEA Registry #0019601). Our goal is to test whether participants directly express that they believe different goods are rights, and to examine how qualitative moral and welfarist views correlate with participants' self-reported views.

We add nine goods: rental assistance, child care, preschool, food, community college, job training,

contraception, internet access at home, and cash. We select these additional in-kind goods to connect our analysis to both economic evaluations of public transfers and debates about rights. Specifically, these goods correspond to programs with existing Marginal Value of Public Funds estimates (Hendren and Sprung-Keyser, 2020), relate to rights recognized in the Universal Declaration of Human Rights (Assembly et al., 1948), or feature in frontier debates about rights (Lord-Biggers and Curhan, 2024). The expanded set allows us to examine how participants' rights views vary across a broader range of policy domains. Finally, we include as a benchmark the original four goods.

The Goods Atlas asks 15% (777) of the participants a module about their views on what makes goods rights, discussed here. The remaining 85% (4,327) instead do a module about their views on targeting the goods, discussed in Section 6.

The first part of the Atlas asks 777 participants whether they believe there is a right to each of these goods. We show participants six of the 13 goods, where goods were chosen at random and the order of goods was randomized (see Appendix C.11 for details). We ask participants, "For each type of assistance below, select the statement that best captures your opinion:" where the options were, "It should be considered a right," "It would be desirable to provide but should not be considered a right," and "It is neither desirable to provide nor should it be considered a right," which we adapt from Hertel et al. (2009).

Next, these 777 participants in the Goods Atlas are told to consider their views about a specified good of the 13. We ask them a number of questions including: how instrumentally valuable they think the good is, the extent to which their views about the good being a right depend on whether recipients benefit from it, how morally worthy providing the good is, and whether it is important to provide the good even when recipients do not value it. We correlate these perspectives (at the good level) with overall views about whether the good is a right.

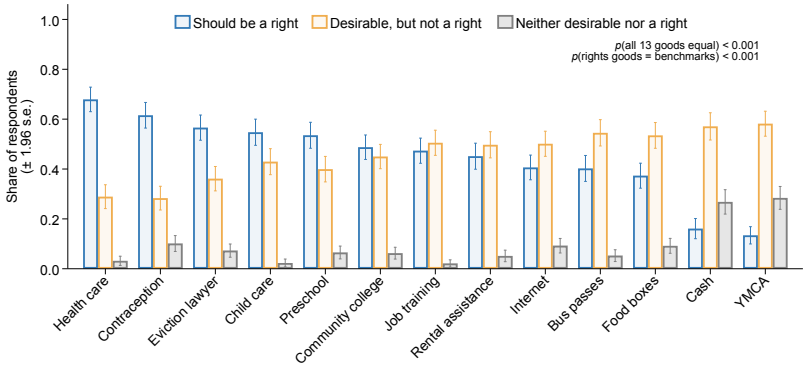
Table A26 reports the sample and attrition, and Appendix C.11 describes recruitment. As in the Stakes Experiment, these elicitations are hypothetical, but we provide encouragement to take the elicitation seriously.

Results. Participants express heterogeneous views about whether different goods are a right. Figure 7A shows that almost 70% of participants view health care as a right; almost 60% view lawyers in eviction cases as a right; 40% view internet or bus passes as a right; and less than 20% see cash or YMCA passes as rights. Consistent with the Original Goods Experiments, we find that participants rate lawyers and health care higher than bus tickets or YMCA passes ($p < 0.001$). Consistent with domain-specificity, across the 13 goods, we see the share that view different goods as rights is also heterogeneous (joint $p < 0.001$).

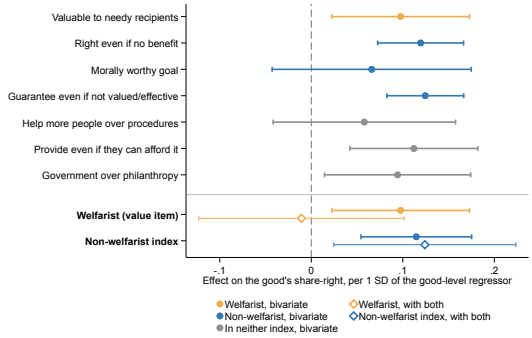
Next, we correlate the goods with several qualitative questions (Figure 7B). Here, we regress

Figure 7: Goods Atlas

(a) Goods by Agreement with "Is a Right"



(b) Rights Coefficients by Good



Notes: Panel A shows the share of Goods Atlas Study respondents classifying each good as something that should be a right, as desirable but not a right, or as neither. Goods are ordered by their rights share; we show 95% confidence intervals. $N = 777$ respondents, each rating six goods, with 317–400 ratings per good. The displayed p-values test equality across all 13 goods and equality of the pooled original rights goods and benchmarks, using respondent-clustered standard errors. Panel B examines which characteristics of a good predict its rights share. Each regressor is the mean qualitative rating among respondents assigned that focal good, standardized across goods. The first seven rows report separate bivariate regressions. The final two rows report the welfarist value item and the non-welfarist index separately (circles) and jointly (diamonds). The non-welfarist index combines whether the good should be a right even without recipient benefits, is a morally worthy goal, and should be guaranteed even when it is not valued or effective. The gray items do not enter either index. Cash is excluded because two component questions were not asked for cash. The regressions use 4,345 respondent-good ratings of the 12 non-cash goods and weight goods by their number of ratings. Standard errors are clustered by good.

the share that perceive the good as a right on a standardized response to the specific question, at the good level. Individually, each of the qualitative questions predicts whether the good is viewed as a right: both a question that would matter to welfarists (i.e., whether the participant sees the good as instrumentally valuable to Recipients) and non-welfarists (e.g., whether the participant sees the good as being morally worthy to give out). When we control for a normalized index of self-reported non-welfarist views, the coefficient on welfarist preferences attenuates (series in diamonds); that is, non-welfarism may be a particularly important determinant of self-reported views about whether a good is a right.

6 Implications for Targeting

The paper now moves to investigate the implications of non-welfarist concerns for targeting and policy design. This section has two objectives. First, we measure how Spectators redistribute goods across people with varying levels of need, and document substantial variation in redistributive tastes across goods. Second, we show that this heterogeneity in redistributive tastes arises due to non-welfarist concerns.

6.1 Design

The ideal experiment asks participants to trade off providing more generous assistance to poorer individuals with universal provision across broader swaths of society. We construct a novel experiment that asks participants whether they would prefer to provide a good universally, among a population of varying incomes, or provide the good and some amount of cash, to a poorer subset.

We perform the Targeting Experiment at the end of the Original Goods Experiment and in the Goods Atlas. In the Original Goods Targeting Experiment, participants do the exercise with the same good they had been randomized into, except that half of those assigned a benchmark good allocate cash instead, for five goods in total. Within the Goods Atlas Study, participants assigned to the targeting arm ("Goods Atlas Targeting Experiment") receive one of 13 goods and complete only the targeting exercise. They do not answer any of the other questions in the Goods Atlas described above (including whether they believe the good is a right). Minor elicitation details are different between the experiments (see Appendix C.10), but they both follow the same structure.

We want to measure redistributive preferences over indivisible goods where Recipients only benefit from provision at the extensive margin. Standard techniques for measuring such preferences are not well suited to this problem. To see why, suppose there are 10 people who need lawyers, they can be uniquely sorted by income (i.e., no ties), there are $R < 10$ lawyers, and no one benefits from multiple eviction lawyers. Anyone with progressive redistributive preferences gives the lawyers to the R poorest people. Thus, we cannot simply ask Spectators how they would allocate R lawyers among 10 people.

The Targeting Experiment introduces smoothness into the problem as follows. We tell Spectators that they have the chance to give a good to 10 Recipients with varying annual household incomes. Spectators may give all Recipients the good. Alternatively, Spectators may give the poorest $R \in \{1,2,...,9\}$ Recipients the good as well as cash. Thus, Spectators face a trade-off between (i) money and the good to fewer, needier households, versus (ii) no money and the good to more households, where the marginal household is less needy. We iterate on R until we see indifference between targeting to R Recipients versus giving all 10 Recipients the good.

The specific elicitation varies slightly across the two targeting experiments, for deliberate reasons. In the Original Goods Targeting Experiment, each choice divides a fixed cash budget across the R targeted recipients. For instance, if the cash budget is \$3,000 and the good costs \$300, the Spectators may face a choice between giving 5 Recipients the good (whose "price" is \$300) plus \$300 cash each or 10 Recipients the good; if they say that they prefer to give 10 Recipients the good, then they face a choice between giving 6 Recipients the good plus \$200 in cash each or 10 Recipients the good, etc. In the Goods Atlas Targeting Experiment, we instead fix the cash amount given to each of the R

Recipients (always at $100). The first design holds total spending fixed as targeting changes, while the second holds each targeted Recipient's cash supplement fixed to simplify comparisons across goods.

Elicitation imposes monotonicity: if a Spectator prefers universal provision to the targeted allocation for R Recipients, we assume that they also prefer universal provision to the targeted allocation for $R-1$ Recipients. This follows naturally from the choices Spectators face in the Goods Atlas Targeting Experiment, but is a more substantive assumption in the Original Goods Targeting Experiment; we describe monotonicity in detail in Appendix C.10. Similarity of results across experiments is reassuring and shows that our results conceptually replicate, i.e., are not sensitive to these unavoidable design decisions.[19]

The Original Goods Targeting Experiment provided incentives for choices as described in Section 3. By doing the experiment in the same study as the Inalienability and Choice Experiments, we can relate non-welfarist preferences to targeting choices within-subject. The Goods Atlas Targeting Experiment did not incentivize choices, but studied a broader range of goods. Together, the consistency of results across experiments provides helpful reassurance and serves as qualitative replication of our findings (since we repeat the original four goods in the Goods Atlas).

6.2 Results

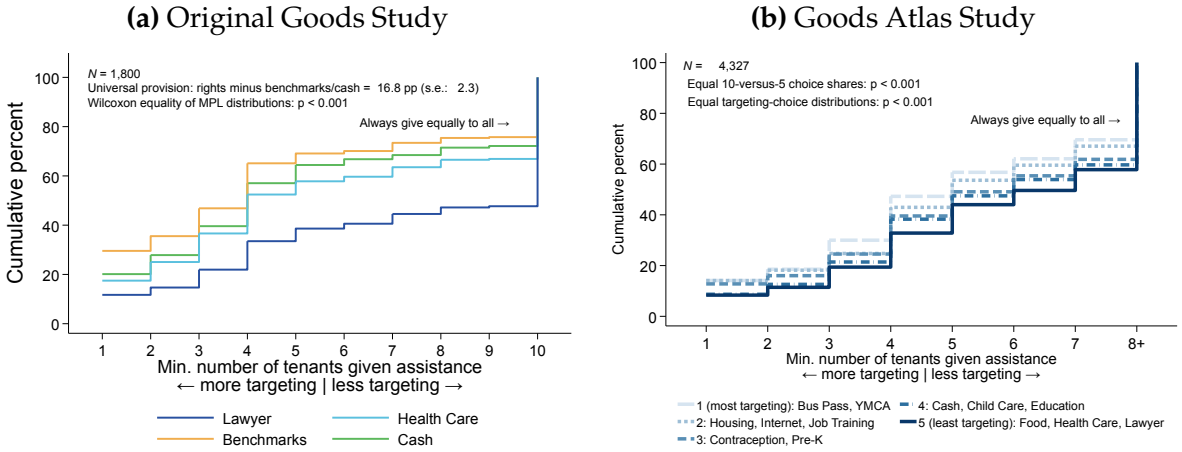
Starting with the Original Goods Targeting Experiment, Spectators are more likely to give goods universally (or "anti-target" to all 10 Recipients) with rights goods than benchmarks (Figure 8A). Pooling lawyers and health care, 43% of Spectators who allocate rights goods give them universally, compared to 26% of Spectators allocating benchmarks or cash (s.e. of difference: 2.3 pp). Both lawyers and health care are significantly different than the benchmarks and cash. Spectators are more likely to "anti-target" with lawyers than health care. Table A14 aggregates the tests, along with similar results for a continuous outcome of the number of Recipients assisted.

When we broaden to the 13 goods, we find similar results. To display the 13 distributions legibly, Figure 8B orders the goods from most to least targeted and plots CDFs for five groups of adjacent goods (Appendix Figure A9 presents each good separately). Replicating the Original Goods Targeting Experiment, the least-targeted goods — with the right-most CDFs — are lawyers and health-care. By contrast, among the most-targeted goods are YMCA passes and bus tickets. We test for heterogeneity across the 13 goods and decisively reject the null that all 13 CDFs are the same ($p < 0.001$).

Open-ended responses further confirm our interpretation. In the Original Goods Targeting Experiment, we ask Spectators to explain the reasons for their allocation. Those who anti-target mention how all deserve assistance, regardless of income. Those who do not disproportionately

[19] Moreover, we also show results comparing the first choice made: giving the good plus cash to 5 Recipients, versus giving the good to 10 Recipients. These results are similar and do not depend on monotonicity.

Figure 8: Anti-Targeting



Notes: The outcome in both panels is the smallest number of tenants for whom a participant preferred targeted assistance to universal provision. The CDF reports the share of participants whose minimum was no greater than each value; higher curves therefore indicate more targeting. A value of 10 in Panel A, or 8+ in Panel B, denotes always choosing universal provision. Panel A presents results from the Original Goods Study; half of the participants assigned to benchmark goods were instead asked to distribute cash. Panel B presents results from the Goods Atlas Study. The 13 goods are ordered by their mean outcome and divided into five groups of two or three, from most to least targeting. The Pearson test evaluates equality across the 13 goods in the share choosing all 10 tenants over the five poorest. The Kruskal–Wallis test evaluates equality of the full targeting-choice distributions. Both tests use the ungrouped goods. See Table A14 for regression results and Appendix Figure A9 for good-specific CDFs.

discuss the poorest tenant (Figure A4C).

6.3 Non-Welfarist Preferences and Targeting

Why do people provide rights goods more universally? Our favored explanation is that some heterogeneity in targeting owes to domain-specific non-welfarist preferences, which Section 1.2 shows would then call for different welfare weights on goods. However, an alternative explanation is that if some goods are simply more valuable than other goods (e.g., lawyers versus bus tickets), one may prefer to provide lawyers to everyone rather than lawyers plus cash to a smaller number of people, purely for welfarist reasons. Higher instrumental value for provision would not necessarily call for distinct welfare weights by good. Appendix D.4.1 formalizes how welfarism versus non-welfarism may produce different redistributive tastes and affect interpretation of the Targeting Experiment.

Design Choices to Isolate Non-Welfarism. We designed the experiments to shut down instrumental welfarist reasons why willingness to pay could differ across the goods. The Goods Atlas Targeting Experiment fixes welfarist value of each good explicitly, by telling Spectators that Recipients would be just "as well off" as if they received $350 in cash.[20] We ask a confirmation question about this

[20]We use this language instead of reporting Recipients' WTP, to avoid paternalistic reasons to prefer giving a good rather than cash.

welfarist value of giving the good to Spectators, and 91% get it correct (we correct those who fail). We chose the goods in the Goods Atlas to have a similar instrumental value (e.g., giving a year of bus tickets versus one lawyer), so that this would be realistic and reasonable from the Spectators' perspective.[21] Under this design, Spectators should not vary in their perceived welfarist value of the good, and hence should not target goods differently for welfarist reasons.

For the Original Goods Targeting Experiment, which was incentivized, we could not truthfully tell Spectators what the welfarist value to Recipients would be. Instead, in this experiment, we purposefully chose cash amounts given to Recipients separately for each good, in terms of how much cash is provided to the lower-income Recipients. The differences in the cash budgets absorb the differences in welfarist value of provision.

In Appendix D.4.2, we formalize the assumptions that would render each design as fixing the welfarist value across goods. Intuitively, the Goods Atlas Targeting Experiment simply requires participants to pay attention to what we say the welfarist value is, which is validated by the confirmation check. The Original Goods Targeting Experiment requires that Spectators understand and agree upon goods' welfarist values, and that we set the cash budgets to exactly offset differences in welfarist value across goods.[22]

Overall, the Goods Atlas Targeting Experiment plausibly satisfies the required assumption, and shuts down the welfarist channel to provide goods to different Recipients; in this experiment, differences in targeting must emerge from domain-specific non-welfarist motives. One way of thinking about our results is that, even when participants state that they understand that the instrumental value of each good is equal, they still choose to target rights goods more universally. In the Original Goods Targeting Experiment, the assumption may not hold exactly, but the consistency of results across experiments and several empirical tests below reassure us that differences in targeting do not owe to welfarist considerations. Our policy exercise in Section 7 uses the Goods Atlas data.

Empirical Tests. The designs are intended to shut down welfarist motives. We now present empirical tests that show positive evidence that non-welfarist motives account for different targeting choices across goods. Of course, our evidence does not establish that the particular non-welfarist principles measured in the Inalienability and Choice Experiments causally drive targeting choices. However, under our assumptions that Recipients' welfare gains are held fixed across goods, differences in targeting must necessarily reflect non-welfarist preferences. The correlations with

[21] We hold fixed the Recipient population, income distribution, and $350 cash benchmark. We introduce each good with a fixed scope and duration. For example, the packages included representation in one eviction proceeding, one year of home internet access, one month of groceries, and one month of job training. We selected these definitions to make it plausible that Recipients would be as well off with each good as with $350 in cash.

[22] We set the prices based on pilot data about Spectators' perceived welfarist values of the good; these are close but not exactly equal to the values that Spectators in the experiment report (Appendix C.10).

Table 2: Correlations Between the Inalienability and Choice Experiments and the Original Goods Targeting Experiment

	Dep. Var.: Universal (=1)			
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
WTP for inalienability (s.d.)	0.031			0.017
	(0.012)			(0.018)
	[0.013]			[0.331]
WTP for choice (s.d.)		0.089		0.085
		(0.015)		(0.016)
		[0.000]		[0.000]
Mean WTP (s.d.)			0.107	
			(0.020)	
			[0.000]	
Posterior ≥ 0.9		✓	✓	✓
Mean	0.428	0.437	0.437	0.437
Observations	1,201	600	600	600

Notes: This table reports regressions of an indicator for universal provision in the Original Goods Targeting Experiment on WTP for inalienability in the Inalienability Experiment and WTP for choice in the Choice Experiment, including and pooling participants assigned to rights goods. WTP measures are standardized relative to the benchmark-good distribution. *Mean WTP* is the average of the two standardized WTP measures. Columns (2)–(4), which use measures from the Choice Experiment, further restrict the sample to participants with posterior beliefs of at least 0.9. Robust standard errors appear in parentheses; *p*-values appear in brackets. We report corresponding estimates separately for lawyers and health care in Table A16.

these particular non-welfarist choices then help characterize the non-welfarist concerns underlying targeting differences.[23]

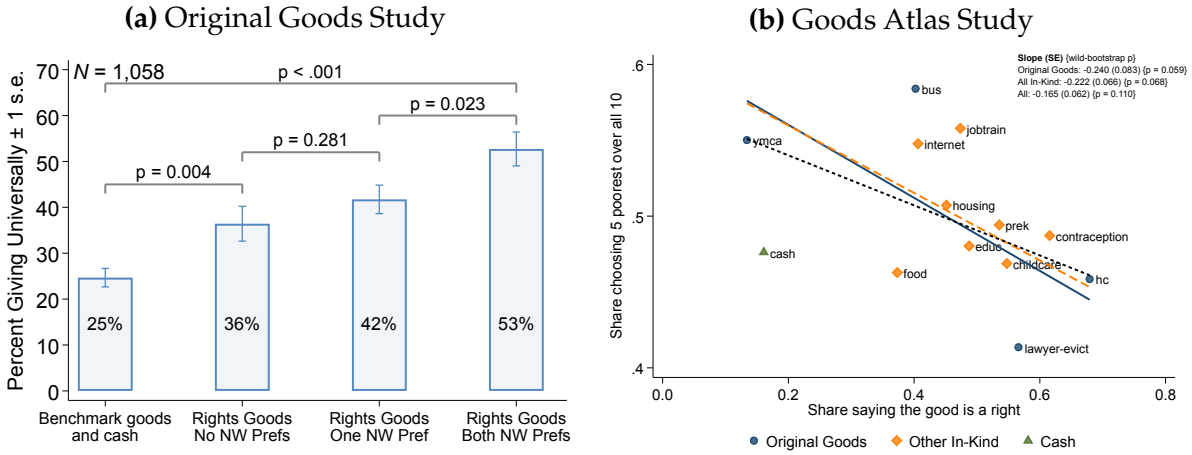
We begin with the Original Goods Targeting Experiment, where we leverage within-subject tests. We find that 53% of Spectators who express non-welfarist preferences in both the Inalienability and Choice Experiments provide rights goods universally, compared with 42% (p-value of difference = 0.023) of Spectators who are non-welfarist in exactly one experiment and 36% of Spectators who do not express non-welfarist preferences in either experiment (Figure 9A). Meanwhile, 25% of Spectators provide benchmarks universally.[24]

Thus, looking *within* rights goods, there is a 16 pp difference in anti-targeting for those with non-welfarist preferences in both experiments versus neither (2nd and 4th bars of Figure 9A). That is similar to the 17 pp *between*-good difference in anti-targeting of rights goods versus benchmarks (Figure 8). Alternatively, the 16 pp difference account for more than half the 28 pp gap between anti-targeting in rights versus benchmarks (1st, 2nd, and 4th bars of Figure 9A).

[23] A related point is that the Stakes Experiment shows that non-welfarist motives become stronger in high-stakes settings, such as health care or legal representation. Our targeting experiments do not shut down the possibility that larger perceived stakes activate stronger non-welfarist concerns. Indeed, this would be a mechanism generating good-specific targeting preferences, rather than a confound.

[24] With benchmarks, correlations between anti-targeting and non-welfarism are directionally consistent but smaller in magnitude (Figure A6B).

Figure 9: Non-Welfarism and Redistribution



Notes: Panel A restricts the sample to participants with posteriors of at least 0.9. It shows the share who provide the good universally in the Original Goods Targeting Experiment, separately for participants assigned to benchmark and rights goods and by whether they had positive WTP in the Inalienability and Choice Experiments. A participant has a "rights preference" in an experiment if that participant has positive WTP. Estimates are shown with ± 1 standard error. Panel B uses the Goods Atlas Study to plot, for each good, the share of participants who chose to provide the good to the five poorest tenants rather than to all ten tenants against the share who classified the good as a right. The solid blue line shows the slope for the four original goods, the dashed orange line using all in-kind goods, and the dashed black line using all goods, including cash. Slopes come from participant-level regressions, which weight each good by the number of participants who made targeting choices and standard errors are clustered by good, with wild-bootstrap p-values in braces.

Simple correlations also show that non-welfarist preferences in the Inalienability and Choice Experiments predict propensity to anti-target (Table 2). For instance, a 1 s.d. increase in WTP for choice in the Choice Experiment correlates with a 9 pp increase in anti-targeting, a 20% increase off the mean of 44%.

Such within-subject correlations give compelling evidence of non-welfarism's relevance for targeting. Nothing about the Targeting Experiment mechanically pushes non-welfarists, as measured in the Inalienability and Choice Experiments, to anti-target.

We next study the between-good relationship between whether subjects rate goods as rights and how universally they choose to target the good. Recall that for some subjects, the Goods Atlas asks whether they view the good as a right. For other subjects, the Goods Atlas asks how they want to target the good. Collapsing these data to the good level, we find that goods that are more likely to be labeled as rights are less likely to be targeted. Goods that are 10 pp more likely to be labeled as rights are 1.6 pp more likely to be provided to all 10 Recipients rather than only the five poorest (goods-clustered $p = 0.021$, see Figure A8 for the relationship between other targeting measures and whether the good is labeled as a right).[25]

[25] Naturally, inference is more suggestive with 13 clusters, and p-values using the wild-bootstrap or finite-sample inference range from $p = 0.110$ to $p = 0.150$.

Additional Empirical Tests. Several other tests further shut down the role of welfarist preferences beyond the design, which we discuss in detail in Appendix D.4.3. First, Spectators provide rights goods more universally even when we explicitly control for their perceived welfarist valuation of the good. This is a conservative test because perceived instrumental valuations could correlate with non-welfarist valuations (rendering this a "bad control" in the Angrist and Pischke, 2009 sense). Second, we performed an information-provision experiment in the Original Goods Experiment, which surprised Spectators with information about the efficacy of lawyers and health care. Less than half change their allocation, which suggests that Spectators do not exclusively maximize welfarist goals.

7 Good-Specific Welfare Weights

The previous section shows differences in targeting choices for goods that Spectators understand have the same welfarist value. To interpret these results and derive policy implications, we now apply the framework in Section 1 to separate general preferences for redistribution from good-specific concerns about provision. The key idea is that the Targeting Experiment varies inputs into Recipient utility over allocations to reveal Spectators' perceived good-specific welfare weights.

7.1 Empirical Version of Welfare Framework

Set-Up. Notation is as in Section 1. Recipients differ in their initial endowments. Let $w_j > 0$ denote Recipient j's baseline resources (income), and let $c_j(a)$ denote the income equivalent of allocation a relative to the baseline: Recipient j obtains the same utility from allocation a as from baseline resources $w_j + c_j(a)$. Their utility is therefore $u(w_j + c_j(a))$. We take a_0 to be the baseline endowment, with $c_j(a_0) = y_{jg}(a_0) = 0$.

For a given Spectator i, we let ω_{ij} denote the weight they place on Recipient j's utility and $\widetilde{\eta}_{ijg}$ their additional value of providing good g to that Recipient, holding Recipient utility fixed. Their utility from allocation a relative to a_0 is

$$v_i(a) - v_i(a_0) = \sum_j \omega_{ij} \left[u(w_j + c_j(a)) - u(w_j) \right] + \sum_{j,g} \widetilde{\eta}_{ijg} y_{jg} \tag{11}$$

$$\simeq \sum_j \omega_{ij} u'(w_j) c_j(a) + \sum_{j,g} \widetilde{\eta}_{ijg} y_{jg}. \tag{12}$$

The second line is a first-order approximation around each Recipient's endowment w_j. Define $\widetilde{\omega}_{ij} \equiv \omega_{ij} u'(w_j)$ as the Spectator's weight on an additional dollar to Recipient j, the individual counterpart of $\widetilde{\omega}(w)$ in Section 1.3. The parameters ω and $\widetilde{\eta}$ correspond to $\frac{\partial v}{\partial u}$ and η in Equation (4).[26]

For an allocation a providing one unit of good g to Recipient j, with WTP $c_j(a) > 0$, the

[26] Unlike η_{jg} in Equation (4), $\widetilde{\eta}_{ijg}$ is not divided by the Recipient's marginal utility of provision. In the dollar units used in Section 1.3, $\widetilde{\eta}_g = \eta_g(w) c_g(w)$.

good-specific welfare weight per dollar of Recipient benefit is

$$\widetilde{\delta}_{ijg} = \widetilde{\omega}_{ij} + \frac{\widetilde{\eta}_{ijg}}{c_j(a)}. \tag{13}$$

7.2 Estimation

Empirical Specification. Let w^{avg} denote mean individual income. We first specify that Recipients are known to have constant relative risk aversion (CRRA) utility with risk aversion parameter ρ, normalized so that $u'(w^{\text{avg}}) = 1$. Spectators additionally employ welfare weights on Recipient utility based on Recipients' incomes $\omega_{ij} = (w_j / w^{\text{avg}})^{-\alpha_i}$. Then, Spectator i's social marginal welfare weights per dollar are $\widetilde{\omega}_{ij} = (w_j / w^{\text{avg}})^{-\gamma_i}$, where $\gamma_i = \rho + \alpha_i$. Thus, the curvature γ_i embeds both Spectators' views on the curvature of Recipients' utility functions, as well as any additional preference for redistribution. If Spectators are utilitarian and value all Recipients equally, then $\alpha_i = 0$.

We next use an ordered-logit model to translate empirical choice probabilities into welfare values. In the Targeting Experiment, Spectators choose between giving the poorest k Recipients money t as well as good g, and giving all J Recipients good g. We assume that Spectators draw a mean-zero logistic preference shock ε_{ig}, with good-specific scale σ_g, that is shared across their choices for good g. For estimation, we impose a common curvature $\gamma_i = \gamma$ across Spectators and a common premium $\widetilde{\eta}_{ijg} = \widetilde{\eta}_g$ across Spectators and Recipients for each good. Write $\widetilde{\omega}_\gamma(w_j) = (w_j / w^{\text{avg}})^{-\gamma}$, let c_{jg} be Spectators' perception about Recipient j's willingness to pay for good g, and order the J Recipients from poorest to richest. The non-idiosyncratic part of Spectator i's value of universal provision relative to targeted provision is therefore

$$D_{ig}(k;\gamma,\widetilde{\eta}_g) = \sum_{j=k+1}^{J} c_{jg}\widetilde{\omega}_\gamma(w_j) - t\sum_{j=1}^{k}\widetilde{\omega}_\gamma(w_j) + (J-k)\widetilde{\eta}_g, \tag{14}$$

which is common across Spectators. Including idiosyncratic noise, the utility of providing a good universally is $D_{ig}(k;\gamma,\widetilde{\eta}_g) + \varepsilon_{ig}$, and thus a Spectator i chooses to make a good universal if $D_{ig}(k;\gamma,\widetilde{\eta}_g) + \varepsilon_{ig} \geq 0$. Letting O_{ig} denote the first cutoff at which Spectator i prefers targeted provision of good g, the ordered logit assumption implies that the cumulative probability of switching by cutoff k is

$$F_{ig}(k) \equiv \Pr(O_{ig} \leq k) = \left[1 + \exp\left(D_{ig}(k;\gamma,\widetilde{\eta}_g)/\sigma_g\right)\right]^{-1}. \tag{15}$$

We use as data the Goods Atlas Targeting Experiment. Here, we told Spectators that $c_{jg} = \$350$ for every good and Recipient, and set $t = \$100$, so those values are treated as known. We calibrate the combined dollar-weight elasticity $\gamma = 1$, capturing both risk aversion and welfare weights. We then estimate $(\widetilde{\eta}_g, \sigma_g)$ via Maximum Likelihood, performing inference by bootstrapping estimates 600 times.[27]

[27] We use a relatively low value of γ because in such redistribution experiments, γ tends to be less than 1 (Capozza and Srinivasan, 2026). We also directly estimate $\hat{\gamma} = 0.83$ from the choices over targeting cash within the experiment, and jointly estimate γ and the η_g's, in Table A27.

7.3 Results

Table 3 shows estimates of good-specific premia ($\widehat{\eta}_g$) and normalized good-specific welfare weights. Panel A shows results for the original rights and benchmark goods, while Panel B shows results for additional goods. As expected, the procedure recovers a positive good-specific premium for the rights goods, indicating that participants derive intrinsic value from providing the good. For interpretation, the value of 441 for the pooled rights goods (Panel A, Column 2) indicates that participants derive value from giving the good — beyond recipients' willingness to pay for it — equal to providing $441 to a person with average individual income. This value is higher than the value for the benchmark goods pooled (-93.7, indicating a negative premium on providing the good). The test of equality between the two $\widehat{\eta}_g$'s (rights versus benchmarks) is highly significant ($p < 0.001$), consistent with different targeting across goods. Panel B tests these values across all individual goods, finding that the $\widehat{\eta}_g$'s are statistically different ($p < 0.001$).[28]

Columns 3–7 convert the $\widehat{\eta}_g$'s into good-specific welfare weights using Equation (13). We renormalize the weights to be 1 for the average person in society (Column 5). A more positive value of $\widehat{\eta}_g$ will flatten the weight profile, reducing the value placed on the poorest person in society and raising the value placed on the wealthier. For instance, bus passes are highly targeted, and consistent with CRRA utility and the negative premium, participants place a relative weight of 4.7 on the 25th percentile individual. However, lawyers have much flatter targeting; that same individual receives a weight of 1.8. This necessarily translates to more weight placed on the 90th percentile: 0.8 for lawyers, versus 0.1 for bus passes. Thus, targeting choices reveal starkly different welfare weight schedules, with less redistributive preferences accorded to goods labeled as rights than other goods. As an additional comparison, we show in Panel A the weights placed for providing "pure cash" with $\eta_g = 0$; this is not statistically distinguishable from the empirical estimate of η_g for providing cash via the non-profit program as we elicit in the Goods Atlas (Panel B).

7.4 Policy Counterfactual

We now return to calibrate the policy counterfactual we studied in Section 1.3. As in Section 1.3, we treat Spectators as if their preferences reflect the social planner's.

Then Equation (5) becomes:

$$\overline{w}_g^* \in \underset{\overline{w}_g > 0}{\operatorname{argmax}} \int_{w_0}^{\overline{w}_g} \left(\widetilde{\omega}_\gamma(w) c_g + \widetilde{\eta}_g - K_g\right) dF(w), \tag{16}$$

where we assume homogeneous Recipient valuations for the good ($c_{jg} = c_g$), F is the income distribution, and K_g is the social cost of provision. The function $\widetilde{\omega}_\gamma(w) c_g$ is the total redistributive

[28] We treat the provision of cash as a separate good g, since features of how the good was said to be provided in the Goods Atlas Targeting Experiment — such as delivery by a nonprofit — could affect preferences for universal provision. We thus estimate a separate premium for the fixed cash transfer in this experiment, which is (reassuringly) not significant.

Table 3: Good-Specific Welfare Weights and Optimal Eligibility Thresholds

Good	N	Premium $\widetilde{\eta}_g$	Normalized welfare weight by individual income percentile					Policy counterfactual: Percent individuals eligible		
			25th ($23k)	50th ($50k)	Average ($73k)	75th ($90k)	90th ($151k)	MCPF 1	MCPF 1.3	MCPF 2
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)	(9)	(10)
Panel A: main goods										
Lawyer	542	638 (151)	1.8	1.2	1.0	0.9	0.8	100 (0.0)	100 (0.5)	98.9 (8.2)
Health care	482	273 (97.0)	2.3	1.3	1.0	0.9	0.7	98.3 (5.7)	87.9 (9.7)	56.6 (10.5)
Bus passes	524	-139 (57.9)	4.7	1.8	1.0	0.7	0.1	52.2 (5.5)	43.2 (4.0)	32.5 (2.2)
YMCA passes	488	-40.2 (69.2)	3.5	1.5	1.0	0.8	0.4	61.9 (8.0)	51.4 (6.6)	35.1 (3.2)
Rights pooled	1,024	441 (81.6)	2.0	1.2	1.0	0.9	0.8	100 (0.4)	100 (2.4)	77.7 (9.9)
Benchmarks pooled	1,012	-93.7 (44.3)	4.1	1.6	1.0	0.7	0.3	55.8 (4.6)	46.4 (3.5)	33.9 (1.7)
p-value: equality		<0.001								
Pure cash†		0	3.2	1.5	1.0	0.8	0.5	66.1	55.1	37.6
Panel B: additional goods										
Community college	253	297 (145)	2.2	1.2	1.0	0.9	0.7	99.1 (7.8)	91.4 (12.3)	60.4 (15.1)
Food boxes	242	273 (123)	2.3	1.3	1.0	0.9	0.7	98.3 (6.5)	87.9 (11.0)	56.6 (13.3)
Child care	288	207 (111)	2.4	1.3	1.0	0.9	0.7	92.9 (9.5)	79.9 (12.5)	51.5 (10.6)
Contraception	234	201 (148)	2.4	1.3	1.0	0.9	0.7	92.4 (11.5)	79.0 (14.6)	51.2 (13.9)
Preschool	259	194 (130)	2.4	1.3	1.0	0.9	0.7	91.6 (10.8)	77.4 (13.7)	50.7 (12.2)
Nonprofit cash	252	189 (107)	2.5	1.3	1.0	0.9	0.7	90.9 (10.1)	76.9 (12.5)	48.4 (9.7)
Rental assistance	275	134 (126)	2.6	1.3	1.0	0.9	0.6	83.6 (12.7)	69.7 (14.0)	45.4 (10.6)
Home internet	241	53.4 (97.9)	2.9	1.4	1.0	0.8	0.6	73.4 (11.5)	60.5 (10.9)	39.5 (6.4)
Job training	242	-48.6 (81.5)	3.6	1.5	1.0	0.8	0.4	60.8 (9.2)	50.9 (7.5)	35.0 (3.7)
p-value: equality		<0.001								

Notes: Estimates come from 600 bootstraps per row, where the data are from the Goods Atlas Targeting Experiment. Standard errors are in parentheses. Pooled rows re-estimate parameters on the pooled respondents (that is, they do not average the good-specific rows). We calibrate $\gamma = 1$. After estimating the welfare weights, we re-normalize so that the individual with average income has a welfare weight of 1. MCPF = Marginal Cost of Public Funds, which we use to form the social cost ($K = \text{MCPF} \cdot \$350$, where 350 represents the mechanical cost of providing the good). All goods are imposed to have welfarist value of \$350, based on the experiment design. Individual income percentiles from the 2025 Current Population Survey March Supplement among people ages 25 to 64. The "nonprofit cash" is the estimated premium for a cash transfer in the experiment. We treat it as its own good with an estimated premium, since features of its delivery could affect redistributive preferences, whereas the pure cash row sets the premium to zero by construction. †: not estimated, just showing pure calibration for comparison as a benchmark. Table A27 shows sensitivity to calibration choices.

value of providing the good to a household with income w, inclusive of both Recipients' willingness to pay and Spectators' utility from redistribution.

We write that $K_g = c_g \cdot \text{MCPF}$ (the Marginal Cost of Public Funds). We show results for MCPFs of 1, 1.3, and 2, where larger MCPFs capture either that households value the spending less than dollar

per dollar or there is some inherent efficiency cost of performing redistribution (e.g., administrative overhead or the "leaky bucket").

Importantly, this experiment deliberately fixed the welfarist value of giving different goods g: $c_g = c = \$350$ for all goods. Therefore, differences in eligibility thresholds across goods come only from different welfare weights. This comparative static isolates whether the differences in non-welfarist premia would have practical policy consequences, fixing other differences across goods including that they may have different instrumental effects.

Figure 10A presents an empirical version of the Figure 1 in Section 1.3, in the case where the MCPF is 1. As in Figure 1, absent good-specific premia, we recover that the optimal eligibility threshold is to provide the good to the average person in society (gray series). We then show the optimal eligibility thresholds for rights goods (blue series) and benchmark goods (orange series). As rights goods have large good-specific premia (η_g exceeding the direct benefit to recipients of \$350), the optimal eligibility threshold is to provide the good universally (up to rounding). As benchmark goods actually have negative good-specific premia, the optimal eligibility threshold is to provide the good only to participants who are poorer than average.

Table 3, Columns 8–10, shows results for each good and the different MCPFs. The optimal eligibility threshold is essentially universal for rights goods under MCPF $= 1.3$, compared with 46% of individuals being eligible for comparison goods. We see optimal eligibility thresholds ranging from 91% to 51% for other goods (Panel B). Thus, different welfare-weight schedules would produce very different policy conclusions in this simple calibration.

Altogether, our findings suggest that the flatter welfare-weight profiles for goods like lawyers and health care could meaningfully push toward more universal optimal provision of these goods. This result could be relevant for the real-world targeting of lawyers (e.g., 200% of the FPL in NYC's Right to Counsel).

Sensitivity. An important choice in this exercise is how we calibrate the preference for redistribution γ. While this choice can affect the level of welfare weights, it plays a smaller role in the difference in welfare weights between rights and benchmark goods. To illustrate, Table A27 presents key results for $\gamma = 0.71$, calibrated instead from Capozza and Srinivasan (2026). We also estimate $\widehat{\gamma} = 0.83$ jointly with the welfare weights, using Spectator choices about allocating cash within the same Goods Atlas Targeting Experiment. In both cases, we find that the qualitative comparison that rights goods have flatter welfare-weight schedules and are targeted more universally than benchmark goods is not sensitive to this choice.

Stepping back, the exercise purposefully abstracts from many real-world considerations. Most importantly, real-world eligibility rules also reflect that different goods confer different *welfarist*

value. While we told participants that $c_g = \$350$ for all goods, and 91% got this question right, we find that our conclusions are similar even if we instead assume that the welfarist value of provision for rights goods is 50% more than benchmarks (Table A27). A sufficient condition to reverse our results is if the welfarist value of rights goods are twice as much as benchmarks; one way of interpreting these results is that participants, even when they confirm that the rights goods have the same instrumental value as benchmarks, act as if rights goods are about twice as instrumentally valuable. Our interpretation is that differences in the welfarist values for rights goods are ruled out by our design and the empirical results are too strong to be easily reversed by them.

Incidence. In Section 5.1, we showed evidence of an inverted-U shaped incidence of non-welfarist preferences. An implication is that aggregating Spectator preferences and finding an important role for non-welfarism could implicitly upweight the moral views of rich Spectators. We document this finding in Figure 10B and Table A27, where we show the pooled rights good welfare weight schedule under our primary specification (as in Table 3), but compare it to a version where we use CRRA weights with $\gamma = 1$ to aggregate the Spectators' preferences themselves. The welfare weight schedule for both rights and benchmark goods is much steeper if we weight the normative judgments of Spectators. While our primary use of equal weights on all Spectators' normative judgments is a reasonable benchmark, we view this final result as an important tension associated with non-welfarism. Appeals to "rights" in the policy sphere may implicitly reflect the moral views of the rich, who may care more about philosophical concerns like rights.

8 Conclusion

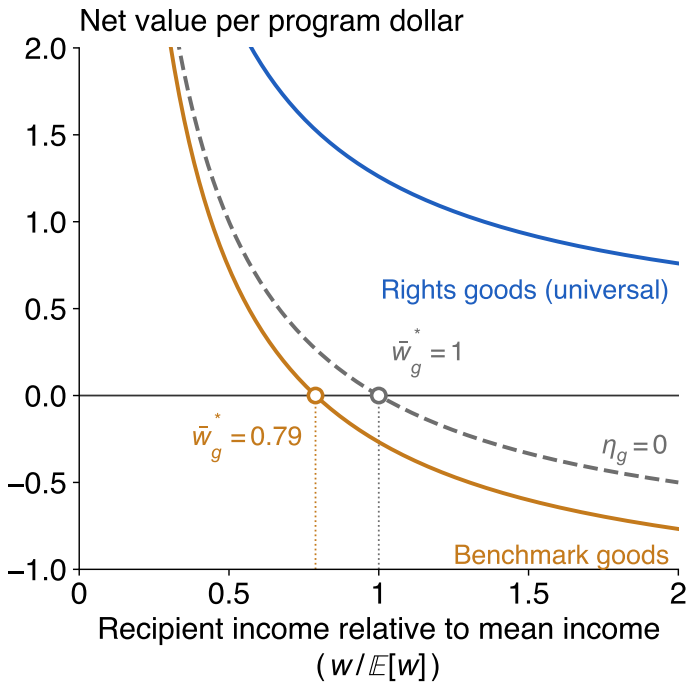
"Rights" are a prominent rationale for the provision of in-kind goods, yet are often absent from standard welfare analysis. We show that Spectators in choosing-for-others experiments have heightened non-welfarist preferences for the allocation of certain in-kind goods that are associated with rights. Going further, the non-welfarist preferences correlate with more universal allocation of these goods in redistribution tasks. We show how to accommodate these preferences within standard welfare analysis, and that they may push toward domain-specific normative judgments, with practical implications for canonical allocation problems.

Zooming out, we see this paper as making several broader contributions. Conceptually, we attempt to bring welfare analysis closer to the moral considerations that appear relevant for real-world policy debates. Methodologically, we devise new experimental designs that are portable to other settings. Relative to the literature, we thus see our research as bridging between experiments that study choices in controlled environments and surveys that study preferences about real policies.

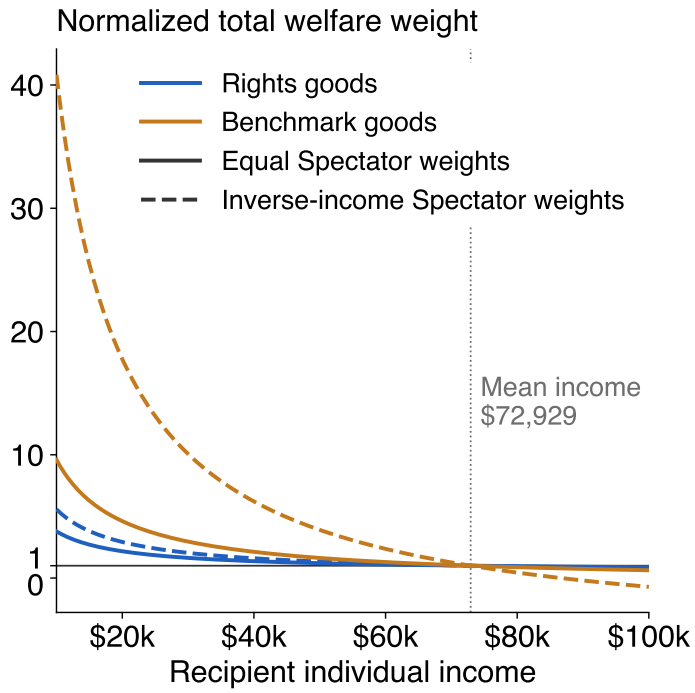
That said, many challenges remain unresolved. We have only begun to explore the set of potential

Figure 10: Policy Counterfactuals

(a) Optimal Eligibility Thresholds
(Empirical Version of Figure 1)



(b) Welfare Weight Schedules
by Spectator-Income Weights



Notes: Both panels use the pooled rights goods (lawyers and health care, $N = 1{,}024$) and the pooled benchmark goods (bus and YMCA passes, $N = 1{,}012$) from the Goods Atlas Targeting Experiment. Panel A shows the optimal eligibility threshold for rights goods versus benchmark goods, under MCPF $= 1$. The vertical axis is the net value provided per program dollar spent, plotted against Recipient income relative to average individual income (among people ages 25 to 64 in the 2025 Current Population Survey). The value where this curve crosses zero is the optimal eligibility threshold. Panel B shows welfare weight schedules by Spectator income weights: the total welfare weight from Equation (13), normalized to 1 at average individual income as in Columns 3–7 of Table 3. Solid series weight all Spectators equally and are as in Table 3. Dashed series re-estimate weights by the inverse of the midpoint of their reported household-income bracket (top-coding the top bracket at $125,000).

non-welfarist preferences, and we hope future research measures which other aspects of the environment or goods shape non-welfarism. Moreover, the existence of domain-specific welfare judgments for different goods raises the possibility that normative judgments may vary with other non-welfarist features of the environment, beyond the good being allocated. An important task for future work will thus be to demarcate when these other contextual factors should enter policy analysis.

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Online Appendix

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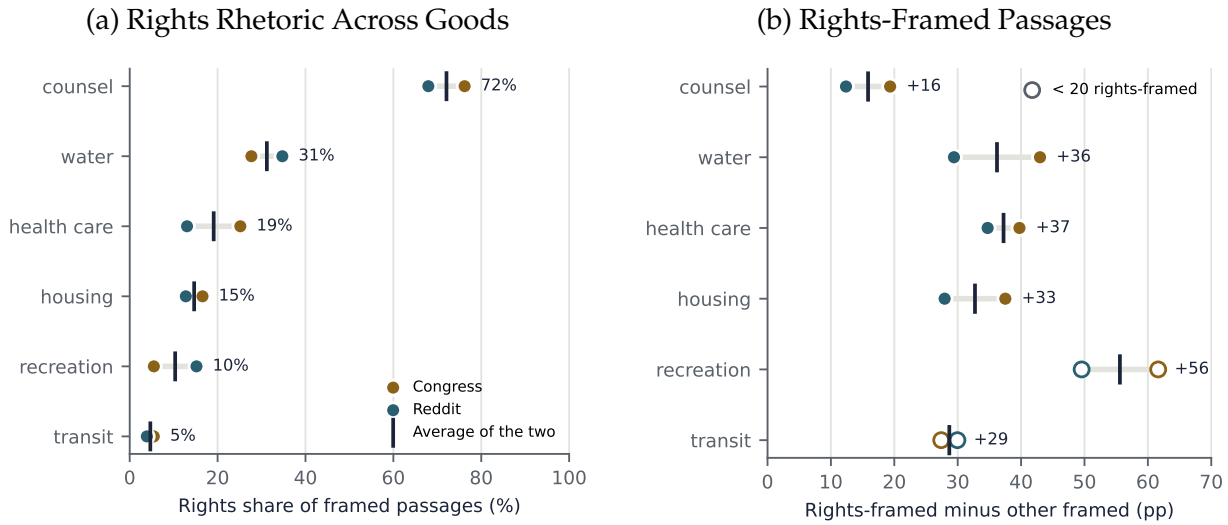
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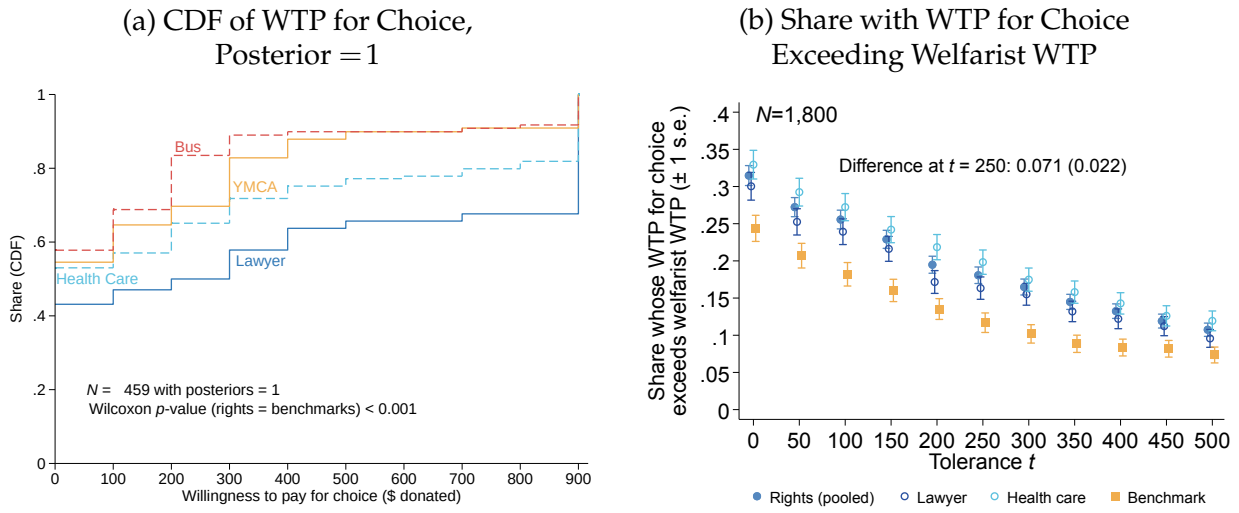
A Additional Figures

Figure A1: Rights Rhetoric



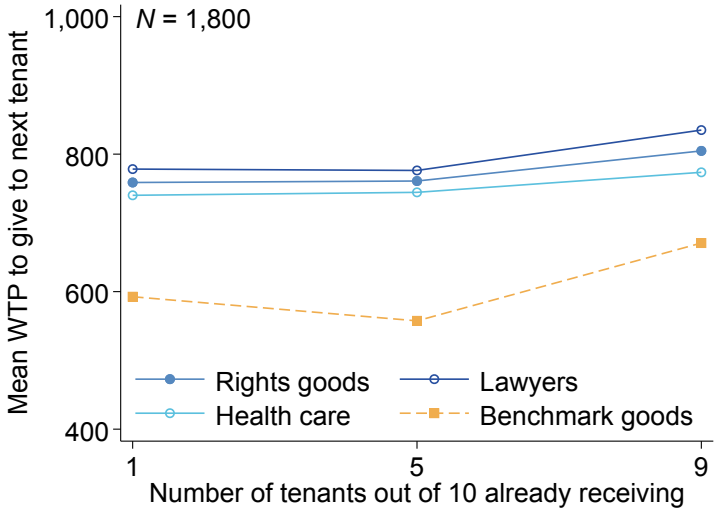
Notes: This figure shows rights rhetoric in the *Congressional Record* (1995–2024) and Reddit's r/politics forum (2007–2022), as described in Section 2. Panel A shows the share of framed passages that appeal to rights, by good. Framed passages are those coded as rights, welfarist, paternalist, or mixed; mixed passages count as one half. Panel B shows, for each good, the share of rights-framed passages that concern expanding coverage minus the same share among welfarist or paternalist passages, in percentage points. Mixed passages are excluded. In both panels, vertical ticks mark the average of the two sources. Hollow markers in Panel B indicate fewer than 20 rights-framed passages. See Appendix S3 for details on the data and coding.

Figure A2: WTP for Choice



Notes: Panel A replicates Panel A of Figure 4, instead restricting to participants with a posterior belief that 100% of tenants would pick cash over the good. Panel B shows the share of participants whose WTP for choice exceeds the secondary measure of non-welfarist value to provide choices in the Choice Experiment (Equation 19) as a function of the tolerance t.

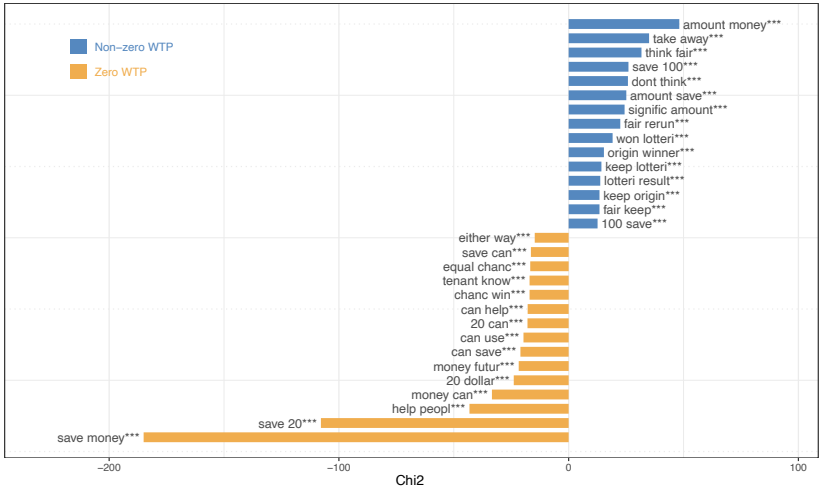
Figure A3: Egalitarianism



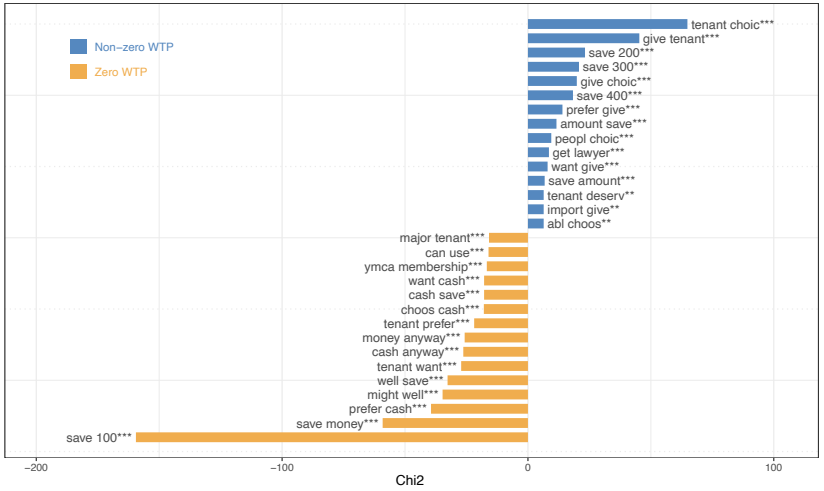
Note: This figure plots mean WTP to give the good to the next tenant in the Egalitarianism Experiment (Section 4.3). Along the x-axis is the number of tenants out of 10 already assigned to receive the good. Rights goods are presented both pooled and disaggregated by lawyers health care.

Figure A4: Keywords from Open-Ended Responses

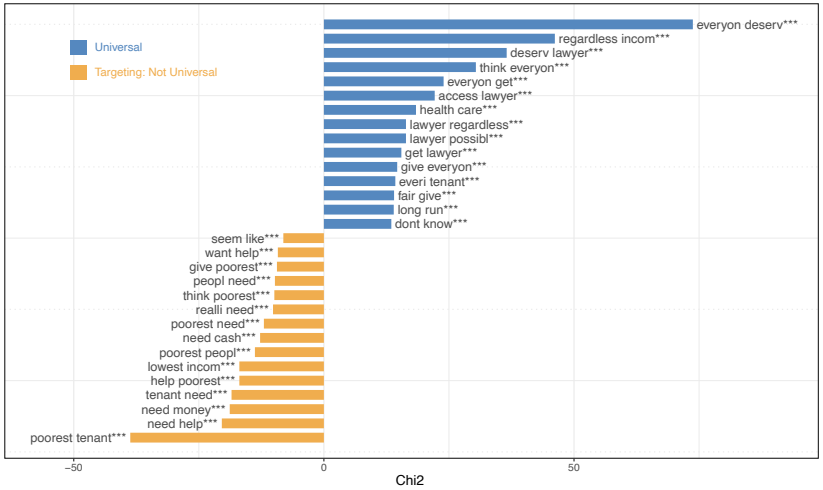
(a) Inalienability Experiment



(b) Choice Experiment

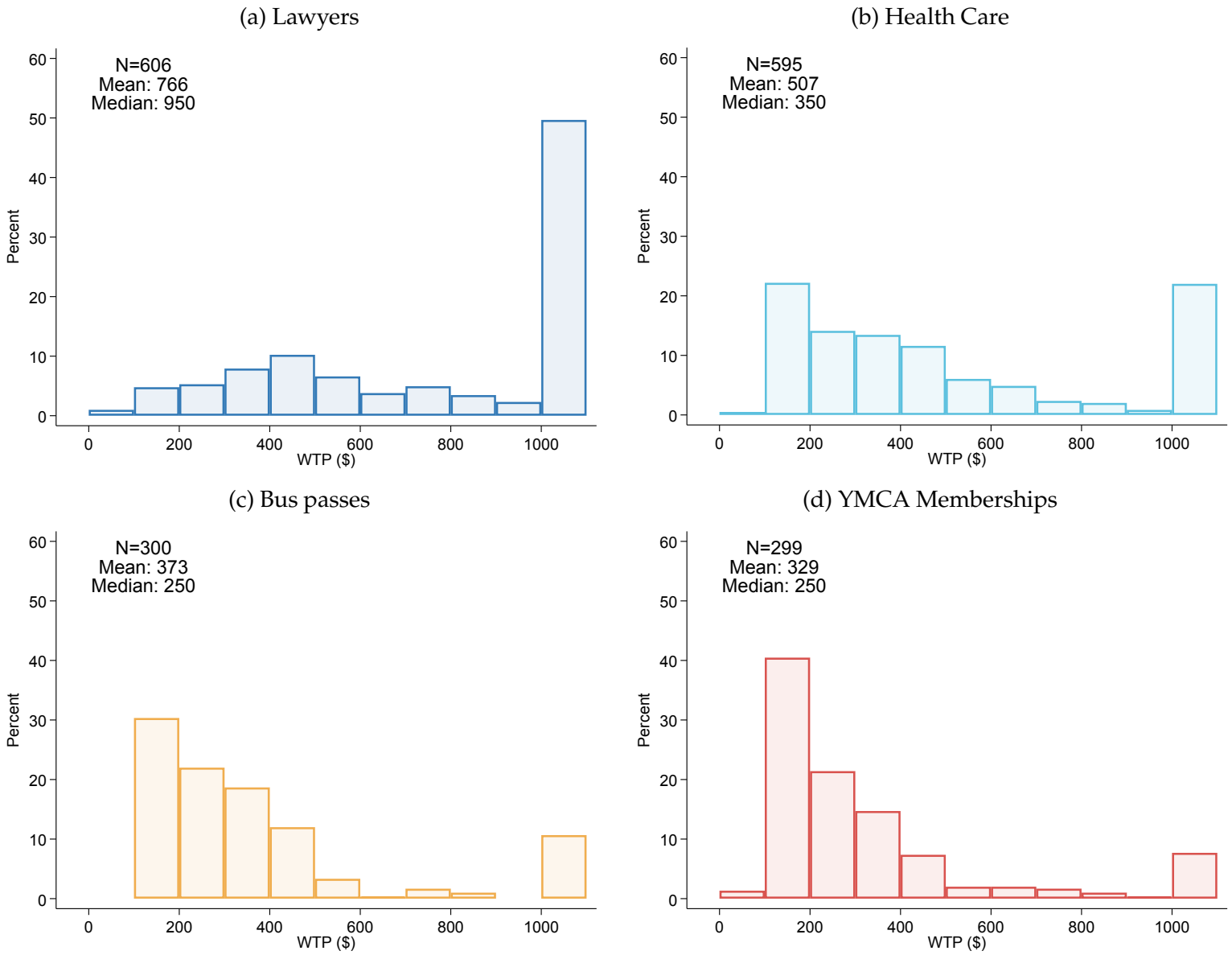


(c) Original Goods Targeting Experiment



Note: This figure shows keywords from open-ended responses where we asked participants to explain the reasons for their choices. Keywords are operationalized as tokenized bi-grams. We test whether keywords appear with the same frequency between the two groups following Ferrario and Stantcheva (2022) and using implementation by Benoit et al. (2018). Each bar shows the χ^2 statistic. Significant at *10%, **5%, ***1%. Panels A and B correspond to the Inalienability and Choice Experiments, showing the top 15 keywords for two groups: those with positive WTP (blue) in the experiment and those with zero WTP (orange). Panel C shows the top keywords for those who allocate universally in the Original Goods Targeting Experiment (blue) and for those who do not (orange).

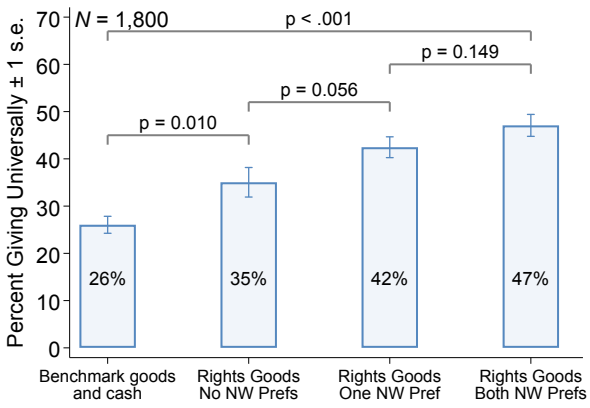
Figure A5: Distribution of Valuations of Good



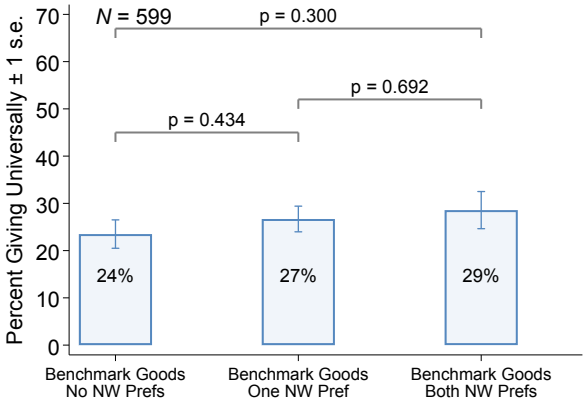
Note: This figure shows the distribution of elicited WTP for each good.

Figure A6: Robustness: Correlation between Non-Welfarism and Anti-Targeting

(a) Including All Posteriors in the Choice Experiment



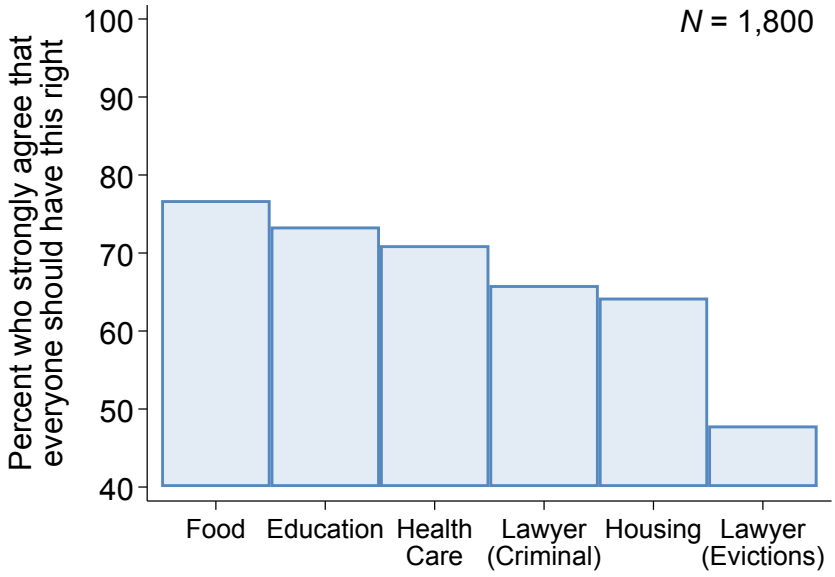
(b) Universalism and Features of Rights for Benchmark Goods



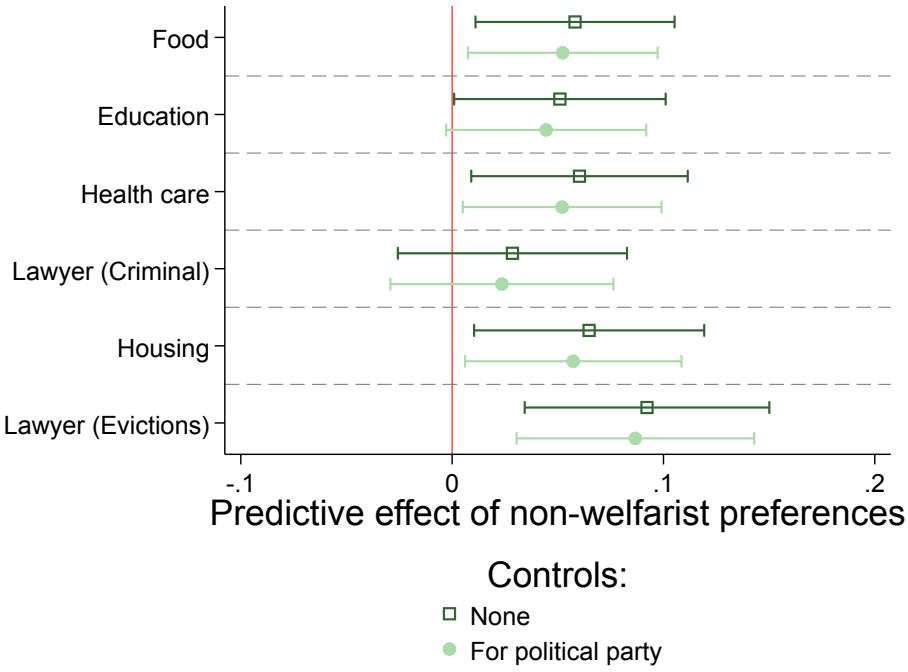
Notes: Panel A replicates Figure 9A, relaxing the restriction on the Choice Experiment's posteriors and including all participants who did experiments with rights goods. Panel B breaks down the leftmost bar of Figure 9. The sample is restricted to participants who saw benchmark goods, including those who saw cash in the targeting experiment. Each bar displays the share of participants with the described non-welfarist preferences who give the benchmark good (YMCA membership or bus pass) universally in the Original Goods Targeting Experiment.

Figure A7: Rights to Other Goods

(a) Strong Agreement with Rights to Other Goods

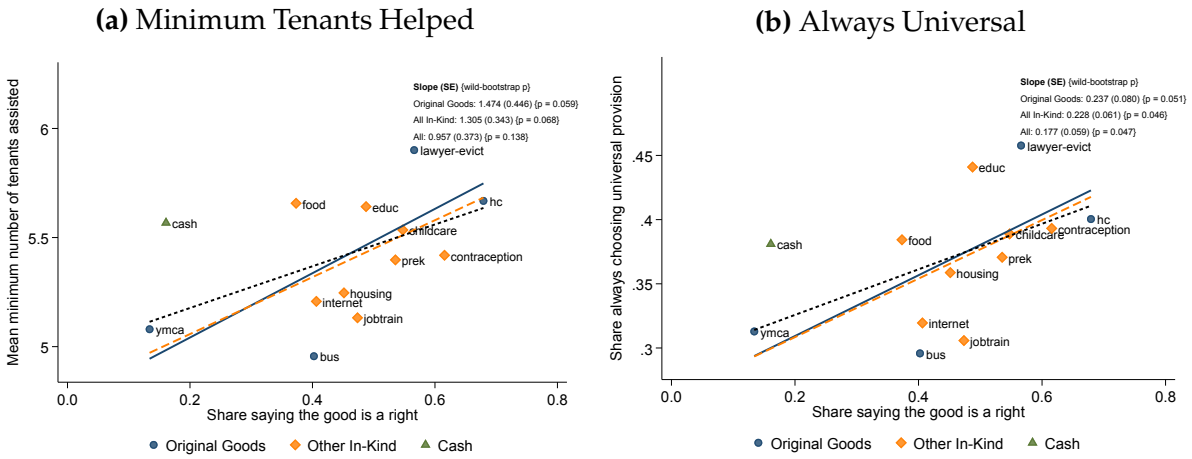


(b) Non-Welfarist Preferences and Rights to Other Goods



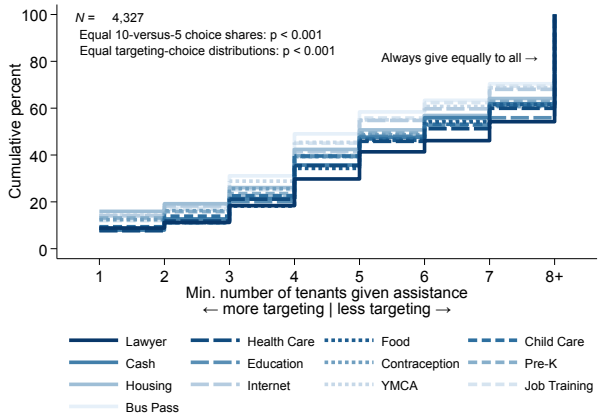
Note: This figures plots results from asking Spectators if they agree there is a right to several types of goods. Panel A plots the percent who "strongly agree" that each good should be a right. Panel B shows the predictive effect of having positive WTP in both the Inalienability and Choice Experiments on strongly agreeing each good should a right. Estimates shown with ± 1.96 standard errors.

Figure A8:
Non-Welfarism and Redistribution: Alternate Measures of Targeting in the Goods Atlas Study



Notes: This figure extends Figure 9B to two additional measures of targeting from the Goods Atlas Study. The solid blue line shows the slope for the four original goods, the dashed orange line using all in-kind goods, and the dashed black line using all goods, including cash. Slopes come from participant-level regressions, which weight each good by the number of participants who made targeting choices and standard errors are clustered by good, with wild-bootstrap p-values in braces.

Figure A9: Anti-Targeting in the Goods Atlas Study by Good



Note: This figure plots the empirical CDF of targeting choices separately for each of the 13 goods in the Goods Atlas Study. At each value on the horizontal axis, the curve reports the cumulative share of participants whose minimum number of tenants given assistance was no greater than that value. Higher curves indicate more targeting, while lower curves indicate less targeting. Participants at 8+ always prefer universal provision. The Pearson test evaluates whether the share choosing all 10 rather than the five poorest is equal across goods. The Kruskal–Wallis test evaluates equality of the full targeting-choice distributions across goods.

B Additional Tables

Table A1: Overview of Experimental Studies

Study	Dates collected	Design	*N*	Demographics and balance
Original Goods	Sept. 11–12, 2023	Four experiments measure non-welfarist preferences and targeting decisions for four goods.	1,800	Tables A3, A4
Stakes	Aug. 20, 2024	Six treatment arms vary lawyer effectiveness, fine amount, and recipient income to examine how stakes affect non-welfarist preferences.	6,000	Table A23
Goods Atlas	Sept. 4, 2026	Two arms examine rights classifications and targeting preferences across 13 goods.	5,104	Table A26

Note: Each row describes a separately fielded study. All participants were recruited on Prolific. The Goods Atlas sample includes 4,327 participants in the targeting arm and 777 in the rights arm.

Table A2: Selected In-Kind Transfer Programs and Targeting Mechanisms in the United States and Other Developed Countries

Domain	Program	Income eligibility rule	Income threshold (≈ 2026 US$ per year)	Other targeting dimensions	Sources
Selected United States examples					
Food assistance	**SNAP** *United States*	130% of the federal poverty level (gross income); many states set higher limits.	$42,900 gross income	Household composition, assets, work requirements, and student status.	SNAP Eligibility
Health coverage	**Medicaid** *United States*	138% of the federal poverty level in expansion states; varies by state and eligibility group elsewhere.	$45,500 modified adjusted gross income	Age, pregnancy, disability, parental status, and state of residence. From January 2027, work or community-engagement requirements for expansion adults.	Medicaid expansion and you
Rental assistance	**Housing Choice Vouchers** *United States*	50% of area median income; 80% with an additional qualifying criterion.	≈ $53,400 gross income at the national median; varies by area	Household composition, student status, and immigration status. At least 75% of new admissions must be extremely low-income; access is rationed through local waiting lists.	Housing Choice Voucher Guidebook 24 CFR 982.201
Legal representation	**Eviction Right to Counsel** *New York City*	200% of the federal poverty level for full representation.	$66,000 household income	Involvement in a covered housing-court proceeding. Tenants above the income threshold may receive brief legal assistance.	NYC Right to Counsel
Selected international examples					
Child care subsidy	**Affordable Child Care Benefit** *British Columbia, Canada*	Income-tested; family deductions can extend eligibility.	C$111,000 adjusted net family income (≈ $80,100)	Residency status; a qualifying reason for child care, such as employment, education, job search, medical need, or specified social circumstances; family size; and children with support needs.	Affordable Child Care Benefit
Nutrition support	**Healthy Start** *United Kingdom (excluding Scotland)*	Monthly earnings cap under the Universal Credit pathway.	£4,896 after-tax earnings (≈ $6,600)	More than 10 weeks pregnant or caring for a child under age 4, and receiving a qualifying benefit. The card can be used only for specified foods.	NHS Healthy Start scheme rules
Long-term care	**Long-Term Care Insurance** *Germany*	No income test.	—	Coverage is generally compulsory alongside health insurance, with privately health-insured people holding an equivalent compulsory private policy. Eligibility then depends on assessed care need and the assigned *Pflegegrad*; benefits may be taken as services in kind, cash, or a combination.	Long-term care insurance
Social housing	**Housing-association rentals** *Netherlands*	Income cap, set by household size.	€56,910 taxable household income (≈ $66,000)	Household composition, rent-to-income matching, local waiting lists, urgency rules, and housing availability.	Income limits 2026 Rented housing
Aged home support	**Commonwealth Home Support Programme** *Australia*	No income or assets test; providers may request contributions from those able to pay.	—	Age and assessed support needs. Lower age thresholds apply to Aboriginal and Torres Strait Islander people and to people who are homeless or at risk of homelessness.	Commonwealth Home Support Programme

Notes: Programs are illustrative rather than exhaustive. The table highlights variation in the dimensions used to target in-kind transfers, including income, demographic characteristics, program participation, employment or activity status, household composition, and assessed need. Eligibility rules are simplified and current as of September 2026. Income thresholds are annual and assume a household of two adults and two children; this determines which household-size limit applies and does not multiply income. Programs whose limit does not vary with household size show their single limit. US thresholds use the 2026 HHS poverty guidelines (for SNAP, the fiscal year 2027 limit effective 1 October 2026) and HUD's FY2026 national median family income. Non-US thresholds are converted at Federal Reserve H.10 rates for 11 September 2026 (C$1.3864 per US$; £1 = US$1.3524; €1 = US$1.1604) and rounded to the nearest $100. Income definitions differ across programs as noted.

Table A3: Main Study: Demographics

	(1) U.S.	(2) Experimental sample	(3) Rights -Benchmarks
White non-Hispanic	0.66	0.71	-0.01
	[0.47]	[0.45]	(0.02)
Income $>$ 60k	0.24	0.48	-0.03
	[0.43]	[0.50]	(0.02)
Less than Bachelor's	0.67	0.45	-0.00
	[0.47]	[0.50]	(0.02)
Female	0.51	0.51	-0.02
	[0.50]	[0.50]	(0.02)
Less than age 40	0.33	0.56	0.00
	[0.47]	[0.50]	(0.02)
Liberal		0.57	0.05
		[0.49]	(0.02)
Legal case without a lawyer		0.16	0.01
		[0.36]	(0.03)
Urgent health issue without HC		0.31	-0.02
		[0.46]	(0.03)
F-statistic			.996
p-value			0.437
Observations	2,624,206	1,800	1,800

Note: This table shows the composition of our experimental sample relative to all U.S. adults (18+, a requirement on Prolific) in the 2021 ACS (Ruggles et al., 2023). Column (3) shows differences in participants assigned to lawyers and health care compared to those assigned to benchmarks from an OLS regression. The F-statistic is from a joint test of significance for the listed demographic variables. Brackets show standard deviations. Parentheses show robust standard errors.

Table A4: Main Study: Balance

	Rights goods			Benchmark goods			p-values		
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)	(9)
	Pooled	Lawyers	Health care	Pooled	YMCA	Bus pass	1=4	2=4	3=4
White non-Hispanic	0.71	0.71	0.70	0.72	0.72	0.72	0.72	0.85	0.71
	[0.46]	[0.45]	[0.46]	[0.45]	[0.45]	[0.45]			
Liberal	0.59	0.57	0.61	0.54	0.53	0.55	0.03	0.23	0.01
	[0.49]	[0.50]	[0.49]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]			
Income $>$ 60k	0.47	0.49	0.45	0.50	0.53	0.48	0.15	0.59	0.05
	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]			
Less than Bachelor's	0.45	0.45	0.45	0.45	0.40	0.49	0.96	0.79	0.76
	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.49]	[0.50]			
Legal case without a lawyer	0.16	0.17	0.14	0.16	0.15	0.16	0.72	0.25	0.55
	[0.36]	[0.38]	[0.35]	[0.36]	[0.36]	[0.37]			
Urgent health issue without HC	0.31	0.30	0.32	0.32	0.30	0.33	0.43	0.20	0.96
	[0.46]	[0.46]	[0.47]	[0.47]	[0.46]	[0.47]			
Female	0.50	0.51	0.50	0.52	0.53	0.51	0.42	0.67	0.31
	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]			
Less than age 40	0.57	0.55	0.58	0.56	0.54	0.57	0.97	0.90	0.82
	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.49]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]			
F-statistic							0.996	0.510	1.586
p-value							0.437	0.849	0.124
Observations	1,201	606	595	599	299	300	1,800	1,205	1,194

Notes: This table expands on Table A3. Columns (1)-(6) show demographic characteristics for different goods, pooled and separately. Columns (7)-(9) show the *p*-values of the differences between pooled benchmarks and each rights goods column. The *F*-statistic is from a joint test of significance for the listed demographic variables. Brackets show standard deviations.

Table A5: Main Study: Attrition

	Number of participants			
	(1) Lawyers	(2) Health care	(3) YMCA	(4) Bus pass
Started	627	623	309	316
Egalitarianism⋆	615	605	306	310
Passed at least 1 of 2 attention checks⋆	614	604	303	309
Inalienability⋆	614	603	306	309
Choice	612	600	302	306
Anti-targeting	610	599	302	306
Passed at least 2 of 3 attention checks	607	596	300	300
Good valuation	607	596	300	300
Demographics & political preferences	606	595	299	300

Notes: This table shows the attrition in our survey. Rows show the number of Spectators participating, for each good, at each stage of our survey flow. Rows marked with ⋆ were presented in a randomized order.

Table A6: Tests of Inalienability Experiment

	(1) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(2) Max WTP (=1)	(3) WTP (s.d.)	(4) WTP (s.d.)	(5) WTP (s.d.)
Rights good (=1)	0.078	0.080	0.289		
	(0.025)	(0.017)	(0.053)		
	[0.002]	[0.000]	[0.000]		
Lawyers (=1)				0.354	
				(0.064)	
				[0.000]	
Health care (=1)					0.222
					(0.061)
					[0.000]
Raw mean (benchmarks)			58.4	58.4	58.4
Raw s.d. (benchmarks)			69.9	69.9	69.9
Mean (benchmarks)	0.456	0.117	0.000	0.000	0.000
Observations	1,800	1,800	1,800	1,205	1,194

Note: This table shows the effects of being assigned to a rights good on three measures of WTP for inalienability (Equations 6 and 7). Columns (1)-(3) pool lawyers and health care, while column (4) shows results for lawyers and column (5) shows results for health care. Parentheses show robust standard errors. In columns (3)-(5), *Mean (benchmarks)* and *WTP* are reported in standard deviations relative to the benchmark goods in the full sample. Parentheses show robust standard errors. Brackets show *p*-values.

Table A7: Inalienability Robustness: Experiment Order

	Inalienability first		Inalienability second	
	(1) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(2) WTP (s.d.)	(3) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(4) WTP (s.d.)
Rights good (=1)	0.074	0.294	0.080	0.278
	(0.034)	(0.065)	(0.035)	(0.081)
	[0.030]	[0.000]	[0.025]	[0.001]
Raw mean (benchmarks)		43.2		74.4
Raw s.d. (benchmarks)		59.5		76.2
Mean (benchmarks)	0.378	-0.217	0.538	0.229
Observations	915	915	885	885

Note: This table replicates Columns 1 and 3 of Table A6, by the random order in which the participant did the Inalienability and Egalitarianism Experiments (Figure 2). Parentheses show robust standard errors. Brackets show p-values.

Table A8: Balance Among High Posterior Participants

	(1) Rights-Benchmark goods
White non-Hispanic	-0.01
	(0.03)
Liberal	0.05
	(0.03)
Income $>$ 60k	-0.03
	(0.03)
Less than Bachelor's	0.02
	(0.03)
Legal case without a lawyer	0.01
	(0.04)
Urgent health issue without HC	-0.03
	(0.03)
Female	-0.01
	(0.03)
Less than age 40	0.02
	(0.03)
F-statistic	0.750
Observations	1,198

Note: This table shows balance for respondents with high posteriors ($\geq$90%) about the percent of tenants expected to pick cash over the good. The F-statistic is from a joint test of significance for the listed demographic variables. Parentheses show robust standard errors.

Table A9: Tests of Choice Experiment

				Posterior ≥ 0.9			Posterior $= 1$		
	(1) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(2) Max WTP (=1)	(3) WTP (s.d.)	(4) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(5) Max WTP (=1)	(6) WTP (s.d.)	(7) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(8) Max WTP (=1)	(9) WTP (s.d.)
Rights good (=1)	0.171	0.123	0.495	0.166	0.139	0.518	0.072	0.153	0.516
	(0.025)	(0.018)	(0.057)	(0.030)	(0.020)	(0.067)	(0.047)	(0.033)	(0.109)
	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.122]	[0.000]	[0.000]
Posterior	-0.442	-0.244	-1.046						
	(0.044)	(0.047)	(0.135)						
	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]						
Raw mean (benchmarks)			223.0			189.3			213.0
Raw s.d. (benchmarks)			277.4			247.5			268.3
Mean (benchmarks)	0.432	0.092	0.000	0.382	0.066	-0.121	0.438	0.087	-0.036
Observations	1,800	1,800	1,800	1,058	1,058	1,058	459	459	459

Note: This table shows the effects of being assigned to a rights good on three measures of WTP for choice (Equation 6). Columns (1)-(3) show results for the whole sample controlling for posterior beliefs about the percent of tenants who will choose cash over the good. Columns (4)-(6) restrict to those with posteriors beliefs greater than or equal to 90% and columns (7)-(9) restrict to those with posteriors of 100%. In columns (3), (6) and (9), *Mean (benchmarks)* and *WTP* are reported in standard deviations relative to the benchmark goods. Parentheses show robust standard errors. Brackets show *p*-values.

Table A10: Willingness to Pay for Choice Robustness: Lawyers and Health Care

				Posterior ≥ 0.9			Posterior $= 1$		
	(1) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(2) Max WTP (=1)	(3) WTP (s.d.)	(4) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(5) Max WTP (=1)	(6) WTP (s.d.)	(7) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(8) Max WTP (=1)	(9) WTP (s.d.)
Panel A. Lawyers									
Lawyers (=1)	0.250	0.168	0.642	0.263	0.180	0.677	0.131	0.237	0.752
	(0.029)	(0.024)	(0.072)	(0.037)	(0.029)	(0.089)	(0.060)	(0.050)	(0.157)
	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.029]	[0.000]	[0.000]
Posterior	-0.351	-0.278	-1.085						
	(0.055)	(0.059)	(0.170)						
	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]						
Panel B. Health Care									
Health Care (=1)	0.099	0.079	0.349	0.086	0.106	0.384	0.032	0.095	0.354
	(0.029)	(0.020)	(0.067)	(0.036)	(0.024)	(0.080)	(0.054)	(0.037)	(0.124)
	[0.001]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.016]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.547]	[0.011]	[0.004]
Posterior	-0.517	-0.166	-0.932						
	(0.065)	(0.059)	(0.179)						
	[0.000]	[0.005]	[0.000]						
Raw mean (benchmarks)			223.0			189.3			213.0
Raw s.d. (benchmarks)			277.4			247.5			268.3
Mean (benchmarks)	0.432	0.092	0.000	0.382	0.066	-0.121	0.438	0.087	-0.036
Observations: lawyers	606	606	606	273	273	273	102	102	102
Observations: health care	595	595	595	327	327	327	149	149	149
Observations: benchmarks	599	599	599	458	458	458	208	208	208

Note: This table replicates Table A9 separately for lawyers (Panel A) and health care (Panel B). Parentheses show robust standard errors. Brackets show p-values.

Table A11: Willingness to Pay for Choice Robustness: High Posteriors

	Posterior = 1				Posterior ≥ 0.9			
	(1) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(2) Max WTP (=1)	(3) WTP (s.d.)	(4) Entitled to Choice (=1)	(5) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(6) Max WTP (=1)	(7) WTP (s.d.)	(8) Entitled to Choice (=1)
Rights good (=1)	0.080	0.152	0.515	0.115	0.151	0.134	0.492	0.161
	(0.048)	(0.034)	(0.111)	(0.045)	(0.031)	(0.020)	(0.067)	(0.029)
	[0.095]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.011]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]
Raw mean (benchmarks)			213.0				189.3	
Raw s.d. (benchmarks)			268.3				247.5	
Mean (benchmarks)	0.438	0.087	-0.036	0.308	0.382	0.066	-0.121	0.264
DDML	✓	✓	✓					
Posterior FE					✓	✓	✓	
Observations	459	459	459	459	1,058	1,058	1,058	1,058

Note: This table shows robustness checks for Willingness to Pay for choice using the sub-sample of respondents who believe 100 out of 100 tenants would choose cash over the good. Columns (1)-(3) replicate columns (7)-(9) of Table A9 with double/de-biased machine learning (Chernozhukov et al., 2018). The model selects from the demographic controls reported in Table A3: race, income, education, gender, age, political beliefs, having experienced a legal case without a lawyer, and having had an urgent health issue without access to health care. The outcome in columns (4) and (8) is a dummy that indicates a respondent selected "All tenants should be entitled to the choice of a [good]" as one reason for their decisions about giving the tenant a choice. Columns (5)-(7) replicate columns (4)-(6) of Table A9, adding fixed effects for posterior beliefs within the sample. Parentheses show robust standard errors. Brackets show *p*-values.

Table A12: Tests of Egalitarianism

	(1) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(2) Max WTP (=1)	(3) WTP (s.d.)	(4) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(5) Max WTP (=1)	(6) WTP (s.d.)
Rights good=1	0.082	0.193	0.562	0.074	0.144	0.483
	(0.020)	(0.033)	(0.066)	(0.019)	(0.034)	(0.068)
	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]
$\mathbb{1}(z=9)$	0.043	0.124	0.291	0.055	0.122	0.307
	(0.023)	(0.038)	(0.079)	(0.023)	(0.038)	(0.079)
	[0.068]	[0.001]	[0.000]	[0.017]	[0.001]	[0.000]
Rights good=1 $\times$ $\mathbb{1}(z=9)$	-0.046	0.011	-0.154	-0.055	0.011	-0.170
	(0.026)	(0.047)	(0.090)	(0.025)	(0.047)	(0.090)
	[0.075]	[0.809]	[0.087]	[0.027]	[0.815]	[0.058]
WTP for good FE				✓	✓	✓
Raw mean (benchmarks, $\mathbb{1}(z<9)$)			575.3			575.3
Raw s.d. (benchmarks, $\mathbb{1}(z<9)$)			328.4			328.4
Mean (benchmarks, $\mathbb{1}(z<9)$)	0.888	0.258	0.000	0.888	0.258	0.000
Observations	1,800	1,800	1,800	1,800	1,800	1,800

Note: This table reports estimates from the differences-in-differences specification from Equation 8. $\mathbb{1}(z<9)$ indicates the Spectator saw 9 out of 10 tenants had already received the good, rather than 1 or 5 tenants. Outcomes are the extensive margin (*Non-zero WTP*), an indicator for having the maximum WTP that we elicit (*Max WTP*), and the intensive margin (*WTP*). WTP is reported in terms of standard deviations relative to benchmark goods. Columns (4)-(6) add fixed effects for WTP for the good directly. WTP fixed effects are indicators for $100 bins. Parentheses show robust standard errors. Brackets show *p*-values.

Table A13: Robustness: Multiple Hypothesis Testing Corrections

	Inalienability		Choice		Egalitarianism	
	(1) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(2) WTP (s.d.)	(3) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(4) WTP (s.d.)	(5) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(6) WTP (s.d.)
Rights good	0.078	0.289	0.166	0.518	0.082	0.562
	(0.025)	(0.053)	(0.030)	(0.067)	(0.020)	(0.066)
	[0.002]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]
Rights good & $\mathbb{1}(z=9)$					-0.046	-0.154
					(0.026)	(0.090)
					[0.075]	[0.087]
Romano-Wolf p-value	0.008	< 0.001	< 0.001	< 0.001	0.082	0.096
Posterior ≥ 0.9			✓	✓		
Observations	1,800	1,800	1,058	1,058	1,800	1,800

Notes: This table shows robustness to multiple hypothesis testing corrections for the Inalienability, Choice, and Egalitarianism Experiments using Romano-Wolf p-values (Clarke et al., 2020) with 1,000 iterations. We perform the correction separately for extensive and intensive margin outcomes: columns (1), (3), and (5) are tested together and columns (2), (4), and (6) are tested together. Parentheses show robust standard errors. Brackets show p-values.

Table A14: Tests of Original Goods Targeting Experiment

	(1) Universal (=1)	(2) No. Tenants	(3) Universal (=1)	(4) No. Tenants	(5) Universal (=1)	(6) No. Tenants
Rights good (=1)	0.168	1.419				
	(0.023)	(0.176)				
	[0.000]	[0.000]				
Lawyers (=1)			0.263	2.140		
			(0.027)	(0.201)		
			[0.000]	[0.000]		
Health care (=1)					0.071	0.685
					(0.026)	(0.204)
					[0.007]	[0.001]
Mean (benchmarks)	0.260	4.855	0.260	4.855	0.260	4.855
Observations	1,800	1,800	1,205	1,205	1,194	1,194

Notes: This table shows the effects of being assigned to a rights good on choices in the Original Goods Targeting Experiment (Equations 6 and 7). The outcome columns (1), (3) and (5) is an indicator for whether the participant provided the good universally. The outcome columns (2), (4) and (6) is the minimum number of tenants the participant distributed to, which ranges between 1 (preferring to giving the poorest tenant the good and cash) and 10 (always preferring universal provision). Columns (1)-(2) pool lawyers and health care, while columns (3)-(4) shows results for lawyers and column (5)-(6) shows results for health care. Parentheses show robust standard errors. Brackets show p-values.

Table A15: Anti-Targeting Robustness: Controlling for Valuation of Good

	Universal: 10 vs. 5 (=1)		No. Tenants		Always Universal (=1)	
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)
Panel A. Original Goods Targeting Experiment						
Rights good (=1)	0.210	0.086	1.683	0.708	0.185	0.054
	(0.030)	(0.030)	(0.226)	(0.223)	(0.029)	(0.028)
	[0.000]	[0.005]	[0.000]	[0.002]	[0.000]	[0.056]
Panel B. Goods Atlas Targeting Experiment						
Rights good (=1)	0.133	0.090	0.776	0.543	0.127	0.067
	(0.022)	(0.041)	(0.109)	(0.199)	(0.021)	(0.040)
	[0.000]	[0.028]	[0.000]	[0.006]	[0.000]	[0.095]
WTP for good control		✓		✓		✓
Observations: Original Goods Study	1,502	1,502	1,502	1,502	1,502	1,502
Observations: Goods Atlas Study	2,039	2,039	2,039	2,039	2,039	2,039

Note: This table extends Table A14. Panel A uses the Original Goods Targeting Experiment; Panel B uses the Goods Atlas Targeting Experiment, restricted to the four original goods. Rights goods are lawyers and health care; benchmark goods are bus passes and YMCA memberships. "Universal: 10 vs. 5" indicates choosing provision to all ten recipients rather than the five poorest, "No. Tenants" is the minimum number assisted, and "Always Universal" indicates choosing universal provision in every decision. Within each pair of columns, the second specification includes a WTP control. In Panel A, this is the Spectator's own WTP, elicited by asking whether they preferred to give one tenant the assigned good or a cash payment (see Appendix C.8 for details). Panel B instead controls for the corresponding good's mean WTP from this elicitation in the Original Goods Study, as the Goods Atlas Study did not elicit WTP. Parentheses show robust standard errors. Brackets show p-values.

Table A16: Correlations Between
the Inalienability and Choice Experiments and the Original Goods Targeting Experiment, by Good

	Dep. Var.: Universal (=1)			
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
Panel A. Lawyers				
WTP for inalienability (s.d.)	0.031			-0.005
	(0.017)			(0.026)
	[0.067]			[0.852]
WTP for choice (s.d.)		0.109		0.110
		(0.021)		(0.024)
		[0.000]		[0.000]
Mean WTP (s.d.)			0.113	
			(0.027)	
			[0.000]	
Panel B. Health care				
WTP for inalienability (s.d.)	0.021			0.030
	(0.018)			(0.024)
	[0.238]			[0.215]
WTP for choice (s.d.)		0.060		0.056
		(0.022)		(0.022)
		[0.006]		[0.012]
Mean WTP (s.d.)			0.087	
			(0.029)	
			[0.003]	
Posterior ≥ 0.9		✓	✓	✓

Notes: This table reports regressions of an indicator for universal provision in the Original Goods Targeting Experiment on WTP for inalienability and WTP for choice, separately for participants assigned to lawyers (Panel A) and health care (Panel B). WTP measures are standardized relative to the benchmark-good distribution. *Mean WTP* is the average of the two standardized WTP measures. Columns (2)–(4), which use measures from the Choice Experiment, restrict the sample to participants with posterior beliefs of at least 0.9. Robust standard errors appear in parentheses; *p*-values appear in brackets.

Table A17: Correlations with Anti-Targeting Robustness: Controlling for Valuation of Good

	Dep. Var.: Universal (=1)			
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
Panel A. Rights goods (pooled)				
WTP for inalienability (s.d.)	0.022			0.019
	(0.012)			(0.017)
	[0.058]			[0.263]
WTP for choice (s.d.)		0.052		0.048
		(0.016)		(0.016)
		[0.001]		[0.004]
Mean WTP (s.d.)			0.068	
			(0.020)	
			[0.001]	
Panel B. Lawyers				
WTP for inalienability (s.d.)	0.022			0.000
	(0.016)			(0.026)
	[0.184]			[0.992]
WTP for choice (s.d.)		0.085		0.085
		(0.024)		(0.027)
		[0.001]		[0.001]
Mean WTP (s.d.)			0.086	
			(0.029)	
			[0.003]	
Panel C. Health care				
WTP for inalienability (s.d.)	0.017			0.032
	(0.017)			(0.023)
	[0.314]			[0.163]
WTP for choice (s.d.)		0.036		0.031
		(0.021)		(0.021)
		[0.093]		[0.148]
Mean WTP (s.d.)			0.062	
			(0.028)	
			[0.026]	
Posterior ≥ 0.9		✓	✓	✓
WTP for good FE	✓	✓	✓	✓
Mean	0.428	0.437	0.437	0.437
Observations	1,201	600	600	600

Note: This table replicates Table 2 with added fixed effects for valuation of the good. WTP fixed effects are indicators for \$100 bins. Parentheses show robust standard errors. Brackets show p-values.

Table A18: Incidence by Income

	Inalienability			Choice			Both	
	(1) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(2) Max WTP (=1)	(3) WTP (s.d.)	(4) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(5) Max WTP (=1)	(6) WTP (s.d.)	(7) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(8) Joint test: (1)&(4)
Relative to $40-60k								
$0-20k	-0.044	-0.040	-0.119	-0.187	-0.087	-0.477	-0.151	
	(0.051)	(0.040)	(0.118)	(0.070)	(0.057)	(0.180)	(0.064)	
	[0.380]	[0.321]	[0.312]	[0.008]	[0.127]	[0.008]	[0.018]	[0.022]
$20-40k	-0.048	-0.009	-0.136	0.021	-0.033	-0.099	-0.036	
	(0.045)	(0.037)	(0.105)	(0.066)	(0.057)	(0.176)	(0.065)	
	[0.286]	[0.809]	[0.196]	[0.750]	[0.562]	[0.574]	[0.580]	[0.511]
$60-100k	-0.088	-0.029	-0.186	-0.023	-0.079	-0.272	-0.090	
	(0.042)	(0.034)	(0.098)	(0.060)	(0.051)	(0.157)	(0.058)	
	[0.037]	[0.388]	[0.058]	[0.703]	[0.118]	[0.083]	[0.121]	[0.110]
$100k+	-0.142	-0.014	-0.185	-0.102	-0.067	-0.340	-0.113	
	(0.043)	(0.035)	(0.101)	(0.060)	(0.050)	(0.156)	(0.056)	
	[0.001]	[0.684]	[0.069]	[0.089]	[0.183]	[0.030]	[0.045]	[0.002]
Mean ($40-60k)	0.602	0.214	0.416	0.677	0.259	0.710	0.440	0.440
N	1,201	1,201	1,201	600	600	600	600	600

Notes: This table offers formal tests for Figure 5A, showing the incidence of differment measures of non-welfarism by income group. All columns only include those who did experiments with rights goods. Columns (4)-(7) futher restrict to those with posteriors ≥ 0.9 in the Choice Experiment. Column (8) shows the p-values jointly testing column (1) and column (4). Parentheses show robust standard errors. Brackets show *p*-values.

Table A19: Robustness: Incentives and Valuation of Good

	Dep. Var.: WTP for good	
	(1) Lawyers	(2) Benchmarks
Unincentivized	-11.448	-7.180
	(26.478)	(28.301)
	[0.666]	[0.800]
Intercept	771.382	341.391
	(18.891)	(20.087)
	[0.000]	[0.000]
Observations	606	303

Note: This table shows the results of differential incentivization on Spectators' WTP for the good. Column (1) presents the effect of incentivization for lawyers and column (2) presents the same for benchmark goods. Among those who saw incentivized goods (lawyers, YMCA memberships, bus passes), half randomly had their WTP for the good incentivized while the other half did not. Parentheses show robust standard errors. Brackets show *p*-values.

Table A20: Robustness: Benchmark Incentives and Features of Rights

	Inalienability				Choice				Anti-targeting			
	(1) WTP (s.d.)	(2) WTP (s.d.)	(3) WTP (s.d.)	(4) WTP (s.d.)	(5) WTP (s.d.)	(6) WTP (s.d.)	(7) WTP (s.d.)	(8) WTP (s.d.)	(9) No. Tenants	(10) No. Tenants	(11) No. Tenants	(12) No. Tenants
Unincentivized (=1)	-0.002				-0.052				-0.422			
	(0.096)				(0.095)				(0.326)			
	[0.980]				[0.586]				[0.195]			
Rights good (=1)		0.289	0.288	0.290		0.518	0.506	0.557		1.419	1.312	1.734
		(0.053)	(0.058)	(0.090)		(0.067)	(0.071)	(0.096)		(0.176)	(0.195)	(0.299)
		[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.001]		[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]		[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]
Benchmarks Only	✓				✓				✓			
Incentivized Benchmarks	✓	✓	✓		✓	✓	✓		✓	✓	✓	
Unincentivized Benchmarks	✓	✓		✓	✓	✓		✓	✓	✓		✓
Observations	599	1,800	1,648	1,353	458	1,058	952	706	599	1,800	1,648	1,353

Note: This table shows the results of incentivization of benchmark goods on Spectators' decisions in the Inalienability, Choice, and Original Goods Targeting Experiments. Column (2) replicates column (3) of Table A6, column (6) replicates column (6) of Table A9, and column (10) replicates column (2) of Table A14, including all benchmark good observations. Columns (3), (7), and (11) restrict benchmark observations to only those who were incentivized, while column (4), (8), and (12) restrict benchmark observations to only those who were unincentivized. Columns (5)-(8) restrict to those with posteriors ≥ 0.9. Among those who saw incentivized goods (lawyers, YMCA memberships, bus passes), half randomly had their WTP for the good incentivized while the other half did not. Parentheses show robust standard errors. Brackets show p-values.

Table A21: Robustness: Re-weighting Participants to U.S. Population

	Inalienability		Choice		Anti-targeting	
	(1) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(2) WTP (s.d.)	(3) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(4) WTP (s.d.)	(5) Universal (=1)	(6) No. Tenants
Rights good (=1)	0.066	0.235	0.133	0.428	0.151	1.342
	(0.035)	(0.072)	(0.043)	(0.090)	(0.033)	(0.247)
	[0.056]	[0.001]	[0.002]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]
Posterior ≥ 0.9			✓	✓		
Observations	1,800	1,800	1,058	1,058	1,800	1,800

Note: This table shows our main results, re-weighting to match all U.S. adults (18+, a requirement on Prolific) in the 2021 ACS (Ruggles et al., 2023). We use the 5 binary characteristics present in both our survey and ACS from Column (1) of Table A3: indicators for being White non-Hispanic, income greater than $60,000, having less than a bachelor's degree, being female, and being less than age 40. We reweight by forming 25 cells of these characteristics. Parentheses show robust standard errors. Brackets show *p*-values.

Table A22: Robustness: Attention Checks

	Inalienability		Choice		Anti-targeting	
	(1) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(2) WTP (s.d.)	(3) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(4) WTP (s.d.)	(5) Universal (=1)	(6) No. Tenants
Failed 1 Attn. Check (=1)	0.054	0.162	0.025	-0.051	0.033	-0.062
	(0.045)	(0.107)	(0.063)	(0.141)	(0.045)	(0.347)
	[0.233]	[0.131]	[0.687]	[0.715]	[0.458]	[0.859]
Posterior ≥ 0.9			✓	✓		
Observations	1,800	1,800	1,058	1,058	1,800	1,800

Note: This table shows the effect of failing one attention check on outcomes in the Inalienability, Choice, and Original Goods Targeting Experiments. We included three attention checks in the survey: participants were dropped if they failed two, but remained in the survey if they only failed one. 7.1% (7.4%) of participants in the final sample who saw rights goods (benchmarks) failed one attention check. Parentheses show robust standard errors. Brackets show *p*-values.

Table A23: Stakes Experiment: Balance and Attrition

	Effectiveness			Stakes			Identity			p-values		
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)	(9)	(10)	(11)	(12)
	Pooled	High Stakes	Low Stakes	Pooled	High Stakes	Low Stakes	Pooled	High Stakes	Low Stakes	2=3	5=6	8=9
White non-Hispanic	0.63	0.62	0.63	0.62	0.62	0.62	0.62	0.62	0.61	0.90	0.95	0.53
	[0.48]	[0.48]	[0.48]	[0.49]	[0.49]	[0.49]	[0.49]	[0.49]	[0.49]			
Liberal	0.51	0.53	0.49	0.52	0.52	0.51	0.52	0.51	0.52	0.08	0.57	0.79
	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]			
Income $>$ 60k	0.56	0.57	0.56	0.55	0.54	0.57	0.55	0.56	0.55	0.83	0.13	0.82
	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]			
Less than Bachelor's	0.43	0.42	0.43	0.44	0.44	0.44	0.44	0.43	0.45	0.68	0.66	0.50
	[0.49]	[0.49]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]			
Female	0.57	0.57	0.58	0.56	0.56	0.57	0.57	0.56	0.58	0.52	0.76	0.55
	[0.49]	[0.50]	[0.49]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.49]			
Less than age 40	0.57	0.57	0.57	0.57	0.58	0.55	0.56	0.56	0.55	0.91	0.27	0.67
	[0.49]	[0.49]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.49]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]			
Attrition Rate (%)	0.03	0.04	0.03	0.03	0.04	0.02	0.03	0.03	0.03	0.947	0.103	0.355
F-statistic										0.643	0.739	0.279
p-value										0.696	0.618	0.947
Observations	1,984	984	1,000	2,004	1,012	992	2,012	1,000	1,012	1,984	2,004	2,012

Note: Columns (1)-(9) show demographic characteristics for by arms in the Stakes Experiment, pooled and separately. Columns (10)-(12) show the *p*-values of the differences between high and low stakes for each comparison. The *F*-statistic is from a joint test of significance for the listed demographic variables. Brackets show standard deviations.

Table A24: Tests of Mechanisms

	Within Comparison						Between Comparison		
	(1) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(2) Max WTP (=1)	(3) WTP ($)	(4) WTP ($)	(5) WTP ($)	(6) WTP ($)	(7) WTP ($)	(8) WTP ($)	(9) WTP ($)
High Stakes (=1)	0.187	0.091	29.180				34.791	41.511	41.511
	(0.013)	(0.009)	(1.964)				(3.370)	(3.021)	(3.021)
	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]				[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]
High Stakes × Effectiveness				34.791					-6.720
				(3.370)					(4.526)
				[0.000]					[0.138]
High Stakes × Magnitude					41.511				
					(3.021)				
					[0.000]				
High Stakes × Identity						11.686	-23.105	-29.825	
						(3.655)	(4.972)	(4.742)	
						[0.001]	[0.000]	[0.000]	
Identity (vs. Effectiveness)							27.534		
							(3.297)		
							[0.000]		
Identity (vs. Magnitude)								38.645	
								(3.039)	
								[0.000]	
Effectiveness (vs. Magnitude)									11.112
									(2.718)
									[0.000]
Mean (low stakes)	0.353	0.115	50.266	44.660	33.548	72.194	58.509	53.064	39.127
Observations	6,000	6,000	6,000	1,984	2,004	2,012	3,996	4,016	3,988

Note: This table offers formal tests for the results of the Stakes Experiment shown in Figure 6 (Section 5.2). Columns (1)-(3) pool all three comparisons into high and low stakes and show the effect of seeing the high stakes arm on 3 measures of WTP. Columns (4)-(6) display results for each comparison, and show the effect of seeing the high stakes arm on WTP. Columns (7)-(9) show pairwise (between comparison) difference-in-difference results. Parentheses show robust standard errors. Brackets show *p*-values.

Table A25: Attention in Stakes Experiment

	(1) Time on Q1 (seconds)	(2) Time on Q1 (seconds)	(3) Time on Q1 (seconds)	(4) Time on Q1 (seconds)
High Stakes (=1)	-0.315			
	(0.720)			
	[0.662]			
High Stakes × Effectiveness		-0.353		
		(1.343)		
		[0.793]		
High Stakes × Magnitude			-0.205	
			(1.093)	
			[0.851]	
High Stakes × Identity				-0.349
				(1.297)
				[0.788]
Mean (low stakes)	22.874	23.929	21.789	22.895
Observations	6,000	1,984	2,004	2,012

Note: This table replicates columns (3)-(6) of Table A24 with a new dependent variable: the number of seconds spent on the first choice in the WTP elicitation (to re-run the lottery and save $20, or to preserve the lottery results). Parentheses show robust standard errors. Brackets show *p*-values.

Table A26: Goods Atlas Experiment: Balance and Attrition

	(1) Full sample	(2) Targeting arm	(3) Rights arm	(4) Targeting -Rights	(5) Across-good balance: p-values	(6)
					Targeting	Rights
White non-Hispanic	0.67	0.67	0.69	-0.02	0.545	0.433
	[0.47]	[0.47]	[0.46]	(0.02)		
Liberal	0.51	0.51	0.54	-0.03	0.191	0.317
	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	(0.02)		
Income $>$ 60k	0.54	0.54	0.58	-0.04	0.719	0.271
	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.49]	(0.02)		
Less than Bachelor's	0.43	0.43	0.43	-0.00	0.340	0.105
	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	(0.02)		
Female	0.59	0.59	0.59	0.01	0.223	0.811
	[0.49]	[0.49]	[0.49]	(0.02)		
Less than age 40	0.55	0.55	0.52	0.03	0.695	0.618
	[0.50]	[0.50]	[0.50]	(0.02)		
Attrition Rate (%)	3.08	3.35	1.52	1.83	0.028	0.282
F-statistic				1.742		
p-value				0.107		
Observations	5,106	4,328	778		4,327	777

Note: Columns (1)–(3) show demographic characteristics in the Goods Atlas experiment, pooled and separately by arm. Column (4) shows differences between the targeting and rights arms. Columns (5)–(6) show the p-values for equality of means across the 13 assigned goods within each arm, using the qualitative focal good in the rights arm. The F-statistic is from a joint test of significance for the listed demographic variables in predicting arm assignment. Brackets show standard deviations. Parentheses show robust standard errors. Demographic statistics use available responses; the joint test uses complete cases. Attrition is the percentage of consenting participants assigned to an arm who do not complete the survey.

Table A27: Table 3 Robustness

	Welfare weight at 25th percentile ($23k)		Welfare weight at 50th percentile ($50k)		Percent eligible, MCPF 1.3	
	Rights	Benchmarks	Rights	Benchmarks	Rights	Benchmarks
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)
1. Baseline estimate	**1.99**	**4.06**	**1.20**	**1.63**	**100 (2.4)**	**46.4 (3.5)**
2. $\gamma = 0.71$ (Capozza and Srinivasan, 2026)	2.23	6.81	1.29	2.37	53.3 (6.5)	28.3 (1.0)
3. $\hat{\gamma} = 0.83$ (0.08), estimated from cash choices	2.15	5.59	1.26	2.02	73.6 (15.1)	34.1 (5.1)
4. Rights $c = \$525$ (1.5× benchmarks)	2.86	4.06	1.38	1.63	81.6 (7.9)	46.4 (3.5)
5. Rights $c = \$700$ (2× benchmarks)	4.25	4.06	1.66	1.63	68.2 (7.0)	46.4 (3.5)
6. Inverse-income weights on Spectators	2.63	15.19	1.33	3.90	69.5 (12.1)	35.0 (3.3)

Note: Estimates from 600 bootstraps per row. Row 1 shows the baseline estimate from table 3; see notes to Table 3 for details. Subsequent rows are the same, except vary one aspect of the estimation exercise. Row 2 assumes that baseline redistributive preferences are $\gamma = 0.71$, which comes from Capozza and Srinivasan (2026). Row 3 estimates baseline redistributive preferences from choices over how the nonprofit allocates cash. Standard errors jointly bootstrap the cash choice and other choices, so propagate uncertainty in the estimate of $\hat{\gamma}$. Rows 4–5 assume that rights goods have a welfarist value of 150% or 200% the benchmarks ($c_{\text{rights}} = 525$ or 700, versus $c_{\text{benchmarks}} = 350$), while the social cost is held constant across goods ($K = 1.3 \cdot \$350$). Row 6 uses inverse-income weights to aggregate Spectators' redistributive preferences. For this row, unlike the main rows, we need to form social weights based on household incomes because we only have household income in the experiment.

Table A28: Rights, Perceived Value, and Targeting

	Universal provision (10 vs. 5)			Minimum number of Recipients assisted			Always chose universal provision		
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)	(6)	(7)	(8)	(9)
Share saying good is a right (s.d.)	0.054**		0.056	0.063**		0.066	0.060**		0.081
	(0.021)		(0.049)	(0.025)		(0.060)	(0.020)		(0.049)
Perceived value of good (s.d.)		0.042***	-0.002		0.049***	-0.004		0.038**	-0.027
		(0.009)	(0.041)		(0.014)	(0.050)		(0.013)	(0.041)
Observations	4,327	4,327	4,327	4,327	4,327	4,327	4,327	4,327	4,327
Goods	13	13	13	13	13	13	13	13	13

Note: This table looks at the relationship between three measures of targeting choices to the share of respondents classifying each good as a right and the mean perceived value of each good. Perceived value is measured using the question, "How valuable do you think [the good] would be to needy recipients?" with responses on a 1–7 scale. For each outcome, the first two columns present univariate specifications and the third includes both predictors. All outcomes and predictors are standardized. Higher values of each outcome indicate less targeting. Rights classifications and perceived-value ratings are measured in the separate Goods Atlas rights-classification arm and assigned at the good level. Regressions are estimated at the targeting-participant level, with standard errors clustered by good.

C Experiment Details

C.1 Survey Recruitment

We recruited participants on Prolific. We advertised for an 18-minute survey entitled "Research Study," with $6 compensation. We restricted potential participants to fluent English speakers in the U.S. The median survey completion time was 19 minutes and 12 seconds.

C.2 Ethics

Spectators provide consent and face no risk of harm. All goods or cash allocated only have the potential to help Recipients. All Recipients are needy, and there is not enough funding to assist everyone. Therefore, providing goods based on Spectator choices is a reasonable way of targeting. Indeed, the allocation choices in this study are similar to those in real-world political decisions about means testing, as well as other studies on how experiment participants allocate scarce resources (Alatas et al., 2012; Sullivan, 2023).

C.3 WTP Elicitation Details

Our main WTP elicitation measures in the Inalienability, Choice, Egalitarianism, and Original Goods Targeting Experiments are multiple price lists. We show one question at a time and impose monotonicity. The Inalienability Experiment starts at $20 and moves in $20 increments. The Choice Experiment starts at $100 and moves in $100 increments. The Egalitarianism Experiment starts at $500 and moves in $100 increments. See Figures 12, 15, and 22 in the Experiment Instructions online for examples.

C.4 Incentives

Rights Good Incentivization and Framing. We incentivize choices for rights goods in two ways. First, for Spectators who are assigned to do the experiments with lawyers, we use the strategy method. Second, we inform Spectators who do the experiments with both lawyers and health care that the nonprofit will be informed about participants' choices, which may impact their policies. Specifically, we inform Spectators doing experiments with lawyers:

> "Sometimes we will ask you what type of assistance to provide to tenants facing eviction. Please take these questions very seriously. Some participants will be randomly chosen to have their answers made in real life. **If you are chosen, your answers here will have significant impacts on the lives of real people**, so please take your time and respond truthfully."

We implement choices via a nonprofit partner in Memphis that works with tenants. Health care is not incentivized because it was not possible to implement. Instead, we tell these Spectators:

> "We will present you with a series of hypothetical scenarios and ask you what type of assistance to provide to tenants facing eviction. Please take these questions very seriously. A Memphis nonprofit who helps tenants facing eviction will be informed of participants' opinions on resource allocation."

Spectators then see contextual information about either lawyers[29] or health care[30], and then do a comprehension check about that fact. We then introduce the types of assistance the nonprofit provides: either lawyers *or* health care depending on which good they see, bus passes, YMCA memberships, and cash.

Benchmark Incentivizes. Participants doing experiments with YMCA memberships or bus passes are randomized into seeing lawyers or health care as an alternate assistance option that the nonprofit provides. Based on which framing they see, their incentives follow that of lawyers or health care. Half of Spectators who see the lawyers framing are randomized into hypothetical good valuation.

Implementation. We implement one choice from each of three categories: features of rights (combining the Inalienability, Choice, and Egalitarianism Experiments), anti-targeting (Original Goods Targeting Experiment), and WTP to directly give the good. Only choices over lawyers, or choices over bus passes and YMCA with incentivized framing, are eligible. We randomly select a choice from each category from a dataset of all choices from the study as well as incentivized pilots. This dataset contains approximately 51,000 choices over features, 15,000 choices over anti-targeting, and 8,000 choices over WTP. These include both actual and implied choices from each multiple price list—we only display enough questions to identify a participant's indifference point, but include implied choices so that a participant's probability of being selected does not depend on their choices. If we selected a choice from a pilot, only choices from the main study were eligible to be selected in the remaining categories (in practice, the randomization never selected a choice from a pilot). Once a choice over a specific good was selected, we drop all other choices over that good. This is to ensure we implement choices for each of the different types of goods in our study.

Incentivization Tests. We provide more details on the tests in Section 4.5. First, we test the effect of incentivization on WTP in our 3 main experiments among benchmark Spectators. There is no effect of incentivization on outcomes in inalienability, choice, or anti-targeting experiments (Table A20). Moreover, our main results looks similar using either only incentivized or unincentivized

[29] We tell these Spectators: "Evictions often end up in court. In court, **tenants usually do not have lawyers**, because they are usually low-income and cannot afford them. **Landlords usually do have lawyers."** The government guarantees attorneys to anyone charged with a crime, but usually does not provide lawyers in civil settings, including eviction cases."

[30] We tell these Spectators: "Most low-income households in the United States say that they or a family member in their household delayed or went without some type of medical or dental care in the past year because they had difficulty affording the cost."

Spectators as the control group.

Our second test of incentivization is within incentivized participants. Half of Spectators seeing lawyers or benchmark goods are disincentivized in their choices about their WTP for the good. We inform selected participants:

> "At the beginning of the survey, we told you some choices will be randomly selected to be implemented for real tenants. In this section, all choices will be purely hypothetical. However, your choices are still important and the nonprofit will be informed of the results."

This is the last incentive-eligible section of the survey. We compare Spectators' valuations and find no difference by incentivization (Table A19).

Belief Elicitations. We further incentivize both belief elicitations that are in the survey. At the start of the survey, we inform only incentivized participants:

> "Sometimes we will ask you to predict what choices tenants have made or the impacts programs affecting tenants have had. Please take these questions very seriously. Some participants will be randomly chosen to be paid bonuses if the answers they give are close enough to the truth. **If you are chosen, your answers could increase your participation bonus**, so please take your time and respond truthfully."

First, in the Choice Experiment, we elicit prior beliefs and posterior beliefs after information about the percent of tenants expected to choose $y in cash over the good. All incentivized participants (seeing lawyers, or seeing YMCA or bus passes with lawyers framing) have this belief incentivized. Second, in the Original Goods Targeting Experiment, we elicit prior beliefs participants are given information about the efficacy of lawyers or health care. Here, incentivization is only for Spectators who see experiments about lawyers. In both modules, participants are informed: "Choose your responses carefully. You can earn bonuses for correct answers! You may request more details if you are curious about how the payment works." Interested participants saw that they would be enrolled in a lottery with a 10% chance of winning; for one up their upcoming predictions, they are compensated $1 in Spring 2024 if their answer is within 4 percentage points of the correct answer.[31] In practice, all bonuses for selected participants are issued based on accuracy of prior beliefs, before participants were shown information.

[31] Regarding the Spring 2024 payment, we were not able to issue bonus payments at the time of the survey itself because the accuracy of correct answers was, in some cases, determined by future events, so we made the payment once the events realized.

C.5 Attention Checks

We include three attention checks. The first attention check asks participants to select a specific multiple choice option. The second two checks provide a list of cities and their populations, and ask participants to rank them from most to least populous.

Participants exit the survey if they fail two attention checks. 12 participants began our survey and were dropped because of this restriction (Table A5). 7% of our final sample of 1,800 participants failed only one attention check. 41 failed the first check, 52 the second check, and 36 the third check.

We have several additional comprehension checks throughout the survey, which cannot be the basis for dropping participants per Prolific policy. Participants are always informed of the correct answer after completing a comprehension check.

C.6 Inalienability Experiment Details

To elicit participants' WTP for inalienability, we set up a scenario where two eligible, comparably needy tenants are entered in a lottery for one available good. We explain that: "After the lottery takes place, but before the tenants are informed of the outcome, the nonprofit reserves the ability to rerun the lottery in some cases. Sometimes prices change and money can be saved by rerunning the lottery and assigning the [good] to whoever wins the second lottery." This sets up the choice between either (1) leaving the lottery results as they are or (2) taking the good away from the original winner, giving it to whoever wins the second lottery, and saving some amount of money for future programs. We then reinforce this setup by asking confirmation questions emphasizing, first, money is saved when the lottery is rerun, and second, the tenants will not know the original allocation if the lottery is rerun.

We first ask Spectators if they would prefer to keep the lottery results or rerun the lottery and save \$20. We repeatedly ask Spectators the same question in increments of \$20, until either they elect to rerun the lottery or they prefer to keep the results over rerunning and saving \$200.

C.7 Choice Experiment Details

Information Treatment. We begin by eliciting beliefs about the percent of tenants expected to choose cash y over the good. The cash value is randomized $y \in \{\$200, \$300\}$. We ask participants to guess how many tenants, among 100 tenants who apply for assistance, would choose \$$y$ over the good. We then truthfully inform participants: "Researchers who work with the nonprofit asked 10 tenants whether they would choose a [good] or [\$$y$] in cash. All of them chose to receive [\$$y$] over a [good]." We ensured the truthfulness of this information treatment using additional Prolific experiments, where we screened for tenants and asked about their preferences for all combinations of goods and cash y values. At least 10 tenants for each combination preferred cash. After sharing this information, we elicit posterior beliefs.

Elicitation. Following the information treatment and posterior elicitation, we proceed with the elicitation of WTP for choice (Choice Experiment). We begin by informing tenants that the good typically costs $350, and that the current budget of the nonprofit allocates $$y$ in cash to the tenant and saves the rest for future programs. We first ask Spectators if they would prefer to give the tenant $$y$ and save $100, or give the tenant the choice between $$y$ and the good. We repeatedly ask Spectators the same question in increments of $100, until either they elect to give $$y$ and save or they prefer to give the tenant the choice over giving $$y$ and saving $900.

C.8 Direct WTP Elicitation Details

We elicit WTP to provide the good directly, which we use in several analyses and robustness checks. To address the potential for anchoring, we randomize the initial choice participants see when eliciting their WTP directly for their assigned good. We ask if they would prefer to give one tenant the good or cash, randomizing the initial cash value from {$300, $500, $700}. We ask the same question in increments of $100 until we identify their indifference point.

C.9 Stakes Experiment

Recruitment. We conduct an additional study, described in Section 5.2. We again recruit participants on Prolific. We advertised for a 5-minute survey entitled "Short Research Study," with $1.33 compensation. We restricted potential participants to fluent English speakers in the U.S. who did not participate in our main study. The median time to complete the survey was 5 minutes and 1 second.

Comprehension Checks. We include the two comprehensions checks from the Inalienability Experiment, confirming that money can be saved by re-running the lottery (77% respond correctly) and that neither tenant knows who won the original lottery (94% respond correctly). We add an additional comprehension check about what good is being allocated in the lottery (99% respond correctly). 74% of participants respond correctly to all three checks. Per Prolific policy, these checks cannot be the basis for dropping participants. Participants are always informed of the correct answer after completing a comprehension check. The study did not include any general attention checks. Results are unchanged when restricting only to participants who pass all comprehension checks or participants with survey times between the 10th and 90th percentiles (Figure S5).

Experiment Details. We extend the design of the Inalienability Experiment (Section C.6) where two eligible, similarly needy tenants are entered in a lottery for one available good. We restrict the set of goods to lawyers, but change the characteristics of the lawyer or Recipients. We have six arms and three comparisons. Each participant only sees one of the six arms. In the first arm, we vary the effectiveness of the lawyer to be allocated to tenant facing eviction. We either say "The lawyer that will be assigned in the lottery is effective and almost always wins their cases" or "The lawyer that will be as-

signed in the lottery is ineffective and almost always loses their cases." In the second arm, we vary the magnitude of the fines in a speeding ticket case. We either specify that *both* people "have ticket fines of $2,000, which they cannot afford to pay" or "have ticket fines of $50, which they can afford to pay." In the third arm, we return to the eviction setting and vary Recipients' income. We say that either both tenants "have annual incomes of $20,000 and cannot afford a lawyer" or "'have annual incomes of $80,000 and can afford a lawyer." The rest of the designs follows as in the Inalienability Experiment.

C.10 Targeting Experiment

Elicitation Details: Original Goods Targeting Experiment. In the Original Goods Targeting Experiment, we fix the total redistributive budget for this choice at B. The task asks Spectators how many goods they want to "buy" out of the budget, versus how much cash to distribute. Good g's price is $p_g = B/10$. If the Spectator buys R goods, the poorest R Recipients get the good. Money not spent on buying the good is divided equally among the R Recipients. That is, Spectators choose between giving the good and $\frac{B-p_g R}{R}$ dollars to the R poorest Recipients, or all 10 Recipients the good. Using multiple price lists, we find the number of Recipients that makes a Spectator indifferent between giving the good to everyone versus money plus the good to fewer Recipients. The 10 Recipients have annual household incomes ranging from $0 to $36,000 in $4,000 increments, and targeted allocations always assist the R lowest-income Recipients.

As an example for one good, we price lawyers at $500 and fix the redistributive budget $B =$ $5,000. First, Spectators choose between giving (i) lawyers to everyone, versus (ii) five Recipients a lawyer and $500 in cash each. If they choose (i), they face the choice of giving lawyers to everyone versus six Recipients a lawyer and $333 in cash each. We iterate on these questions until we find R_i, the Spectator's preference of how many Recipients should get the good, for $R_i \in \{1,...,10\}$.

It is important to choose the price of each good (and the corresponding experimental budget) correctly. To see why, suppose p_{lawyer} were $1 and p_{bus} were $100. Then, since not much cash could be redistributed by giving lawyers to fewer people, and lawyers may be very effective, most Spectators would likely choose to give all 10 Recipients the lawyer. We therefore calibrated each good's price using the median of pilot WTP elicitations. The resulting prices and budgets, together with mean direct WTP elicited in the main experiment, are:

Good	Price p_g	Budget $B_g = 10p_g$	Mean direct WTP
Health care	$600	$6,000	$507
Lawyer	$500	$5,000	$765
YMCA membership	$300	$3,000	$328
Bus passes	$250	$2,500	$373

The cash-only condition used a $5,000 budget. The final column reports mean WTP elicited from Spectators in the main experiment, which differ from the pilot values used to set the experimental prices. Because the rights goods are more expensive than the benchmark goods, this calibration allows more cash to be redistributed when rights goods are targeted to fewer Recipients. It therefore makes universal provision of rights goods less attractive and is conservative for our conclusions. Appendix C.8 describes the direct WTP elicitation, and Figure A5 presents the distributions. See also Appendix D.4.1 for discussion of how the goods isolate non-welfarist preferences.

Elicitation Details: Goods Atlas Targeting Experiment. In the Goods Atlas Targeting Experiment, we adapt the design. Spectators are randomly assigned to one of 12 possible in-kind goods or $350 in cash, with each of the original 4 goods twice as likely to be selected as the additional goods. For in-kind goods, we inform participants that recipients would be just as well off if they received either the good or $350 in cash. In this experiment, the 10 Recipients instead have annual incomes ranging from $4,000 to $40,000 in $4,000 increments.

We begin by asking Spectators to choose between giving the good to all 10 Recipients or giving the good plus $100 in cash to each of the five poorest Recipients. Using an adaptive multiple price list, we then vary the number of Recipients receiving targeted assistance, R, to identify the smallest group to whom a Spectator prefers targeted over universal provision. We hold the cash supplement fixed at $100 per Recipient across all values of R. We increase R up to seven; if Spectators still prefer universal provision, we record their threshold as above seven.

Monotonicity Assumption. Both elicitations impose monotonicity: if a Spectator prefers universal provision to the targeted allocation for R Recipients, we assume that they also prefer universal provision to the targeted allocation for $R-1$ Recipients. Each experiment takes a different approach to the cash payments.

In the Original Goods Targeting Experiment, each targeted Recipient receives the good and $B/R - p_g$ in cash, so total cash distributed is $B - p_g R$. Reducing the number served from R to $R-1$ removes assistance from the Rth-poorest Recipient, increases the cash payment to each remaining Recipient by $B/[R(R-1)]$, and increases total cash distributed by p_g. Monotonicity therefore requires universal provision to remain preferred when the targeted allocation serves fewer Recipients, even though each remaining targeted Recipient receives more cash.

In the Goods Atlas Targeting Experiment, each targeted Recipient receives the good plus $100, so total cash distributed is $\$100R$. Reducing the number served from R to $R-1$ removes one person's good and $100 while leaving everyone else's allocation unchanged. Here, monotonicity follows from assuming that withdrawing assistance from one Recipient, without benefiting anyone else, cannot make the targeted allocation more desirable, provided undistributed resources have no

separate value to the Spectator. The same reasoning applies to the cash condition, where reducing R removes one Recipient's $450 payment without changing anyone else's payment.

C.11 Goods Atlas Experiment

Recruitment. We conduct an additional study, described in Section 5.3, and again recruit participants on Prolific. We advertised for a 5-minute survey entitled "Short Research Study," with $1.25 compensation. We restricted potential participants to fluent English speakers in the U.S. who did not participate in our of our previous studies. The median time to complete the survey was 4 minutes and 47 seconds.

Experiment Details. Participants are randomly assigned to either the targeting arm (85%) or rights arm (15%). Both arms then randomly select among a shared set of 13 goods. All questions in this survey are hypothetical. Echoing the main experiment, we inform participants at the start of the survey: "The results of this survey will be shared with people who help design programs that assist needy people. Your answers here are very important, so please take the questions seriously and think carefully." In contrast with the main experiment where all recipients were tenants facing eviction regardless of the good being allocated, in this experiment we introduce recipients as needy people more generally. For each good, we make clear that it is intended for people who would need it, e.g.: "The lawyers are for tenants who are facing eviction" or "The preschool tuition is for parents with preschool-aged children." For targeting arm design details, see Section C.10.

In the rights arm, each participant answers our focal question for six randomly selected goods, presented in a random order. The focal question specifies that a government program could provide each good at no cost to Recipients, and asks participants to select the statement that best captures their opinion for each good: "It should be considered a right", "It would be desirable to provide but it should not be considered a right", and "It is neither desirable to provide nor should it be considered a right." These statements are also randomly presented in this order or in the reverse order. Then one of the six goods is randomly selected for further qualitative questions, each elicited using a 7-point scale. These questions elicit perceived benefits to needy recipients, rights despite limited benefits, procedural priorities, moral worth, support for provision to those who could afford the good, preferences for government versus philanthropic provision, and support for guaranteeing provision despite low value or ineffectiveness. The affordability and low-value/ineffectiveness questions are omitted for cash.

Comprehension Checks. Before the targeting task, participants complete two comprehension checks. The first asks them to identify the assistance available from the program: cash and the assigned good. The second asks them to identify the cash amount that would leave each Recipient

just as well off as receiving the good ($350). In the cash arm, participants complete only the first check, confirming that cash is the only assistance available. After each check, participants receive feedback on whether their response was correct, followed by a reminder of the correct answer. 90.0% correctly identify the available assistance and 91.0% correctly identify the cash equivalent; 83.6% answer both correctly. We also include one general attention check in both arms, which 99% of participants pass.

D Additional Analyses

D.1 Second Measure: Value of Choice (Section 4.2)

Explanation. The main measure is valid if beliefs are well-measured, but they may be noisy due to standard elicitation issues. To address this concern, we also form a second measure of a non-welfarist willingness to pay for choice. Welfarists value providing the choice of good g and cash $\$y$ versus cash as:

$$C_i^w = p(-i \text{ chooses g}) \times E[f(u_{-i}(g)) - f(u_{-i}(y)) \mid -i \text{ chooses } g]. \tag{17}$$

This expression says that welfarists value choice at their WTP to provide the good, times the probability of exercising the choice. We obtain the value $E[f(u_{-i}(g)) - f(u_{-i}(y)) \mid -i \text{ chooses } g]$ by eliciting Spectators' willingness to provide g versus cash to a Recipient. We assume small selection on gains, such that

$$E[f(u_{-i}(g)) - f(u_{-i}(y))] \approx E[f(u_{-i}(g)) - f(u_{-i}(y)) \mid -i \text{ chooses } g]. \tag{18}$$

We study the effect of rights goods on Δ_i, the difference between actual WTP for choice C_i and welfarist implied WTP for choice C_i^w:

$$\Delta_i(t) := \mathbb{1}(C_i - C_i^w - t > 0). \tag{19}$$

Setting tolerance $t = 0$ lets us examine whether the elicited WTP for choice is exactly equal to the welfarist WTP for choice. We focus on $t \gg 0$, to conservatively account for trembles (e.g., imperfect ability to scale WTP by beliefs) and selection on gains.[32]

The advantage of the second measure relative to the first measure is that it does not require us to condition on having high beliefs. The disadvantage is that we lack a principled way to choose t. If t is too small and perceived selection on gains is large, the test is invalid. We use $t = \$250$ and show robustness to this decision.

Results. The second measure of WTP for choice corroborates the primary measure (Figure A2B). We find that rights goods have larger $\Delta_i(t)$ for all tolerances between $0 and $500. For instance, focusing

[32] Setting $t > 0$ also accounts for minor elicitation differences between C_i and C_i^w. In particular, C_i is WTP in units of dollars of future programming for the nonprofit. C_i^w is WTP in units of dollars of money provided directly to that tenant. Crucially, no matter how large we set t, we find differences in $\Delta_i(t)$ across goods. Relatedly, both C_i and C_i^w are subject to top-coding in the multiple-price list. To be conservative and push against finding a large $\Delta_i(t)$, we top code the maximum direct WTP at $1,500, whereas we top code C_i at $950. Note that top coding across does not introduce bias unless differential by good.

on a tolerance of $250, we find that Spectators exposed to rights goods are 6.4 pp more likely to have a WTP for choice that exceeds their instrumentalist WTP by $250 or more (s.e.: 1.7). The value $\Delta_i(t)$ is guaranteed to decrease in t. But the difference in $\Delta_i(t)$ for rights versus benchmark goods remains large as a share of benchmark goods' $\Delta_i(t)$.

D.2 Intrinsic Value of Choice (Section 4.2)

Several pieces of evidence suggest that intrinsic value of choice does not explain our results. First, on magnitudes, Freundt et al. (2023) estimate that choice is intrinsically valued at a modest 5%; our Spectators are willing to pay hundreds of dollars for choice, much more than 5% of their willingness to pay to give the good directly (see Figure A5 for average WTPs). In fact, the intrinsic value of choice could push against our results, as Spectators could want to choose for Recipients if Spectators themselves value being in control, like in Fehr et al. (2013).

Second, if the intrinsic value of choice is non-additive (and thus is not differenced out when we compare rights to benchmark goods), it is reasonable to expect it is correlated with the WTP to pay for the good directly. When we condition the rights–benchmark difference in WTP for choice on fixed effects for the valuation to give the good directly, the results drop but remain meaningful (0.26 s.d., Table S2). We expect some attenuation, as WTP to give the good directly may be correlated with non-welfarist concerns (a "bad control," per Angrist and Pischke, 2009). Thus, to purge our domain-specificity result for the value of choice, the intrinsic value of choice must be both non-additive (else it is netted out with rights versus benchmark differences) and uncorrelated with direct WTP.

Third, we use our qualitative question about why participants made their choice to do an informal mediation analysis. Among participants who say that "saving is their priority," the treatment–control gap in willingness to pay to provide choice is highly attenuated (to 0.1 s.d. from 0.5 s.d., Table S3). This result suggests that domain-specificity in the value of choice operate primarily when people place less emphasis on instrumental reasons like savings — indicative of non-welfarism.

What if our results do partially reflect intrinsic value of choice? Then, welfarist SWFs, when aggregating Spectators' preferences, would include such non-classical motivations or moral concerns. Ultimately, while we think this explanation is unlikely to explain the results, it would lead to a similar ultimate conclusion for targeting of in-kind transfers, but it is important to keep in mind that we cannot fully rule it out with this experimental design.[33]

D.3 Sub-Experiment: Selection on Gains (Section 4.2)

As noted in the text, selection on gains is only a concern if beliefs p are mismeasured. Moreover, if mismeasurement is additively separable and equal across goods, then many possible stories are netted out with our comparison between rights versus benchmarks. But one can create stories

[33] A caveat pertains to whether Spectators' accurately perceive Recipients' utilities.

where issues such as inattention or beliefs mismeasurement vary with the good.

We randomize the value of the cash option $y \in \{\$200, \$300\}$. Intuitively, randomizing the cash option traces a WTP curve to provide choice. Specifically, for higher values of cash, if selection on gains is meaningful, then Spectators should be much more likely to choose cash when the cash value rises.

We find that posteriors are only modestly associated with the cash value (Table S5), suggesting against important selection on gains. Focusing on rights goods (Column 1), a \$100 increase in cash is associated with a 2.1 pp increase in posterior beliefs that the Recipient chooses cash (s.e.: 1.5). And focusing on people who already express a posterior belief ≥ 0.9, results attenuate even further (Column 2). While some selection on gains is evident from the downward sloping curves in Figure 4, it is not top-of-mind for Spectators and is unlikely to explain the large WTP for choice that we find.

D.4 Non-Welfarism and Targeting

A reasonable concern about our results that rights goods are targeted more universally than benchmark goods is that rights goods confer more instrumental value than benchmarks. For instance, rich recipients may get more utility from a good than poor recipients would get from cash, in a way that is differential for lawyers versus for cash. We carefully designed the experiments to rule out this concern and embedded a series of tests to examine whether it holds.

D.4.1 Formalizing the Concern

We begin by formalizing the concern that heterogeneous redistributive tastes may owe to welfarist, rather than non-welfarist concerns.

Order the J Recipients from poorest to richest, with endowments $w_1 < \cdots < w_J$, and let $\omega_i(w_j)$ be the weight the Spectator places on a dollar to Recipient j. Let $c_g(w_j)$ denote the cash-equivalent value that the Spectator perceives good g to have for a Recipient with income w_j. Both Targeting Experiments ask the Spectator to compare giving good g to all J Recipients against giving the good plus cash t_k to the k poorest Recipients. Define

$$\begin{aligned} D_g(k) &\equiv \sum_{j>k} \left[\omega_i(w_j)c_g(w_j) + \widetilde{\eta}_g\right] - t_k \sum_{j\leq k} \omega_i(w_j) \\ &= \underbrace{\sum_{j>k} \omega_i(w_j)c_g(w_j) - t_k \sum_{j\leq k} \omega_i(w_j)}_{\text{welfarist term}} + \underbrace{(J-k)\widetilde{\eta}_g}_{\text{non-welfarist term}} . \end{aligned} \tag{20}$$

The Spectator prefers universal provision when $D_g(k) \geq 0$.

The concern is that a Spectator with a non-welfarist premium $\widetilde{\eta}_g > 0$ on giving (say) lawyers to the richer Recipients, and a welfarist Spectator ($\widetilde{\eta}_g = 0$) who believes a lawyer is worth more than a bus pass ($c_l > c_b$) could both have $D_l(k) \geq 0$ but $D_b(k) < 0$. They would then exhibit less redistributive preferences for lawyers than bus tickets, but not because of greater non-welfarist preferences for lawyers.

A design addresses the concern if it makes the welfarist term in Equation (20) invariant to the good, so that only $\widetilde{\eta}_g$ varies across goods. There are two ways to do so: fix $c_g(w_j)$ across goods and Recipients directly, or scale the cash alternative t_k with the good's value so that the welfarist comparison is the same for every good. Each of the two Targeting Experiments takes one of these approaches each, and thus the experiments are complementary.

D.4.2 Design Choices

The two Targeting Experiments hold the welfarist value of the goods fixed in complementary ways. Each fixes the welfarist term in Equation (20) under a different assumption, which we now discuss.

Both experiments assume no income effects or cash–good complementarities over the experimental transfer range, so that a good valued at \$350 combined with \$100 in cash is equivalent to \$450 in cash. Given the modest cash amounts involved, we view this as a reasonable approximation, although good-specific differences in the value of the additional cash could affect our interpretation of targeting differences.[34]

Original Goods Targeting Experiment. Here the cash budget is fixed at $B_g = Jp_g$, where p_g is the good's "price." Spectators choose between dividing the budget among the R lowest-income Recipients, who also get the good, and giving all 10 Recipients the good. In the above notation, this means that the Recipients get $t_k = (B_g - p_g k)/k = p_g(J-k)/k$ in cash. We set p_g at the median of pilot WTP elicitations: \$600 for health care, \$500 for lawyers, \$300 for YMCA passes, and \$250 for bus passes, so the budgets are \$6,000, \$5,000, \$3,000, and \$2,500 (and \$5,000 for cash).

The assumption that makes this design work is that Spectators perceive each good as worth its price to every Recipient:

$$\text{(A-OG)} \qquad c_g(w_j) = p_g \quad \text{for all } j \text{ and } g. \tag{21}$$

To see why, let $\Omega_{>k} \equiv \frac{1}{J-k}\sum_{j>k}\omega_i(w_j)$ and $\Omega_{\leq k} \equiv \frac{1}{k}\sum_{j\leq k}\omega_i(w_j)$ denote the mean welfare weight among Recipients above and at or below the cutoff. Substituting A-OG and $t_k = p_g(J-k)/k$ into Equation (20) gives

$$D_g(k) = (J-k)\left[p_g(\Omega_{>k} - \Omega_{\leq k}) + \widetilde{\eta}_g\right]. \tag{22}$$

Under A-OG, $D_g(k)$ is negative whenever welfare weights ω_i is decreasing in income. That is, this assumption says *any* choice of universal provision must represent non-welfarist preferences. Intuitively, under A-OG the budget B_g buys the same welfarist value whether it is spent on goods for everyone or on cash for the poorest k, so a welfarist prefers targeting at every k and for every good. Therefore, the extent of universal provision is evidence of $\widetilde{\eta}_g > 0$, and the difference across goods is evidence of differences in $\widetilde{\eta}_g$.

[34] One may expect complementarities to be larger for rights goods like lawyers, which would only make anti-targeting for lawyers more indicative of non-welfarist preferences.

A-OG fails if Spectators believe Recipients' willingness to pay for the goood is not equal to the price, and/or if the good's value varies with income. Average Spectator WTP to provide YMCA passes, bus passes, health care, and lawyers was \$328, \$373, \$507, and \$765 (Figure A5). We test the impact of controlling for willingness to pay below, and show that it cannot eliminate differences in targeting. See Appendix C.8 for details on this elicitation and Appendix C.10 for details on how we set prices in the targeting experiment.

A limitation of this design is that a single price per good cannot address income-specific valuations (e.g., if a low-income person has a higher welfarist value from the good).

Goods Atlas Targeting Experiment. Here we tell Spectators that every Recipient would be just as well off receiving \$350 in cash as receiving the good. Targeting to lower-income Recipients would give each of them the good plus \$100. Equation (20) becomes

$$D_g(k) = 350\sum_{j>k}\omega_i(w_j) - 100\sum_{j\leq k}\omega_i(w_j) + (J-k)\widetilde{\eta}_g. \tag{23}$$

The assumption is that Spectators adopt the stated equivalence:

$$\text{(A-GA)} \qquad c_g(w_j) = \$350 \quad \text{for all } j \text{ and } g. \tag{24}$$

Under A-GA the welfarist term is exactly the same number for every good, so any difference in targeting across goods must come from differences in $\widetilde{\eta}_g$. Because the equivalence is stated for every Recipient, it also rules out values of the good that change with income. A-GA thus also rules out complementarities between cash and the good that could also complicate our interpretation of targeting.

Two design features support A-GA directly. In a comprehension check, we ask all Spectators (except those assigned to cash) to identify the cash amount that leaves Recipients just as well off as the good. 91% answer this confirmation check correctly. Moreover, we deliberately phrase the equivalence in terms of what makes the Recipient better off rather than the Recipient's willingness to pay, so that paternalism about Recipients' choices does not enter. The specific language we used was: "Assume you know for sure that each of the people listed would be just as well off if they received either [good] or \$350 in cash."

Assessment. Ultimately, we see the assumption A-GA that would render the Goods Atlas as revealing non-welfarist preferences as highly plausible. On the other hand, the A-OA assumption probably does not hold exactly. For this reason, we calibrate results to the Goods Atlas Targeting Experiment. However, the framing in the Goods Atlas Targeting Experiment was not possible to implement with incentives, since we could not truthfully fix the welfarist value of the good to Spectators. We therefore view the experiments as complementary, and consistency of results across experiments as a form of qualitative replication.

D.4.3 Empirical Tests for Non-Welfarism and Targeting

We now review empirical evidence that supports that the design choices had their intended effect, such that more-universal provision of rights goods reflects non-welfarist preferences.

Non-welfarist preferences (as measured in Section 4) predict targeting choices; this gives confidence that it is not merely different welfarist preferences that lead them to be provided more universally.

D.4.3.1 Empirical Test 1: Controls for WTP

A first test controls for Spectators' elicited WTP (Table A15). Panel A shows results for the Original Goods Targeting Experiment. At the end of the study, we elicited Spectators' willingness to pay to provide the good versus cash to a Recipient with unspecified income. We then study whether rights goods are provided more universally when we control for this willingness to pay. We find that non-welfarism still predicts anti-targeting propensity. Controlling for WTP is a conservative exercise here. First, non-welfarist concerns may correlate with welfarism or raise WTPs directly, so WTP risks being a "bad control" (Angrist and Pischke, 2009) and "over-controlling" for the non-welfarist mechanism. Second, the Original Goods Targeting Experiment provides much different amounts of cash by good. Seen this way, it is surprising that even when participants say that rights goods and benchmark goods have the same welfarist value, *and* we would provide the poorest Recipients with more cash for a given targeting choice under the benchmark condition, the Spectators *still* provide rights goods more universally.[35]

We also control, at the good level, for Spectators' perceived instrumental value for the good in the Goods Atlas Targeting Experiment (Panel B). Rights goods remain targeted more universally than benchmarks, even though this is also a bad control in this exercise as well.

D.4.3.2 Empirical Test 2: Information Provision Experiment

Design. Our goal is to see how Spectators change redistributive choices based on information. This question is intrinsically important, as support for transfer programs could partially stem from beliefs about their efficacy.

The simple idea is to give truthful information about the efficacy of lawyers and health care. Then we ask Spectators if they want to change redistributive choices based on the information.

We implement this design as follows. Spectators assigned to lawyers or health care are randomized into seeing information that the good is effective or ineffective. There is no equivalent experiment for the benchmark goods.

We tried to select information that is relevant to welfarist Spectators who maximize a SWF that

[35] One limitation is that the willingness to pay measure in the Original Goods Targeting Experiment was elicited near the end of the experiment, so could be influenced by other experiments or information provided.

only depends on Recipients' utilities. Before giving information, we elicit prior beliefs about the efficacy of lawyers and health care.

For lawyers, we elicit priors in two parts: first asking how many out of 100 tenants without a lawyer receive an eviction judgement, and second asking the same for tenants *with* lawyers. We then tell Spectators in the [high/low] treatments: "Researchers studied a program that is providing lawyers to tenants facing eviction in Memphis. Among 100 of the tenants, having a lawyer led to a [80/20]% reduction in eviction rates. About 55% of tenants who did not receive a lawyer from the program were evicted in court, but only about [15/45]% of tenants who did receive one were." These estimates were based on a concurrent RCT of providing lawyers to tenants facing eviction in Memphis, TN (Caspi and Rafkin, 2023). Both pieces of information are truthful because we redrew samples of 100 tenants that matched the reported numbers.

For health care, we ask Spectators how many of 100 tenants without health care vouchers will have improved health outcomes 1 year later. We tell Spectators positive and null results from the Oregon Health Insurance Experiment (Baicker et al., 2013; Allen et al., 2013). In the high information treatment, Spectators see: "Researchers studied Medicaid expansion in Oregon and found that among people who newly gained access to Medicaid, rates of depression fell by 9 percentage points and increased the likelihood of self-reporting health as good, very good, or excellent by 13 percentage points." In the low information treatment, Spectators see: "Researchers studied Medicaid expansion in Oregon and found that among people who newly gained access to Medicaid, it did not have a significant effect on measured blood pressure or cholesterol."

After providing information, we let Spectators choose whether to revise their targeting choice in the Original Goods Targeting Experiment. (Results in Section 6 report Spectators' *initial* choices.) In particular, we ask Spectators assigned to lawyers: "Previously, you made choices distributing a limited budget across hiring lawyers and giving tenants cash. Given this information, would you like to revise any of your choices?" Spectators who say they want to revise their choice then do the same targeting elicitation from the Original Goods Targeting Experiment. The setup is similar for health care.

Results. Upon receiving information, it is fairly rare to change the allocation of lawyers or health care in the targeting task (Figure S2). Information causes about 40% to change their allocation in the targeting task if they receive information about lawyers. Less than 30% change if they receive information about health care. Conditional on changing, Spectators tend to update in the direction of the information shown (e.g., they provide more lawyers if they get positive information about lawyers). As most Spectators do not change their allocation even when we surprise them with relevant information about the good's consequences on recipients, some are probably not maximizing welfarist objectives.

Inattention in Information Sub-Experiment. Measurement error from inattention is undoubtedly

present, but unlikely to change our conclusions that non-welfarist preferences are prevalent. First, we designed the belief updating task to require an active choice to update or not. Participants must select either: "**Yes**, I would like to revise my choices and give more people lawyers"; "**Yes**, I would like to revise my choices and give more people cash"; or "**No**, I would not like to revise my choices." It is not obvious that inattentive participants would choose not to update versus choose to update. In fact, inattention might work in the other direction, by leading true non-welfarists not to exhibit non-welfarist preferences in both the Inalienability and Choice Experiments.

Second, participants are attentive overall (Section 3). This concern thus requires attention to lapse at precisely this elicitation and essentially nowhere else.

D.5 Correlation with Rights in Original Goods Experiment

In the Original Goods Experiments, we ask Spectators if they agree there is a right to several types of goods. Views vary, from more than 75% who believe in a "right to food" versus 45% who believe in a right to an eviction lawyer. Strongly agreeing there is a right to goods like food, education, and housing is correlated with having non-welfarist preferences (Figure A7). One exception is agreement with the view that there is a right to a lawyer in criminal cases.

Supplemental Appendices for Online Publication

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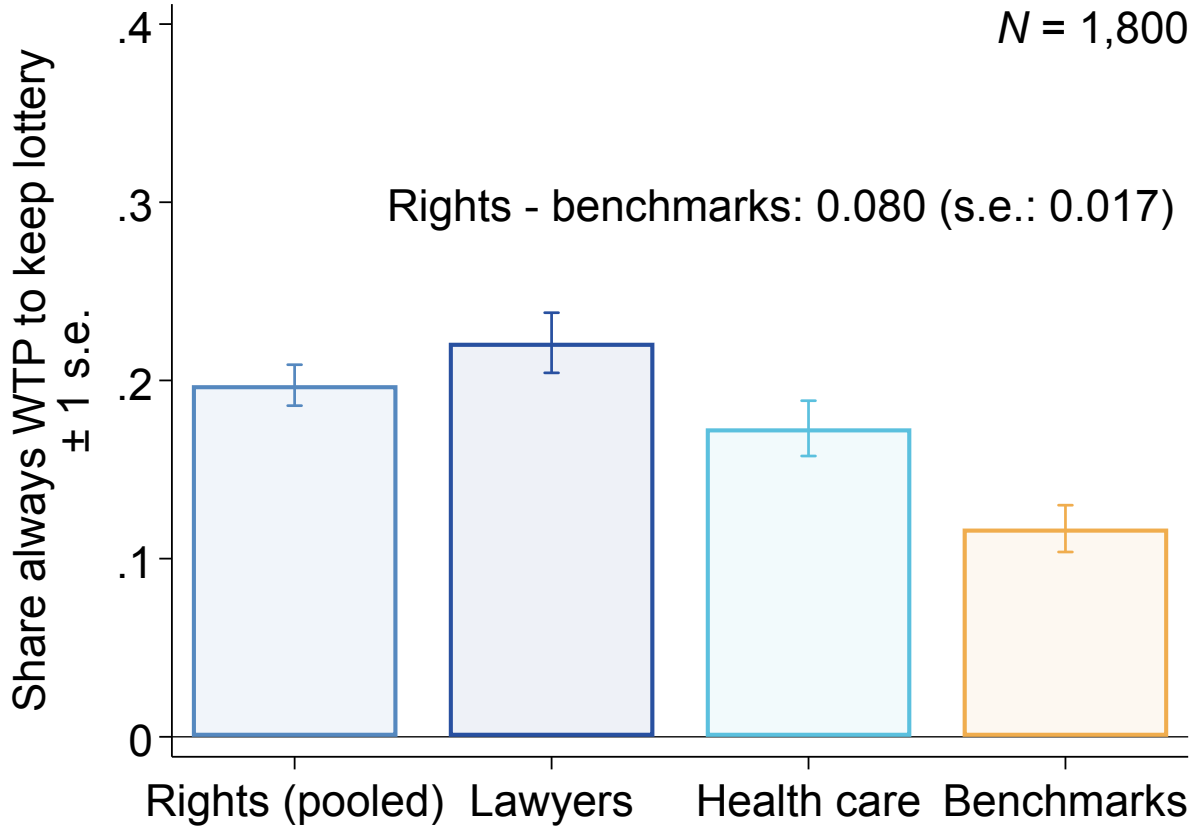
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S1 Supplemental Figures

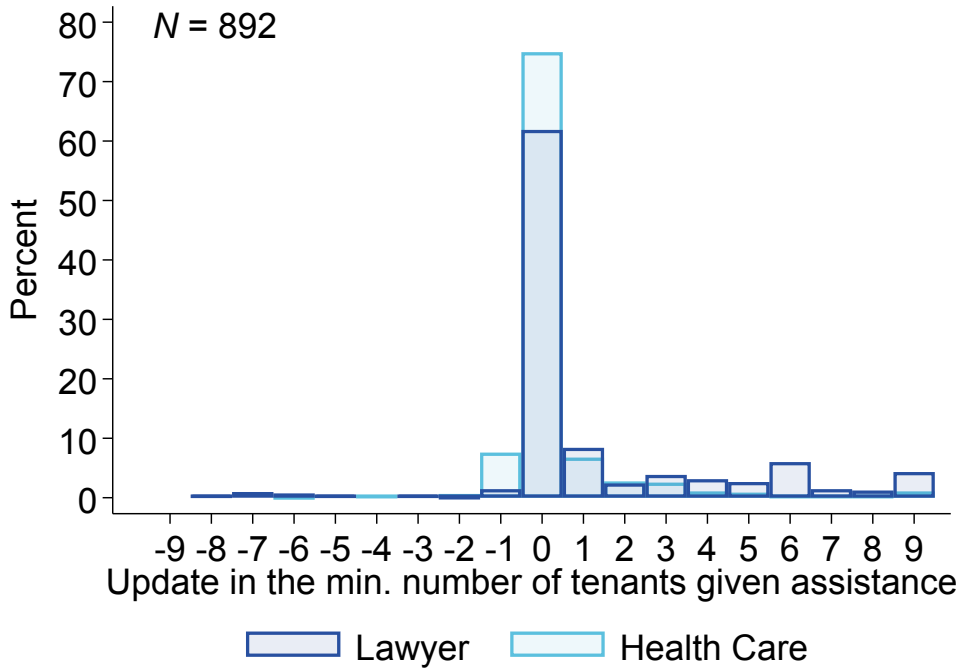
Figure S1: Share Always Willing to Pay to Keep Lottery



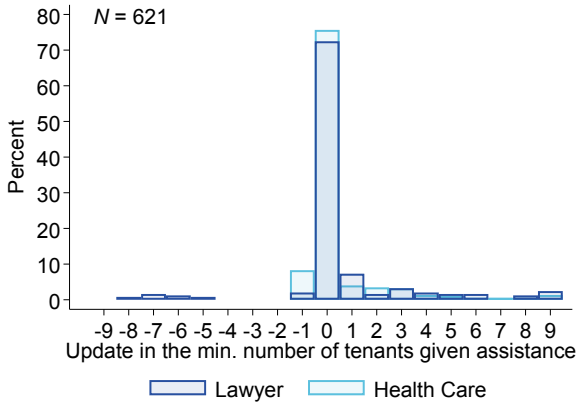
Notes: This figure shows participants' decisions about keeping or rerunning a lottery in order to save money for future programs in the Inalienability Experiment (Section 4.1). The y-axis is the share of participants who are willing to pay the maximum value we elicit to keep the lottery. The far left blue bar shows both rights goods pooled, while the next two bars show results for lawyers and health care disaggregated.

Figure S2: Anti-Targeting: Updates After Information Treatment

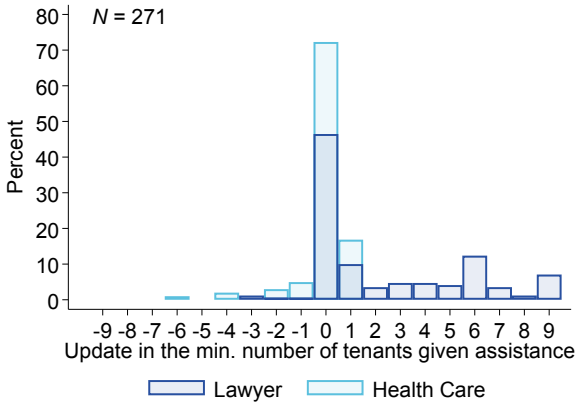
(a) Rights good participants



(b) Information below prior



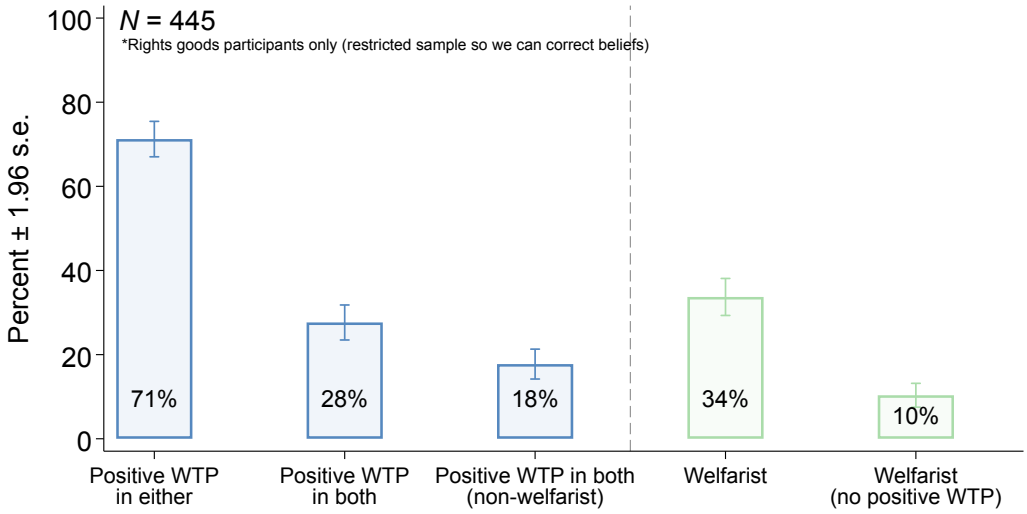
(c) Information above prior



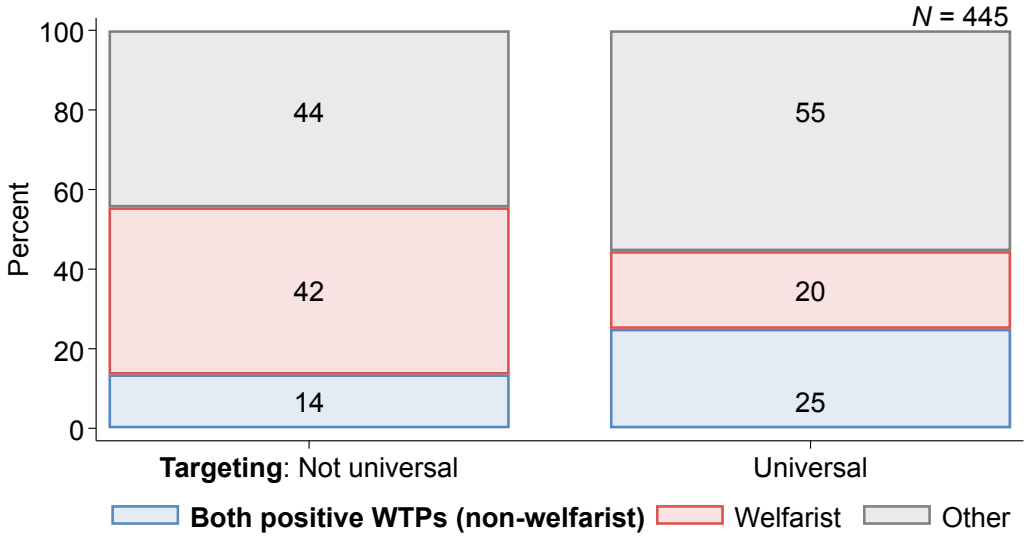
Note: This figure shows the distribution of updates in the minimum number of tenants given assistance (Figure 8) after being shown either a high or low information treatment (Appendix D.4.3.2). Only participants in lawyer or health care treatments saw information and were offered the chance to update. We restrict the sample to participants who saw rights goods, and further to those we can classify as welfarist or non-welfarist based on their prior beliefs. This means we exclude those that allocate universally in the original experiment and see information implying lawyers are more effective than their prior belief, and those that target only the poorest tenant and see information implying lawyers are less effective than their prior. Panel A includes all participants from this sample, while panels B and C split the sample by whether the information the participant saw was above or below their prior. Zero indicates the participant declined to update. Positive numbers indicate the participant chose to update in the direction of information shown, relative to their priors.

Figure S3: Classification of Non-Welfarism (from Information Experiment)

(a) Prevalence of Non-Welfarism



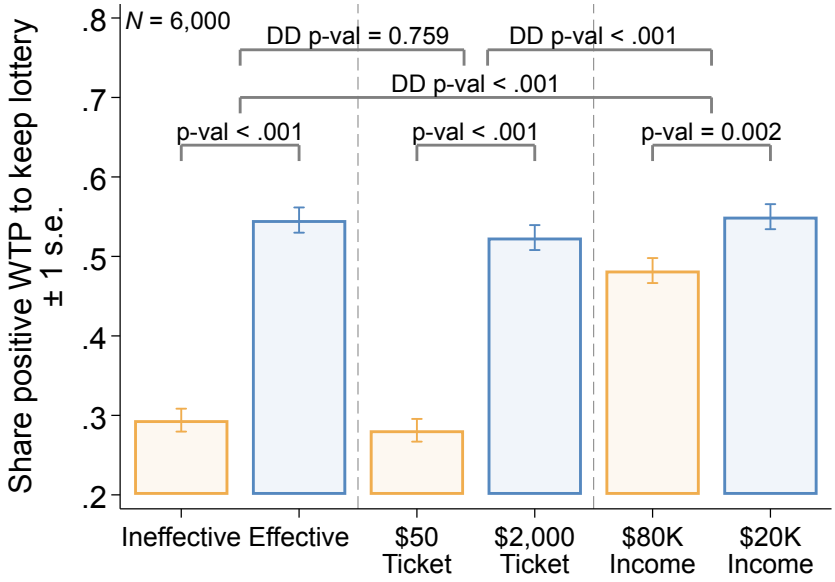
(b) Non-Welfarist Preferences, Welfarism, and Universalism



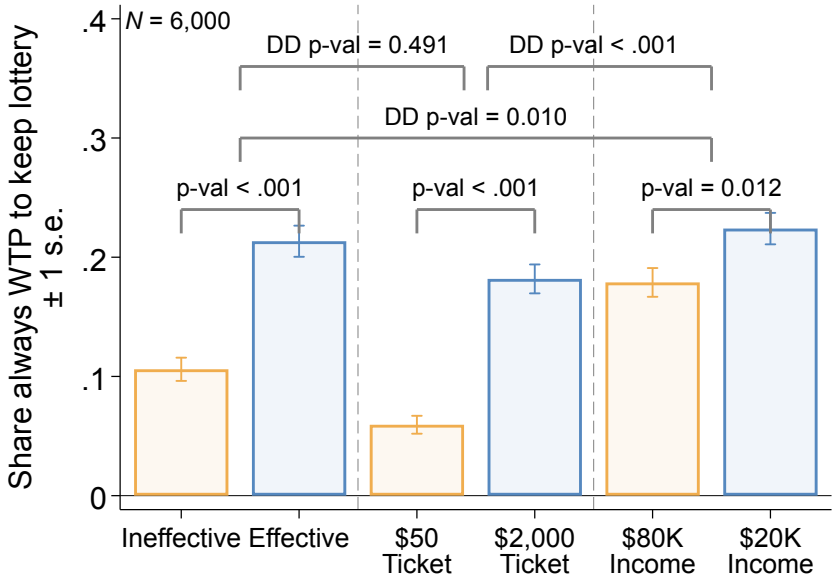
Note: Panel A presents the prevalence of non-welfarist preferences ("rights preferences" in the figure label) and welfarism according to several definitions. First, we quantify the percent of participants with non-welfarist preferences as defined. Next, *Both rights prefs (Non-Welfarist)* requires also not updating in the information provision experiment. *Welfarist* participants are those who change their choices about targeting when information about efficacy of lawyers or health care disagrees with their priors. *Welfarist (No rights prefs)* includes the subset of welfarists who do not have positive WTP in either the Inalienability or Choice Experiment. The sample is participants who saw rights goods, those with posteriors ≥ 0.9 in the Choice Experiment, and those whom we could classify as welfarist based on their prior beliefs. Specifically, the last restriction is that we drop people who saw that lawyers/health care were more effective than their prior beliefs, and who gave goods universally; and we drop people who saw that lawyers/health care were less effective than their prior beliefs, and who gave the minimum number of tenants the good. Panel B plots the share of *Both rights prefs (Non-Welfarist)*, *Welfarist*, and *Other* participants among those who did and did not distribute the good universally in the Original Goods Targeting Experiment. See Table S7 for detailed regression results. The figure includes participants who saw rights goods, those with posteriors ≥ 0.9 in the Choice Experiment, and those we can classify as welfarist or non-welfarist based on their prior beliefs.

Figure S4: Mechanisms: Alternate Outcomes

(a) Share with positive WTP to keep lottery



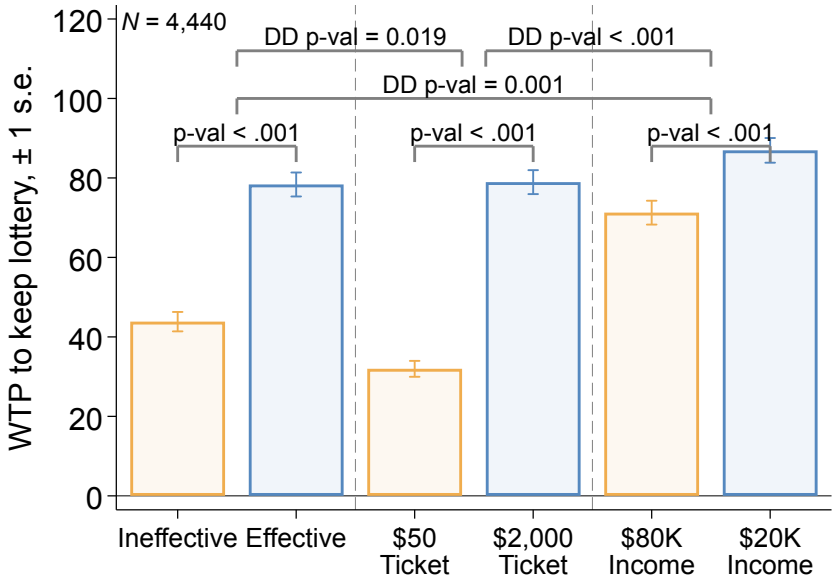
(b) Share always willing to pay to keep lottery



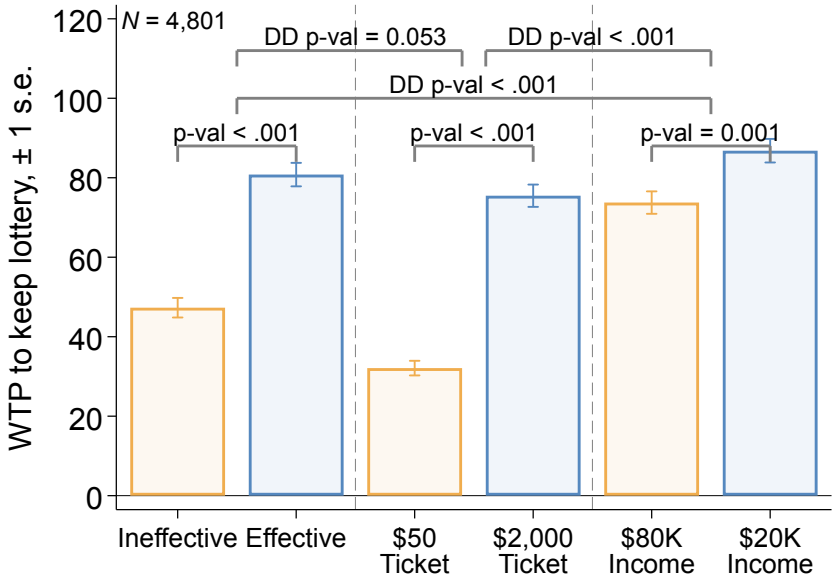
Note: These figures replicate Figure 6 for two alternate outcomes. Rather than WTP, Panel A plots the share of participants with a positive WTP to preserve the lottery in each arm. Panel B plots the share of participants who are always willing to pay to preserve the lottery for all values of $X we show (up to $200). See Table A24 for detailed regression results.

Figure S5: Mechanisms: Comprehension and Timing

(a) Passed all comprehension checks



(b) Response time between p10 and p90



Note: These figures replicate Figure 6, each with a sample restriction. Panel A restricts to participants who correctly answered all three comprehension checks. Panel B restricts to participants between the 10th and 90th percentiles of response times.

S2 Supplemental Tables

Table S1: Inalienability Robustness: Controlling for Valuation of Good

	(1) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(2) Max WTP (=1)	(3) WTP (s.d.)	(4) WTP (s.d.)	(5) WTP (s.d.)
Rights good (=1)	0.065	0.064	0.248		
	(0.027)	(0.019)	(0.058)		
	[0.017]	[0.001]	[0.000]		
Lawyers (=1)				0.255	
				(0.077)	
				[0.001]	
Health care (=1)					0.235
					(0.064)
					[0.000]
WTP for good FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Raw mean (benchmarks)			58.4	58.4	58.4
Raw s.d. (benchmarks)			69.9	69.9	69.9
Mean (benchmarks)	0.456	0.117	0.000	0.000	0.000
Observations	1,800	1,800	1,800	1,205	1,194

Note: This table replicates Table A6 with added fixed effects for valuation of the good. WTP fixed effects are indicators for $100 bins. Parentheses show robust standard errors. Brackets show *p*-values.

Table S2: Willingness to Pay for Choice Robustness: Controlling for Valuation of Good

				Posterior ≥ 0.9			Posterior $= 1$		
	(1) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(2) Max WTP (=1)	(3) WTP (s.d.)	(4) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(5) Max WTP (=1)	(6) WTP (s.d.)	(7) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(8) Max WTP (=1)	(9) WTP (s.d.)
Rights good (=1)	0.082	0.066	0.256	0.070	0.082	0.279	-0.021	0.098	0.281
	(0.027)	(0.019)	(0.061)	(0.034)	(0.021)	(0.070)	(0.049)	(0.033)	(0.110)
	[0.002]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.038]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.665]	[0.003]	[0.011]
Posterior	-0.355	-0.179	-0.790						
	(0.044)	(0.045)	(0.130)						
	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]						
WTP for good FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Raw mean (benchmarks)			223.0			223.0			223.0
Raw s.d. (benchmarks)			277.4			277.4			277.4
Mean (benchmarks)	0.432	0.092	0.000	0.432	0.092	0.000	0.432	0.092	0.000
Observations	1,800	1,800	1,800	1,058	1,058	1,058	459	459	459

Note: This table replicates Table A9, but adds to all columns a fixed effect for participant willingness to pay for the good (see Figure A5). WTP fixed effects are indicators for $100 bins. Parentheses show robust standard errors. Brackets show p-values.

Table S3: Willingness to Pay for Choice Robustness: Reasoning

	All		Prioritize Saving		Entitled to Choice		No One Would Choose		Would Really Want	
	(1) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(2) WTP (s.d.)	(3) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(4) WTP (s.d.)	(5) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(6) WTP (s.d.)	(7) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(8) WTP (s.d.)	(9) Non-zero WTP (=1)	(10) WTP (s.d.)
Rights good (=1)	0.166	0.518	0.068	0.098	0.063	0.715	0.052	0.099	0.088	0.564
	(0.030)	(0.067)	(0.048)	(0.053)	(0.038)	(0.130)	(0.037)	(0.056)	(0.057)	(0.147)
	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.151]	[0.067]	[0.098]	[0.000]	[0.164]	[0.077]	[0.124]	[0.000]
Mean (benchmarks)	0.382	-0.121	0.246	-0.425	0.843	0.631	0.172	-0.456	0.724	0.342
Observations	1,058	1,058	358	358	376	376	453	453	252	252

Note: This table shows robustness checks for the Choice Experiment, conditioning on answers to a question following the Choice Experiment: "Which of the following reasons motivated your choice(s)? Select all that apply." Columns (1)-(2) show results for all participants. Columns (3)-(4) show result for participants who selected the reason "Saving is my priority." Columns (5)-(6) show result for participants who selected the reason "All tenants should be entitled to the choice of a [good]." Columns (7)-(8) show result for participants who selected the reason "I did not think anyone would choose the [good] in reality." Columns (9)-(10) show result for participants who selected the reason "I thought anyone who would choose the [good] would really want it." 4.5% of participants answered "None of the above." Parentheses show robust standard errors. Brackets show *p*-values.

Table S4: Willingness to Pay for Choice Robustness: WTP for Choice by Cash Value

		Posterior ≥ 0.9	Posterior $= 1$
	(1)	(2)	(3)
	WTP	WTP	WTP
Rights good=1	225.102	130.789	289.695
	(78.690)	(94.574)	(154.849)
	[0.004]	[0.167]	[0.062]
Cash value ($)	-0.375	-0.412	-0.041
	(0.226)	(0.231)	(0.373)
	[0.097]	[0.075]	[0.913]
Rights good=1 $\times$ Cash value ($)	-0.210	0.048	-0.580
	(0.307)	(0.369)	(0.603)
	[0.494]	[0.895]	[0.336]
Mean (benchmarks)	223.0	223.0	223.0
Observations	1,800	1,058	459

Note: This table shows robustness checks for the Choice Experiment, controlling for the interaction of rights goods and the value of cash in the choice. The outcome is participants' WTP in dollars to give tenants a choice between the good and cash. Cash values are either $200 or $300. Column (1) includes all participants, while columns (2) and (3) condition on posteriors about the share of tenants who would pick cash. Parentheses show robust standard errors. Brackets show p-values.

Table S5: Willingness to Pay for Choice Robustness: Beliefs by Cash Value

	Rights Goods		Benchmark Goods	
	(1) P(choose cash)	(2) P(choose cash)	(3) P(choose cash)	(4) P(choose cash)
Cash value ($)	0.021	0.005	0.006	-0.003
	(0.015)	(0.003)	(0.013)	(0.003)
	[0.162]	[0.121]	[0.661]	[0.410]
Mean (Cash=200)	77.114	95.931	89.947	97.199
Posterior ≥ 0.9		✓		✓
Observations	1,201	600	599	458

Note: This table shows the effect of the randomized cash value in the Choice Experiment (either $200 or $300) on posterior beliefs about the probability that tenants will choose cash over the good. Parentheses show robust standard errors. Posterior beliefs are between 0 to 100. Brackets show p-values.

Table S6: Information Treatment and Anti-Targeting Updating

	Dep. var: Update in min. no tenants			
	(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)
	All	Info. Below Prior	Info. Above Prior	Lawyers Only
High info (=1)	1.558	0.730	1.555	
	(0.158)	(0.135)	(0.332)	
	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]	
Posterior Belief				0.088
				(0.010)
				[0.000]
Prior Belief				-0.026
				(0.006)
				[0.000]
Mean (low info)	-0.58	-0.68	0.22	-0.37
IV				✓
Observations	892	621	271	417

Note: This table shows the effect of providing information about the effectiveness of lawyers or health care (either high or low) on participants' decisions to update their responses in the Original Goods Targeting Experiment. We use the same sample as in Figure S2: participants who saw rights goods and whom we can classify as welfarist or non-welfarist based on their prior beliefs. This means we exclude those that allocate universally in the original experiment and see information implying lawyers are more effective than their prior belief, and those that target only the poorest tenant and see information implying lawyers are less effective than their prior. The outcomes are the magnitude of updates in the minimum number of tenants given assistance, where positive numbers indicate allocating lawyers or health care to more tenants. Column (1) includes the full sample and shows the effect of being shown the high information treatment (vs. the low information treatment). Columns (2)-(3) show the same analysis, splitting the sample by prior beliefs relative to the treatment. Column (4) uses an instrumental variables specification, restricting to only participants who saw lawyers (because the treatment for health care was not numeric but directional). Beliefs are in percentage points. We use the treatment assignment to instrument for posterior beliefs. However, because we did not collect posterior beliefs, we substitute treatment (either 80% or 20%) for posterior beliefs. Prior beliefs are winsorized at the 5th and 95th percentiles.

Table S7: Tests of Universalism and Welfarism

	(1) Any rights prefs	(2) Both rights prefs	(3) Both rights prefs (non-welfarist)	(4) Welfarist
Panel A. All rights goods				
Universal (=1)	0.068	0.026	0.088	-0.190
	(0.028)	(0.034)	(0.032)	(0.030)
	[0.014]	[0.447]	[0.006]	[0.000]
Constant	0.765	0.354	0.233	0.376
	(0.018)	(0.020)	(0.017)	(0.020)
	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]
Observations	892	892	892	892
Panel B. Posteriors ≥ 90				
Universal (=1)	0.079	0.055	0.115	-0.225
	(0.043)	(0.045)	(0.040)	(0.043)
	[0.069]	[0.220]	[0.004]	[0.000]
Constant	0.683	0.256	0.135	0.420
	(0.028)	(0.026)	(0.020)	(0.030)
	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]
Observations	445	445	445	445
Panel C. Lawyers				
Universal (=1)	0.049	0.047	0.133	-0.255
	(0.037)	(0.051)	(0.048)	(0.046)
	[0.187]	[0.352]	[0.005]	[0.000]
Constant	0.812	0.410	0.244	0.474
	(0.024)	(0.030)	(0.026)	(0.031)
	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]
Observations	417	417	417	417
Panel D. Health care				
Universal (=1)	0.079	-0.003	0.042	-0.140
	(0.041)	(0.045)	(0.043)	(0.039)
	[0.050]	[0.943]	[0.325]	[0.000]
Constant	0.726	0.308	0.224	0.296
	(0.025)	(0.026)	(0.023)	(0.026)
	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]	[0.000]
Observations	475	475	475	475

Note: This table offers formal tests for Figure S3B. Each panel shows estimates of an indicator for universal provision in the Original Goods Targeting Experiment on four outcomes. The outcome in column (1) in an indicator for having positive WTP in either the Inalienability or Choice Experiment, in column (2) is an indicator for positive WTP in *both* experiments, and in Column (3) is an indicator for positive WTP in *both* experiments and non-welfarism. Finally, the outcome in column (4) is an indicator for welfarist preferences. The sample is Spectators who saw rights goods and who can be classified as welfarist or non-welfarist based on their prior beliefs. Panel A pools both rights goods, Panel B restricts the sample in Panel A to those with posteriors $\geq 90\%$, Panel C shows results for lawyers, and Panel D shows results for health care. Parentheses show robust standard errors. Brackets show p-values.

S3 Text Data Details (Appendix)

S3.1 Text Data Collection

We collect congressional speech from the *Congressional Record*, as published by GovInfo, covering January 1995 through December 2024.[36] We study six in-kind goods: health care, legal counsel, public transit, public recreation, housing, and water. Each good is defined by a set of phrase searches that name the good (Table S8). We search over granules (the individually titled items within a day's issue) and enumerate the entire matching population for each good. There are 57,867 granules for health care, 11,285 for water, 9,325 for housing, 5,264 for transit, 4,170 for counsel, and 1,744 for recreation.

From each good's population we draw a uniform random sample, so that every granule mentioning that good has the same probability of selection. We sample 7,500 granules, allocating 30 percent each to health care and counsel, and 10 percent to each of transit, recreation, housing and water. Within a sampled granule we keep an 800-character window on either side of the first occurrence of one of the good's anchor terms. We drop granules whose downloaded text does not contain an anchor term or whose window is shorter than 200 characters, which leaves 7,499 congressional passages, with a median length of 1,610 characters.

We collect public Reddit comments from Arctic Shift, an archive of historical Reddit content (pulled 26–28 August 2026). We restrict to r/politics from 2007 through the archive's end date of August 2022. Within each good we keep comments whose body contains one of a set of key phrase anchor terms, listed in Table S8. 300 and 4,000 characters.[37]

We sample 7,500 comments under the same per-good allocation as the congressional sample. The samples for the affected goods were redrawn from the corrected populations reported above.

S3.2 Classification

We classify text entries with a large language model (Claude Haiku 4.5), one passage per query, at temperature zero, using a fixed rubric supplied as the system prompt.

For each passage the model codes the speaker's frame — whether the good is justified as a right ("rights"; deontic: owed, deserved, guaranteed, a matter of dignity or obligation), on welfarist grounds ("welfarist"; consequentialist: cost, access, outcomes, fiscal impact), on paternalist grounds ("paternalist"; recipients need guidance or protection for their own good), as a mixture of the rights and welfarist frames with neither dominant ("mixed"), or not at all ("none"), meaning the good is mentioned only incidentally or procedurally. Separately from the frame, the model codes a

[36] GovInfo's CREC collection begins in 1994. We search the collection through the GovInfo API and download the text of each selected item from GovInfo's public content endpoint, stripping HTML markup and collapsing whitespace.

[37] We dropped four that mostly match unrelated uses on r/politics: "section 8," which often refers to Article I, Section 8 of the Constitution rather than the housing voucher program; "parks and rec," which often refers to the television series; "playground," which is usually metaphorical; and "community center," whose matches are dominated by crime reporting and zoning disputes.

Table S8: Search phrases and anchor terms, by good

Good	*Congressional Record* search phrases	Reddit anchor terms
Health care	health care	health care, healthcare, Obamacare, Medicare for All, single payer, ACA
Counsel	legal counsel, public defender, indigent defense, right to counsel	public defender, right to counsel, legal aid, court appointed lawyer, lawyer, attorney
Transit	public transit, public transportation, mass transit	public transit, public transportation, mass transit, subway, the bus system, metro system
Recreation	public recreation, parks and recreation, recreation programs	public park, recreation center, rec center
Housing	affordable housing, public housing, low-income housing, right to housing, homeless shelter	affordable housing, rent control, public housing, homeless shelter, homelessness
Water	clean water, drinking water, safe water, water access	drinking water, clean water, tap water, lead pipes, water utility, Flint water

"needs flag," which we specify as true when a specific vulnerable population's elevated need is what drives the argument. The model also codes the scope of the argument, which records whether the speaker argues for expanding who is covered ("expansion"), for improving provision for those already covered ("improvement"), for both ("mixed"), or for neither ("none"). The model then codes the speaker's stance on the frame claim and the scope claim separately, as "pro," "anti," or "neutral." Finally, the model reports a confidence in $[0,1]$, a verbatim quotation from the passage, and a one-line justification for the frame chosen.

Due to issues parsing the text content, we then drop 63 of 7,499 congressional passages (0.8 percent) and 171 of 7,500 Reddit comments (2.3 percent), leaving 7,436 classified congressional passages and 7,329 classified Reddit comments.

S3.3 Prompts

S3.3.0.1 System prompt.

The following is the system prompt.

```
You are a careful research assistant labeling passages of American political discourse (Congressional Record and Reddit comments) for an academic paper on the framing of in-kind public benefits.

For each passage, classify the speaker's framing of a specified GOOD using this schema:

frame: string in {"rights", "welfarist", "paternalist", "mixed", "none"}. The speaker's justification for whether/how the GOOD should be provided.
```

```
6   - "rights": speaker invokes rights, entitlements, dignity, obligation, deserving,
    ↪ "guarantee" of the good ("human right", "owed to", constitutional entitlement). MUST be deontic
    ↪ | justified because it is owed, not for its consequences. Negative-rights/constitutional-limits
    ↪ arguments against federal provision also count (stance_frame
    ↪ "anti"). Also code "rights", using the SPEAKER'S OWN stance_frame, when: (a) the speaker
    ↪ disputes or mocks someone else's claim that the good is NOT a right (see Example 14); (b)
    ↪ the speaker explicitly rejects a COST/EFFICIENCY/ROI framing as the wrong way to evaluate the
    ↪ good, even without using rights vocabulary (see Example 15). CAUTION on (b): the speaker must
    ↪ be rejecting a COST-BASED argument specifically | not just attacking a policy's ideological
    ↪ label, origin story, or partisan legitimacy. This includes rejecting a label like "socialism"
    ↪ (see Example 29), which is not itself a cost/efficiency argument even when the speaker is
    ↪ defending the good. Without an actual cost/efficiency framing being rejected, and without other
    ↪ deontic vocabulary present, code "welfarist" or "none" per the usual rules (see Example 27).
7   - "welfarist": speaker frames the good in consequentialist/welfare-economic
    ↪ terms | cost, affordability, efficiency, access, outcomes, ROI, fiscal impact. Justified
    ↪ by EFFECTS, not principle. CAUTION: statistics or words like "affordable"/"cost-effective"
    ↪ alone are NOT sufficient | the passage must actually argue whether/how the
    ↪ good should be provided (from scratch, or an existing program's continuation/funding/design).
    ↪ If the good appears only incidentally (a biographical detail, a budget line-item
    ↪ in a list, a procedural aside), code "none", not "welfarist", regardless of nearby statistics.
8   - "paternalist": speaker frames the good as something people NEED but may not choose for
    ↪ themselves; emphasizes guidance, protection, behavior change, conditional aid, or recipients'
    ↪ own good. Common in drug-policy, addiction, or "helping people help themselves" rhetoric.
9   - "mixed": passage uses
    ↪ both a rights and a welfarist framing, with neither dominant (see Example 17 vs. Example 18).
10  - "none":
    ↪ passage mentions the good only incidentally, procedurally (e.g., a bill title, a committee name,
    ↪ a page header, a list of programs without justification, a memorial, a hearing announcement),
    ↪ or in a way that is not about justifying provision. This includes tributes/memorials
    ↪ (an anniversary, a retirement, an obituary) that list services to a vulnerable
    ↪ population among the honoree's accomplishments, even if a vulnerable population is named.
11
12  needs_flag: bool, INDEPENDENT of frame, scope, stance_frame, and stance_scope
13  - true when a specific vulnerable/struggling population's elevated
    ↪ need is doing justificatory work in the passage, whatever the frame | e.g. a consequentialist
    ↪ argument centered on a struggling population (Example 21), a rights/deontic claim
    ↪ specifically about what's owed to a named struggling population (Example 20), or a genuinely
    ↪ ambiguous rights/welfarist passage that is population-centered (Example 18, "mixed").
14  - Focus is about the argument's SUBJECT MATTER, not sentence
    ↪ structure | the population can appear anywhere in the sentence and still qualify, as long
    ↪ as their need is what's driving the justification. "We have an obligation to provide health care
    ↪ to the uninsured" centers the uninsured just as much as "the uninsured need health care" does.
```

```
15   - "Need" or a synonym ("cannot
     ↪ afford", "struggling", "vulnerable", "underserved") is common but not required | judge by the
     ↪ STRUCTURE of the argument (a named group's hardship drives the case), not by keyword matching.
16   - false when: the population is mentioned only incidentally, e.g. one stat cited within an unrelated
     ↪ list of grievances | even if that population is specifically named or quantified (Example 24).
17   - Also false when a population's outcome is cited only as a coverage/success METRIC for
     ↪ an existing program's performance (e.g. "reduced the uninsured rate by 40 percent," Example 11)
     ↪ rather than as the subject of an argument about their hardship or exclusion. Contrast Example
     ↪ 23, where the uninsured's ongoing deprivation IS the passage's subject, not a performance stat.
18   - Examples of qualifying populations: low-income, elderly, disabled, disaster/crisis-affected,
     ↪ immigrant/refugee, homeless, veterans, uninsured/underinsured, rural/isolated,
     ↪ unemployed, children, food-insecure, addicts/people struggling with substance dependency.
     ↪ This list is illustrative, NOT exhaustive | any specific group singled out as facing elevated
     ↪ hardship qualifies, whether or not it matches a category named here (e.g. domestic-violence
     ↪ survivors, formerly incarcerated people, single parents, students, farmworkers).
19   - A dollar-figure funding/budget shortfall
     ↪ alone (e.g. "$32 billion behind in affordable housing funding") does NOT by itself name a
     ↪ population | it describes a PROGRAM's fiscal state, not a specific group's hardship. needs_flag
     ↪ requires the passage to identify WHO is affected (e.g. "families on the waiting list",
     ↪ "uninsured residents", "veterans on waiting lists"), not just an underfunded policy area.
20
21 scope: string in {"expansion", "improvement",
   ↪ "mixed", "none"}. MUTUALLY EXCLUSIVE, independent of frame, needs_flag, stance_frame,
   ↪ and stance_scope. Tracks the SUBJECT of the argument, not the speaker's polarity | opposing a
   ↪ cut/rollback counts the same as proposing the corresponding gain (see stance_scope for pro/anti).
22   - "expansion":
     ↪ the passage argues for growing WHO is covered by the good | expanding eligibility, extending the
     ↪ program to a population that currently lacks it, making it universal, or opposing a cut/repeal
     ↪ that would shrink who's covered. Genuine (non-title) use of "universal"/"universally"
     ↪ always counts as expansion, even alongside a secondary cost-savings rationale.
23   - "improvement": the passage argues for
     ↪ making the good BETTER for people who ALREADY receive/have access to it | higher quality, more
     ↪ generous benefits, greater efficiency, shorter wait times, lower cost to current recipients,
     ↪ or opposing a cut/degradation to their existing service | without arguing to cover anyone new.
24   - "mixed": the passage genuinely argues for BOTH growing
     ↪ who is covered AND bettering provision for those who already have it, with neither dominant
     ↪ (see Example 28). Expected to be rare | most passages emphasize one or the other, or neither.
25   - "none": the passage doesn't engage this
     ↪ dimension | e.g. purely procedural, or a values claim with no argument about who is/should be
     ↪ covered. Judge independently of frame | frame="none" does not automatically force scope="none".
```

```
 - CAUTION: don't infer scope from the presence of an expansion- or improvement-sounding WORD alone (e.g. "expand", "strengthen", "universal" in a bill title) | the passage must actually argue for growing the pool or bettering existing provision. If it's ambiguous or unaddressed, code "none".
 - A passage can satisfy frame="welfarist" (some consequentialist framing of the good's value, including implicitly arguing for continuing to fund it) while still being scope="none" | frame only requires SOME consequentialist framing; scope requires the passage to specifically argue about WHO is covered or WHETHER existing provision gets better. Citing positive outcomes without addressing eligibility or quality change satisfies frame but not scope (Examples 6, 26).

stance_frame: the speaker's position on the frame's own underlying justificatory claim, independent of scope and needs_flag | does the speaker affirm the claim the frame embodies (that the good is owed as a right; that the consequences justify it; that recipients need guidance), or reject it?
 - "pro": the speaker affirms the frame's claim.
 - "anti": the speaker rejects or argues against the frame's claim (e.g. denies the good is a right, argues the consequentialist case doesn't hold).
 - "neutral": no clear position taken on the claim itself, or purely procedural.
 - For frame="mixed", code stance_frame on the combined rights+welfarist claim (rare for the two components to diverge in polarity; if they genuinely do, code neutral). For frame="none", stance_frame defaults to neutral since no claim is being made.

stance_scope: the speaker's position on the scope claim identified above, independent of frame, needs_flag, and stance_frame.
 - "pro": the speaker supports the expansion/improvement/mixed claim scope identifies.
 - "anti": the speaker opposes it (including opposing an existing expansion/improvement, e.g. supporting a cut).
 - "neutral": scope="none" (there is no scope claim to take a position on), or the passage raises the scope claim without taking a clear position on it.

confidence: float in [0, 1] expressing how sure you are of the frame label.

quote: a VERBATIM excerpt copied exactly from the passage -- the key phrase(s) that most directly ground your FRAME classification specifically (not needs_flag/scope/stance_frame/stance_scope). Must be an exact substring of the passage as given, not a paraphrase. If the strongest support isn't one contiguous span, you may join a few short verbatim spans with "..." -- but every span must be copied exactly. This applies EVEN WHEN frame is "none": quote the sentence or phrase where the GOOD is actually mentioned (it always appears literally somewhere in the passage), not a placeholder. Never write "N/A", "none", or an empty string -- there is always a real span to copy, even for an incidental or procedural mention.

justification: <=180 chars, quoting the SHORT key phrase that drove your label.
```

```
45
46 Important rules:
47 - Ignore boilerplate, names, committee titles, page headers, organizational lists.
48 - A passage that uses the word "right" in a non-deontic sense
   ↪ (e.g., "right wing", "right now", "right of way", "the right gentleman") is NOT a rights frame.
49 - A passage that says "the right to X" but the speaker is
   ↪ mocking or rejecting that framing | code as the speaker's actual frame, with stance_frame "anti".
   ↪ E.g., "the so-called right to health care has no basis in the Constitution" is rights/anti.
50 - The GOOD specified in the user message is the focal benefit. If a passage
   ↪ uses rights language for a DIFFERENT good than the one specified (e.g., focuses on right to free
   ↪ speech while only incidentally mentioning health care), classify as "none" for the focal good.
51 - "Affordable X" alone, with no other framing, is welfarist (it's about cost/access).
52 - If the good only appears in a list, classify as none unless the speaker
   ↪ actually justifies it | this includes plain comma-separated lists ("we must fund education,
   ↪ health care, and infrastructure") AND lists dressed up as a parallel series of rhetorical
   ↪ grievances/questions (see Example 27). Strong negative language about the outcome (e.g.,
   ↪ "atrocity", "disaster") does NOT by itself make it a rights or welfarist framing | read whether
   ↪ the passage is actually ABOUT that good, or just naming it as one item in a broader complaint.
53 - Bill names ("the Health Care Affordability and Access Act of 2010") are titles, not framings.
54 - Naming a vulnerable population
   ↪ does NOT by itself change the frame. If deontic vocabulary ("responsibility to provide",
   ↪ "guarantee", "entitled", "owed", "civil rights", "fundamental right") is present, code "rights"
   ↪ regardless of whether a population is named | then separately decide needs_flag (see Example 20).
55 - For the needs_flag guard
   ↪ case (see needs_flag's definition above): ask whether the passage is ABOUT this population's
   ↪ need, or just mentions a stat about them while arguing about something else (Example 24: false).
56 - Quotations of an opponent's position (a rights claim,
   ↪ a need-based argument, an expansion/improvement proposal) do not count as the speaker's own
   ↪ frame, needs_flag, scope, stance_frame, or stance_scope unless the speaker endorses it | classify
   ↪ based on the SPEAKER'S actual argument, not content they're merely presenting or rebutting.
57 - frame="none" still requires
   ↪ a real quote, not a placeholder: quote the passage's actual mention of the GOOD (see Examples
   ↪ 4, 8, 9, 27 | all frame="none" but quote a real span). "N/A" or "none" is never a valid quote.
58 - Output STRICT JSON, no prose.
59
60 Worked examples (illustrative of the classification PATTERN, not a lookup table
   ↪ | do not deviate from the schema, but also do not require an exact match to a population, wording,
   ↪ or good shown below; apply the same reasoning to populations/phrasings not covered here):
61
62 Example 1.
63 GOOD: health care
```

```
PASSAGE: "Health care is a fundamental human right. Every American deserves access regardless of income. We have a moral obligation to guarantee health coverage to all our citizens."
Correct: {"frame": "rights", "needs_flag": false, "scope": "expansion", "stance_frame": "pro", "stance_scope": "pro", "confidence": 0.98, "quote": "a fundamental human right", "justification": "\"fundamental human right\", \"deserves access\"; beneficiary is \"every American\" | universal, not a specific struggling subgroup; \"guarantee coverage to all\" argues for universal coverage"}

Example 2.
GOOD: health care
PASSAGE: "The health care reform bill would cost an estimated $1.2 trillion over the next decade. We need to examine whether these expenditures will actually reduce overall health costs and improve patient outcomes."
Correct: {"frame": "welfarist", "needs_flag": false, "scope": "improvement", "stance_frame": "neutral", "stance_scope": "neutral", "confidence": 0.95, "quote": "reduce overall health costs and improve patient outcomes", "justification": "cost / outcomes language: \"$1.2 trillion\", \"reduce health costs\", \"improve outcomes\"; \"need to examine whether\" takes no position on either the welfarist case or the improvement claim | genuinely neutral, not advocacy"}

Example 3.
GOOD: counsel
PASSAGE: "Nowhere in the Constitution is the Federal Government given the enumerated power to provide counsel as a matter of right in civil cases. This is judicial overreach."
Correct: {"frame": "rights", "needs_flag": false, "scope": "expansion", "stance_frame": "anti", "stance_scope": "anti", "confidence": 0.9, "quote": "provide counsel as a matter of right", "justification": "deontic constitutional argument rejecting counsel as \"a matter of right\" | stance_frame anti; opposes extending counsel to civil litigants who currently lack it | stance_scope anti; scope tracks subject matter (expansion), independent of polarity"}

Example 4.
GOOD: recreation
PASSAGE: "The Parks and Recreation Subcommittee will meet on Thursday to consider the appropriations bill for fiscal year 2024."
Correct: {"frame": "none", "needs_flag": false, "scope": "none", "stance_frame": "neutral", "stance_scope": "neutral", "confidence": 0.97, "quote": "will meet on Thursday to consider the appropriations bill", "justification": "procedural | committee meeting announcement, no framing"}

Example 5.
GOOD: water
PASSAGE: "The EPA estimates that $30 billion in infrastructure investment is needed to bring lead pipes up to standard. Communities of color disproportionately face contamination."
```

```
Correct: {"frame": "welfarist", "needs_flag": true, "scope": "improvement", "stance_frame":
↪ "pro", "stance_scope": "pro", "confidence": 0.9, "quote": "$30 billion in infrastructure
↪ investment is needed", "justification": "fiscal/infrastructure framing; \"communities
↪ of color disproportionately face contamination\" names a specific population bearing
↪ elevated risk (cf. Example 22); upgrading existing water infrastructure, not new eligibility"}

Example 6.
GOOD: transit
PASSAGE:
↪ "Mass transit serves 10 million riders daily. The Federal Transit Administration's annual budget
↪ supports critical infrastructure that connects workers to jobs and reduces road congestion."
Correct: {"frame":
↪ "welfarist", "needs_flag": false, "scope": "none", "stance_frame": "pro", "stance_scope":
↪ "neutral", "confidence": 0.85, "quote": "connects workers to jobs and reduces road congestion",
↪ "justification": "ridership metrics, economic effects: \"connects workers to jobs\" favorably
↪ affirm the welfarist case (stance_frame pro); purely descriptive stats with no actual argument
↪ to expand eligibility or improve existing service, so scope=none and stance_scope is neutral"}

Example 7.
GOOD: health care
PASSAGE: "The Substance Abuse and Mental Health
↪ Services Administration provides treatment for people who cannot help themselves. We need to
↪ ensure addicts receive proper care so they can recover and become productive members of society."
Correct: {"frame": "paternalist", "needs_flag": true, "scope":
↪ "improvement", "stance_frame": "pro", "stance_scope": "pro", "confidence": 0.88, "quote":
↪ "people who cannot help themselves", "justification": "\"cannot help themselves\", recipients
↪ framed as needing guidance; \"addicts\" | addiction/substance dependency is itself a qualifying
↪ vulnerable population; about care quality within an existing program, not eligibility"}

Example 8.
GOOD: housing
PASSAGE: "I rise to honor the Northeast Detroit Housing Authority for fifty
↪ years of service. Memorial submitted to the Committee on Banking, Housing, and Urban Affairs."
Correct: {"frame": "none",
↪ "needs_flag": false, "scope": "none", "stance_frame": "neutral", "stance_scope": "neutral",
↪ "confidence": 0.95, "quote": "I rise to honor the Northeast Detroit Housing Authority for
↪ fifty years of service", "justification": "purely procedural: memorial submission, no framing"}

Example 9.
GOOD: counsel
PASSAGE: "I have served as legal counsel to the gentleman from Texas during
↪ the impeachment proceedings. Now I move that the previous question be ordered on the resolution."
```

```
Correct: {"frame": "none", "needs_flag": false,
↪ "scope": "none", "stance_frame": "neutral", "stance_scope": "neutral", "confidence": 0.96,
↪ "quote": "served as legal counsel to the gentleman from Texas", "justification": "\"counsel\"
↪ used in procedural sense (attorney role), not about provision of counsel as a benefit"}

Example 10.
GOOD: water
PASSAGE: "Water is life. Every child in every community deserves to drink water that will
↪ not poison them. This is not a privilege we grant | it is a basic human right we must guarantee."
Correct: {"frame": "rights", "needs_flag": false, "scope": "expansion",
↪ "stance_frame": "pro", "stance_scope": "pro", "confidence": 0.96, "quote": "it is a basic human
↪ right we must guarantee", "justification": "\"deserves\", \"basic human right\", \"guarantee\";
↪ \"every child\" is universal, not a specific struggling subgroup; universal-entitlement claim"}

Example 11.
GOOD: health care
PASSAGE: "The Affordable Care Act has reduced the uninsured
↪ rate by 40 percent and saved an estimated 50,000 lives. We must not repeal these gains."
Correct: {"frame": "welfarist", "needs_flag": false, "scope":
↪ "expansion", "stance_frame": "pro", "stance_scope": "pro", "confidence": 0.94, "quote": "reduced
↪ the uninsured rate by 40 percent and saved an estimated 50,000 lives", "justification": "outcomes
↪ metrics: \"reduced uninsured rate\", \"saved 50,000 lives\" affirm the welfarist case; \"must not
↪ repeal these gains\" opposes a cut that would shrink coverage | same as supporting expansion"}

Example 12.
GOOD: transit
PASSAGE: "Public transit is a civil right. Just as we fought for the right to ride
↪ in the front of the bus, we must fight today for transit equity in our underserved communities."
Correct: {"frame": "rights", "needs_flag": true,
↪ "scope": "expansion", "stance_frame": "pro", "stance_scope": "pro", "confidence": 0.93, "quote":
↪ "Public transit is a civil right", "justification": "explicit \"civil right\", historical
↪ rights struggle; \"underserved communities\" is a specific struggling population named alongside
↪ the deontic claim; argues to extend equitable service to communities that currently lack it"}

Example 13.
GOOD: housing
PASSAGE: "The federal government
↪ is shrinking away from its obligations to help those who need it the most | lower-income
↪ minority and immigrant families trying to realize the American dream of homeownership."
```

```
Correct: {"frame": "rights", "needs_flag":
↪ true, "scope": "expansion", "stance_frame": "pro", "stance_scope": "pro", "confidence": 0.85,
↪ "quote": "its obligations to help those who need it the most", "justification": "\"obligations\"
↪ is deontic rights vocabulary per the frame's own definition (cf. Example 20's \"responsibility
↪ to provide\"); lower-income immigrant families are the named struggling population, so
↪ needs_flag=true; argues these families should gain access to homeownership they currently lack"}

Example 14.
GOOD: water
PASSAGE: "The company's chairman doesn't even believe clean water
↪ is a human right. That tells you everything about how they see the people they're selling to."
Correct:
↪ {"frame": "rights", "needs_flag": false, "scope": "none", "stance_frame": "pro", "stance_scope":
↪ "neutral", "confidence": 0.85, "quote": "doesn't even believe clean water is a human right",
↪ "justification": "speaker criticizes a denial of the rights claim, implicitly endorsing water as
↪ a right (stance_frame pro); no specific struggling population named; meta-commentary on a denial,
↪ no actual coverage or efficiency argument made, so scope=none and stance_scope is neutral"}

Example 15.
GOOD: health care
PASSAGE: "Stop talking to me about return on investment. You don't put a price tag on whether
↪ a child can see a doctor when she's sick. Some things are not line items in a spreadsheet."
Correct:
↪ {"frame": "rights", "needs_flag": false, "scope": "none", "stance_frame": "pro", "stance_scope":
↪ "neutral", "confidence": 0.85, "quote": "Stop talking to me about return on investment",
↪ "justification": "explicitly rejects the ROI/cost-benefit lens as fundamentally inapplicable
↪ (\"stop talking to me about return on investment\", \"not line items in a spreadsheet\") | rule
↪ (b): rights framing via rejection of welfarist framing, stance_frame pro; no population named;
↪ no explicit coverage/efficiency argument made, so scope=none and stance_scope is neutral"}

Example 16.
GOOD: housing
PASSAGE: "Elderly veterans on fixed incomes are being pushed into homelessness because they
↪ cannot afford rent | these are people who need our help the most, and after everything they've
↪ sacrificed, a safe place to live is something this country owes them, not a favor we do them."
Correct: {"frame": "rights", "needs_flag": true, "scope":
↪ "expansion", "stance_frame": "pro", "stance_scope": "pro", "confidence": 0.9, "quote": "a
↪ safe place to live is something this country owes them, not a favor we do them", "justification":
↪ "deontic claim dominates (\"owes them, not a favor\"); needs language (\"cannot afford\",
↪ \"need our help the most\") about a specific population (elderly veterans) sets needs_flag
↪ rather than splitting the frame; argues to get assistance to a currently-unhelped population"}

```

```
Example 17.
GOOD: health care
PASSAGE: "Health care
↪ is a fundamental right that every American deserves | and providing it universally would also
↪ save the system money by shifting care from expensive emergency rooms to preventive checkups."
Correct: {"frame": "mixed", "needs_flag": false, "scope": "expansion",
↪ "stance_frame": "pro", "stance_scope": "pro", "confidence": 0.93, "quote": "a fundamental right
↪ that every American deserves... would also save the system money", "justification": "explicit
↪ rights language (\"fundamental right\", \"deserves\") combined with welfarist cost-savings
↪ argument, neither dominant; \"every American\" is universal, not a specific population;
↪ \"providing it universally\" is always expansion, even with a secondary cost rationale"}

Example 18.
GOOD: health care
PASSAGE: "Migrant farmworkers are entitled to health care just like anyone else | but beyond the
↪ principle, covering them also just makes economic sense: preventive care for this workforce cuts
↪ emergency-room costs and keeps agricultural productivity from collapsing during harvest season."
Correct: {"frame": "mixed", "needs_flag": true, "scope": "expansion", "stance_frame":
↪ "pro", "stance_scope": "pro", "confidence": 0.85, "quote": "entitled to health care just
↪ like anyone else... covering them also just makes economic sense", "justification": "explicit
↪ rights language (\"entitled to\", \"just like anyone else\") combined with an explicit welfarist
↪ cost/productivity argument, neither dominant; migrant farmworkers are the named struggling
↪ population, so needs_flag=true; argues to extend coverage to a currently uncovered workforce"}

Example 19.
GOOD: health care
PASSAGE: "My colleague says health care is not a right guaranteed anywhere in law. I disagree
↪ completely | access to care is something every person in this country is entitled to, full stop."
Correct: {"frame": "rights", "needs_flag":
↪ false, "scope": "expansion", "stance_frame": "pro", "stance_scope": "pro", "confidence":
↪ 0.95, "quote": "access to care is something every person in this country is entitled to, full
↪ stop", "justification": "explicit rebuttal of a \"not a right\" claim; \"entitled to\" affirms
↪ the rights frame; beneficiary is universal (\"every person\"); universal-entitlement claim"}

Example 20.
GOOD: health care
PASSAGE: "Our Government does have a responsibility
↪ to provide basic things like food and shelter and health care for our own poverty-stricken.
↪ I am afraid if this amendment is not included, the poor will be left holding the bag."
```

```
Correct: {"frame": "rights", "needs_flag":
↪ true, "scope": "expansion", "stance_frame": "pro", "stance_scope": "pro", "confidence":
↪ 0.85, "quote": "a responsibility to provide basic things like food and shelter and health
↪ care", "justification": "\"responsibility to provide\" is a duty claim (rights, not welfarist,
↪ despite the population); \"poverty-stricken\"/\"the poor\" names the specific beneficiary,
↪ so needs_flag=true; argues for coverage this population would otherwise be excluded from"}

Example 21.
GOOD: health care
PASSAGE: "Senior citizens spent an average of $2,800 out of pocket
↪ for health care last year | almost $1 in every $4 of limited incomes already stretched to pay
↪ for food, housing, and heat. Senior citizens should be paying less for medical care, not more."
Correct: {"frame": "welfarist", "needs_flag": true, "scope": "improvement", "stance_frame":
↪ "pro", "stance_scope": "pro", "confidence": 0.9, "quote": "Senior citizens should be paying less
↪ for medical care, not more", "justification": "elevated financial burden on a specific vulnerable
↪ population (seniors on limited, fixed incomes), argued through cost data, not entitlement;
↪ about affordability for people who already have Medicare access, not new eligibility"}

Example 22.
GOOD: health care
PASSAGE: "Asian Pacific Americans face significant health disparities:
↪ 50 percent are medically underserved because the cost of health insurance is a major barrier for
↪ those who are self-employed or work for small businesses without employer-sponsored coverage."
Correct: {"frame": "welfarist", "needs_flag":
↪ true, "scope": "expansion", "stance_frame": "pro", "stance_scope": "pro", "confidence":
↪ 0.88, "quote": "the cost of health insurance is a major barrier", "justification": "targets
↪ a specific underserved population via disparity statistics and cost barriers | consequentialist
↪ framing, no entitlement language; argues to get the currently-underserved covered"}

Example 23.
GOOD: health care
PASSAGE: "I rise tonight during Cover the Uninsured Week to draw attention to a national
↪ crisis. According to the Census Bureau, 45.8 million Americans are without health insurance.
↪ Millions more encounter coverage so inadequate it leaves them exposed to enormous medical bills."
Correct: {"frame": "welfarist", "needs_flag":
↪ true, "scope": "expansion", "stance_frame": "pro", "stance_scope": "pro", "confidence":
↪ 0.92, "quote": "45.8 million Americans are without health insurance", "justification":
↪ "the uninsured population's deprivation IS the passage's subject (\"Cover the Uninsured
↪ Week\", \"national crisis\"), not an aside; the uninsured getting covered is the actual claim"}

Example 24.
GOOD: health care
```

```
PASSAGE: "This budget cuts 48 education programs, falls $12
↪ billion behind on No Child Left Behind, slashes first responder funding by 10 percent, and does
↪ nothing for the estimated 500,000 low-income children in this state who lack health insurance."
Correct:
↪ {"frame": "welfarist", "needs_flag": false, "scope": "expansion", "stance_frame": "neutral",
↪ "stance_scope": "neutral", "confidence": 0.85, "quote": "does nothing for the estimated 500,000
↪ low-income children in this state who lack health insurance", "justification": "the low-income
↪ children stat is one grievance among several unrelated budget cuts; the passage is about
↪ the budget overall, not that population's need | needs_flag=false guard case, and this holds
↪ even though the population is specifically named and precisely quantified (naming/quantifying
↪ does NOT override the guard); stance_frame/stance_scope both neutral because the passage never
↪ affirmatively argues the children should be covered, just lists budget failures; \"does nothing
↪ for\" them is still an expansion-relevant scope claim regardless of centrality or stance"}

Example 25.
GOOD: health care
PASSAGE: "Low-income mothers struggling with
↪ opioid addiction often won't seek treatment on their own | we need targeted outreach that goes
↪ into these communities and gets them into recovery, for their own sake and their children's."
Correct: {"frame": "paternalist", "needs_flag": true, "scope": "expansion",
↪ "stance_frame": "pro", "stance_scope": "pro", "confidence": 0.85, "quote": "often won't seek
↪ treatment on their own... for their own sake and their children's", "justification": "recipients
↪ framed as needing intervention/guidance for their own good (paternalist); \"low-income
↪ mothers\" is a specific demographic-vulnerability subgroup, so needs_flag=true; \"targeted
↪ outreach... gets them into recovery\" argues to bring people not currently in treatment into it"}

Example 26.
GOOD: recreation
PASSAGE: "Public
↪ parks and recreation centers reduce obesity rates by 15 percent among regular users and generate
↪ two dollars in local economic activity for every dollar invested in recreation infrastructure."
Correct: {"frame": "welfarist", "needs_flag": false,
↪ "scope": "none", "stance_frame": "pro", "stance_scope": "neutral", "confidence": 0.85, "quote":
↪ "reduce obesity rates by 15 percent", "justification": "outcomes/ROI metrics: \"reduce obesity
↪ rates\", \"economic activity\" favorably affirm the welfarist case (stance_frame pro); purely
↪ descriptive stats, no actual argument to expand eligibility or improve existing service | per the
↪ CAUTION rule, ambiguous/unaddressed scope codes none, and stance_scope is neutral accordingly"}

Example 27.
GOOD: health care
```

```
PASSAGE: "Voting Obama into office got us what? A corporate health care atrocity invented by the right-wing Heritage Foundation? Some reluctant movement on gay rights that were all but inevitable? More wars? More militarism? Half-hearted calls to tax the rich with no supporting action? Sell-outs on issue after issue?"
Correct: {"frame": "none", "needs_flag": false, "scope": "none", "stance_frame": "neutral", "stance_scope": "neutral", "confidence": 0.8, "quote": "A corporate health care atrocity invented by the right-wing Heritage Foundation", "justification": "health care is one item in a list of grievances about a politician's record (alongside gay rights, wars, taxes), dressed up as parallel rhetorical questions rather than a comma-separated list | same guard as the list rule; \"atrocity\" expresses disappointment in the outcome, not a rights/entitlement claim about what health care should be; no coverage or cost argument made; not rule (b) | no cost/efficiency framing is being rejected, just a policy's ideological pedigree"}

Example 28.
GOOD: health care
PASSAGE: "We need two things at once: bring down premiums and out-of-pocket costs for the working families who already have coverage through their jobs, and extend Medicaid to the millions of adults in this country who still have no coverage at all."
Correct: {"frame": "welfarist", "needs_flag": false, "scope": "mixed", "stance_frame": "pro", "stance_scope": "pro", "confidence": 0.87, "quote": "bring down premiums and out-of-pocket costs", "justification": "argues BOTH to lower costs for people who already have coverage (improvement) AND to extend Medicaid to the currently-uncovered (expansion), neither dominant | scope=mixed; stance_scope pro since the speaker supports both claims"}

Example 29.
GOOD: health care
PASSAGE: "I roll my eyes so hard anytime someone equates universal health care with socialism and the downfall of our nation. Plenty of capitalist countries have universal coverage without collapsing | even South Korea, an extremely capitalist and materialistic society, has universal health care."
Correct: {"frame": "welfarist", "needs_flag": false, "scope": "expansion", "stance_frame": "pro", "stance_scope": "pro", "confidence": 0.75, "quote": "Plenty of capitalist countries have universal coverage without collapsing", "justification": "does NOT trigger rule (b): \"socialism\" is an ideological LABEL, not a cost/efficiency argument, and rule (b)'s own CAUTION excludes label-rejection. The only actual argument here (\"other capitalist countries have this and don't collapse\") is comparative/empirical | welfarist, not deontic. Contrast Example 15, which rejects the ROI framing itself, not a label."}

Return JSON of this form exactly:
{"frame": "...", "needs_flag": false, "scope": "...", "stance_frame": "...", "stance_scope": "...", "confidence": 0.0, "quote": "...", "justification": "..."}
```

S3.3.0.2 User message.

The system prompt above is held fixed across passages; the user message supplies the good and the passage.

```
GOOD: <good>

PASSAGE:
"""
<passage>
"""

Classify the speaker's framing of the GOOD.
```

S4 Pre-Registration

We pre-registered our main study (AEA Registry #0012065), mechanisms study (AEA Registry #0014218), and targeting study (AEA Registry #0019601). Section S4.1 presents a key between our pre-registrations and where to find the analysis in the paper. Section S4.2 discusses the exhibits not included in the preceding text.

S4.1 Key to Pre-Registered Outcomes

We specify where in the paper each of our pre-registered outcomes is presented.

S4.1.1 Main Experiment

Primary Outcomes

1. Elicitation 1: Targeting [Section 6]
   (a) "Indicator for choosing to allocate the good to all 10 Recipients" [Table A14]
   (b) "Number of Recipients whom the Spectator chooses to receive the good (indifference point)" [Table A14, Figure 8]
2. Elicitation 2: Inalienability [Section 4.1]
   (a) "Indicator for choosing the maximum price to avoid switching the lottery" [Table A6, Appendix Figure S1]
   (b) "Willingness to pay to avoid switching the lottery (indifference point)" [Table A6, Figure 3]
3. Elicitation 3: Option value (i.e., Choice) [Section 4.2]
   (a) "Indicator for having a positive willingness to pay to ensure a choice" [Table A9, Figure 4C]
   (b) "Willingness to pay to ensure a choice (indifference point)" [Table A9, Figure 4B]
   (c) "Primary heterogeneity: willingness to pay to ensure a choice, conditional on having a high posterior belief that the recipient would choose cash" [Table A9, Appendix Table A11]
4. Elicitation 4: Universalism (i.e., Egalitarianism) [Section 4.3]
   (a) "Amount willing to forgo from outside option to provide the good (indifference point)" [Appendix Table A12, Appendix Figure A3]

Secondary Outcomes

1. "Correlations between Elicitation 1 outcomes and Elicitation 2, 3, and 4 outcomes (pairwise and joint)" [Table 2, Table S9]

2. "Tagging people as non-welfarist. We will identify people as non-welfarist if they engage in non-welfarist behaviors in any, some, or all of Eliciations 2, 3, and 4. We will report these numbers." [Figure S3A, Figure S6]

3. "Incentives. In Elicitation 1a, we employ a secondary treatment to test whether incentives affect behaviors. In 1a, we randomize whether we incentivize lawyers and placebos. The purpose of this randomization is to test the extent to which incentives matter (insofar as it could generate differences between lawyers and health care)." [Appendix Table A19]

4. "In a second test for the effect of incentives, we leverage the following source of variation. Because the presentation for the health care and lawyers varies slightly (including discussion of incentives), we randomize placebo goods into seeing the exact framing as lawyers versus health care, so some placebo goods are not incentivized throughout (see Experiment Details). This variation jointly tests the effects of presentation and incentives. Since we expect the presentation alone is small, it is also a test of the effects of incentives." [Appendix Table A20]

5. Elication 1a: Valuation

   (a) "Willingness to pay for the good (indifference point)" [Appendix Figure A5]

6. Elication 1b: Information [Appendix D.4.3.2]

   (a) "Share of people who revise choice about how to allocate good"

   (b) "Magnitude of revision in choice about how to allocate good" [Appendix Figure S2]

   (c) "Suggestive: instrumental-variables specification that instruments for the effect of beliefs on Elicitation 1-outcomes." [Table S6]

7. Secondary Heterogeneity

   (a) "The relationship between political party and exhibiting non-welfarist preferences (behaviors in Elicitations 1–4)" [Figure 5B, Figure S7]

   (b) "The relationship between personal experience (with facing legal problems without a lawyer or not seeking health care due to cost) and exhibiting non-welfarist preferences (behaviors in Elicitations 1–4)" [Figure 5B, Figure S7]

   (c) "The relationship between support for Right to Counsel and health care and exhibiting non-welfarist preferences (behaviors in Elicitations 1–4)" [Figure 9B, Figure S6]

(d) "The relationship between income and exhibiting non-welfarist preferences (behaviors in Elicitation 1–4). This heterogeneity is useful to explore because non-welfarist preferences may only be prevalent among the rich and/or those with high levels of education, in which case welfarist social welfare functions that aggregate up such preferences and place significant weight on "rights" would be regressive." [Figure 5, Figure S7]

S4.1.2 Stakes Experiment

Primary Outcomes [Section 5.2]

1. "Whether the person chooses to rerun the lottery (binary)." [Appendix Figure S4A]
2. "The amount that the person pays to rerun the lottery (continuous)." [Figure 6]
3. Whether the person chooses to pay the maximum amount to rerun the lottery (binary). [Appendix Figure S4B]

Secondary Outcomes

1. "We focus on the following secondary heterogeneity, treatment effect on outcomes by: Political party, Education" [Figure S8]
2. "As a secondary test, we pool the tests in comparison 1–2 (that is, we compare arms 1 and 3 together, vs arms 2 and 4 together)." [Figure 6, Appendix Figure S4]

S4.2 Additional Pre-Registered Outcomes

We now provide a brief discussion of additional outcomes.

S4.2.1 Main Study

Correlations Between Anti-Targeting and Egalitarianism. We pre-registered presenting correlations between anti-targeting and all 3 features experiments (pairwise and joint). In our main analysis, we focus on correlations in just the Inalienability and Choice Experiments due to the non-differential effect between rights goods and benchmarks goods in the Egalitarianism Experiment.

In Table S9, we supplement Table 2 with these tests. We find that non-welfarist preferences in the Egalitarianism Experiment, as well as our composite measure of non-welfarist preferences in the Inalienability, Choice, and Egalitarianism Experiments, predict redistributive decisions in the Original Goods Targeting Experiment. A 1 s.d. increase in WTP for egalitarianism is associated with a 5 pp increase in allocating universally. Considering average WTP across the inalienability, choice, and egalitarianism, a 1 s.d. increase correlates with a 12 pp increase, which only slightly improves the relationship (11 pp increase) when only averaging inalienability and choice. Additionally, this relationship is stronger for lawyers than for health care.

Tagging Non-Welfarists Using Egalitarianism. We pre-registered tagging non-welfarist using all 3 features experiments, but again report these numbers using just the Inalienability and Choice Experiments. In the Egalitarianism Experiment, we find high levels of non-welfarism that are not differential between rights and benchmark goods. Therefore, it is still interesting to tag non-welfarists using choices from this experiment. We adapt the analysis in Figure S3A in Figure S6. We present this analysis in the interet of completeness, but note that having positive WTP does not imply rights preferences in the egalitarianism experiment in the same way it does for inalienability and choice. This is because there is an instrumental benefit to providing the additional lawyer. Only 4% of this sample does not have positive WTP in the egalitarianism experiment; as a result, we find 99% have at least one of the three rights preferences and the remaining results are similar to the original analysis.

Secondary Heterogeneity in Anti-Targeting and Egalitarianism. We present above secondary heterogeneity on several dimensions (e.g. political and policy preferences, demographic characteristics) using participants' choices in the Inalienability and Choice Experiments. Now, we present such heterogeneity for the Inalienability, Choice, Egalitarianism, and Original Goods Targeting Experiments (Figure S7). Few heterogeneities are significant or consistent across experiments.

S4.2.2 Stakes Experiment

Secondary Heterogeneity. We pre-registered presenting heterogeneity in the treatment effect by political party and education for the this experiment (Figure S8). We find that neither of these splits produce statistically significant differences. Directionally, those who report being liberal or having a Bachelor's degree or more have higher WTP when stakes are high.

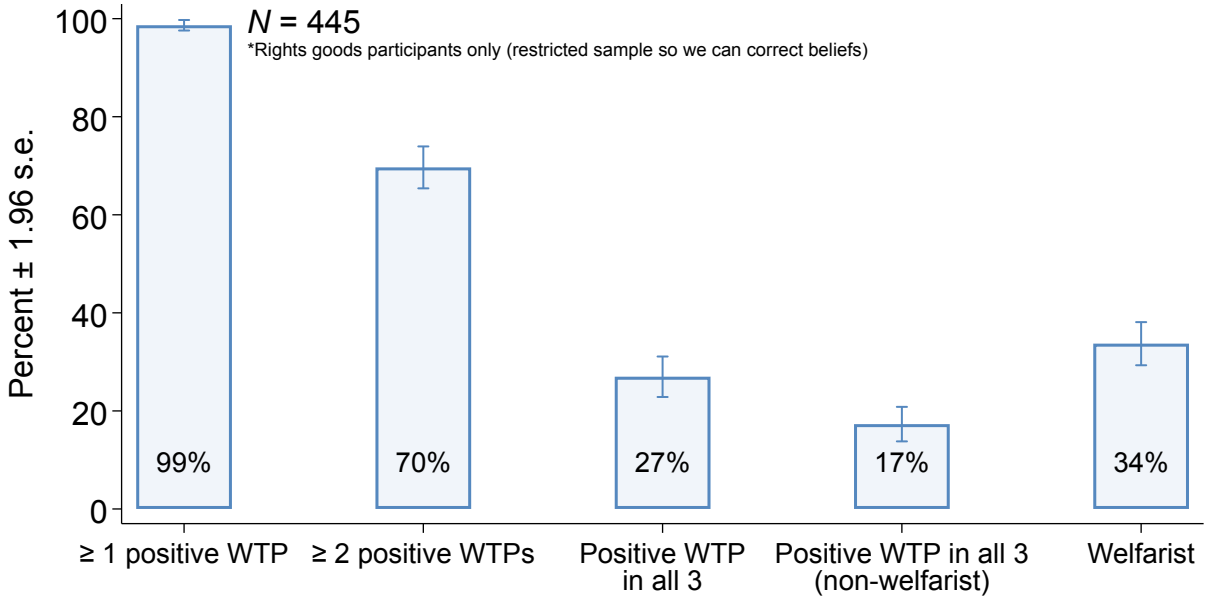
S4.3 Tables and Figures for Additional Pre-Registered Outcomes

Table S9: Tests of Correlations of Egalitarianism with Anti-Targeting

	Dep. Var.: Universal (=1)	
	(1)	(2)
Panel A. Rights goods (pooled)		
WTP for egalitarianism (s.d.)	0.048	
	(0.019)	
	[0.012]	
Mean WTP (s.d.)		0.120
		(0.027)
		[0.000]
Panel B. Lawyers		
WTP for egalitarianism (s.d.)	0.031	
	(0.017)	
	[0.067]	
Mean WTP (s.d.)		0.129
		(0.035)
		[0.000]
Panel C. Health care		
WTP for egalitarianism (s.d.)	0.021	
	(0.018)	
	[0.238]	
Mean WTP (s.d.)		0.089
		(0.040)
		[0.026]
Posterior ≥ 0.9		✓
Mean	0.428	0.437
Observations	1,201	600

Note: This table extends Table 2 to analyze WTP for egalitarianism. It shows the effect of WTP for egalitarianism and mean WTP in the Inalienability, Choice, and Egalitarianism Experiments. All WTPs are in terms of s.d. relative to the benchmark goods. The outcome is an indicator for whether the participant distributed the good universally. The sample is those who did the experiment with rights goods: Panel A shows pooled results, while Panels B and C show lawyers and health care, respectively. Columns (2), which includes measures of WTP from the Choice Experiment, further restricts to participants with posteriors ≥ 90. Parentheses show robust standard errors. Brackets show p-values.

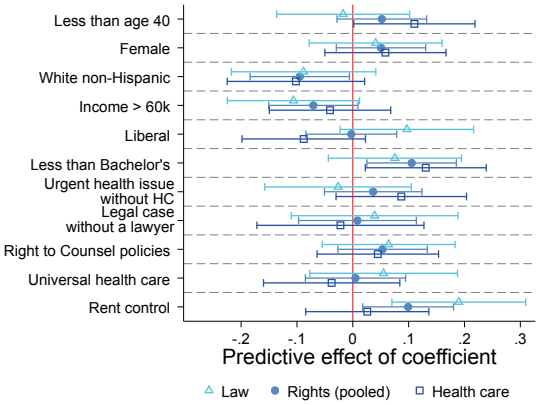
Figure S6: Prevalence, Including Egalitarianism



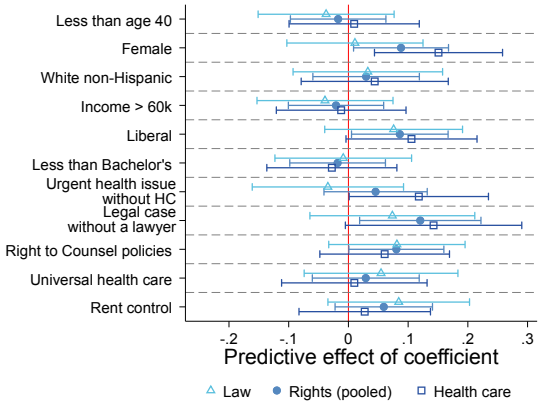
Note: This table extends Figure S3A to analyze prevalence of non-welfarist preference including egalitarianism. We modify that analysis considering three potential rights preferences: positive WTP in inalienability, choice, and egalitarianism.

Figure S7: Heterogeneity
in the Inalienability, Choice, Egalitarianism, and Original Goods Targeting Experiments

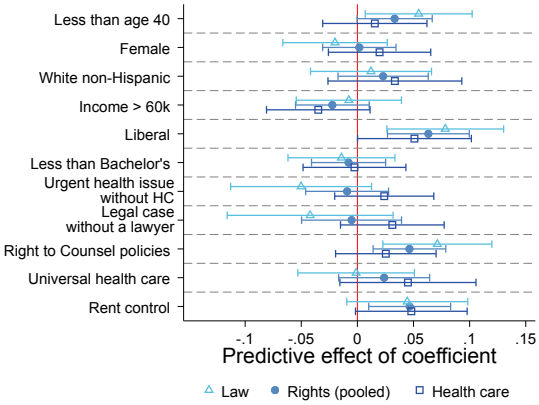
(a) Positive WTP for inalienability



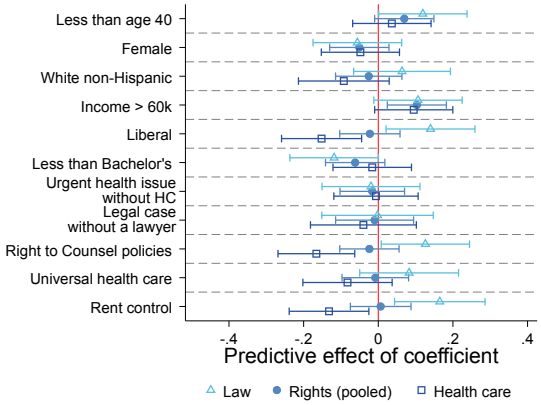
(b) Positive WTP for choice



(c) Positive WTP for egalitarianism

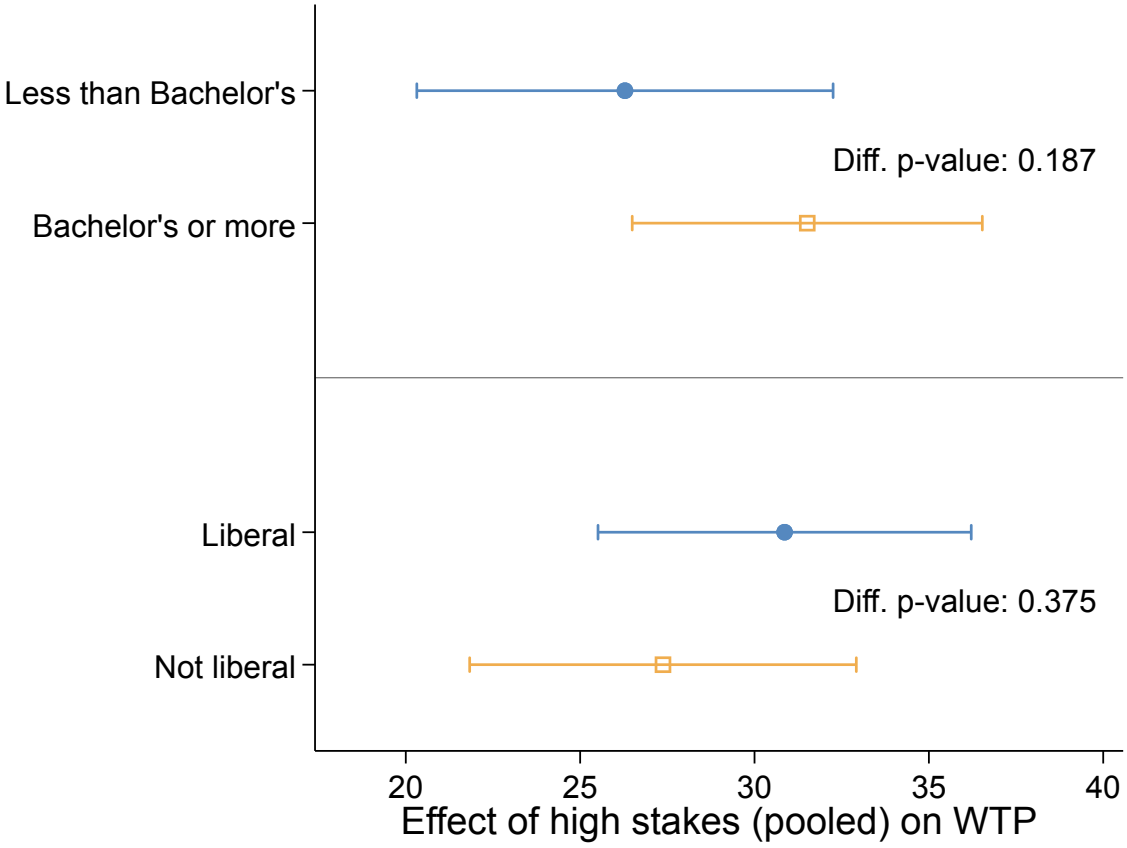


(d) Universal Allocation



Note: This figure shows the effect of different demographic characteristics and policy preferences on our main binary outcomes in each experiment. We present these effects on positive WTP for inalienability (panel A), positive WTP for choice (panel B), positive WTP for egalitarianism (panel C), and anti-targeting (panel D). All figures are restricted to participants who saw rights goods. Estimates are shown with with ± 1.96 standard errors.

Figure S8: Heterogeneity in Stakes Experiment



Note: This figure presents the effect of being in a high stakes arm on WTP to preserve the lottery in the Stakes Experiment for pre-registered subgroups. Participants were asked to report their level of education and political standing on a 5-point scale. Estimates are shown with with ± 1.96 standard errors.